The Past in the Present: A Living Heritage Approach - Meteora, Greece

《当下中的过去：迈泰奥拉的活态遗产方法》英中对照阅读版

Ioannis Poulios · Ubiquity Press · 2014

排版说明：这份原文件实际是一部完整专著，而不是短篇论文。为便于做阅读笔记，本版保留英文正文，并按“英文原文块 – 对应中文译文块”交替排列。英文来自你上传的 PDF，只做了断行、断词和少量排版字符修复；中文尽量保持作者原有概念、论证顺序与专名。正文覆盖 Introduction 至全书 Conclusion。图版、图题、详细脚注、References 和 Index 没有逐项翻译或重复收录；需要核对这些信息时可直接参照你上传的原 PDF。

Introduction

引言

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 1

To the layman, the phrase ‘living heritage’ might sound like an oxymoron. Is not ‘heritage’ something inherited from the past? Is it not, almost by definition, no longer ‘living’?... The emergence of this concept [of ‘living sites’] seems important in its own right as a step in the evolution of conservation thinking... Or is it, in fact, merely a recognition of the obvious – that many places deemed to be of heritage significance are still foci of traditional cultural practices? (Stanley-Price 2005, 1)

The problem

Since World War II there has been an increasing tendency towards the formulation of laws and conventions for the protection and management of heritage sites at national level and increasingly at an international level. Conservation approaches, however, often prove to be simplistic and linear in relation to the much more complicated living dimension at some heritage sites. Furthermore, despite the increasing rhetoric about the importance of recognising this living dimension of heritage sites and the need to involve local communities in site management, accompanied by a growing use of the term ‘living heritage sites’, in practice conservation professionals often seem to marginalise local communities and exclude them from site management. At the Orthodox monastic site of Meteora in Greece, in particular, there are currently six monastic communities, consisting of approximately sixty monks and nuns, devoted to the worship of God (figure 1). It is thanks to the permanent presence of this religious community that the site is still living, as the visitor-sign at the entrance of the Great Meteoron monastery clearly demonstrates (figure 2):

You are entering a living monastery. These grounds are sacred and you are asked to show reverence during your visit.

The monks and nuns continue to lead their monastic-ritual life on a site that is gaining increasing significance as a heritage site and also as a tourist attraction due to changing wider circumstances. The use of Meteora as a tourist and a heritage site has a remarkable impact on the everyday life of

the monks and nuns. At the same time, the permanent presence of these sixty persons significantly affects the use of the site by the other thousands of people involved in its tourism exploitation and heritage protection at local, national and international level. The relationship between the living (monastic) function of the site, its heritage protection and its use as a tourist attraction becomes in practice a question of who is in charge of the operation and management of the site on an everyday basis.

Research subject, objectives, questions, and case study

The present study deals with the complexities of the operation and management of living heritage sites. The main objective of this research is to reconcile their continual and evolving process of use and creation with the protection of their heritage significance. The main questions that this research addresses are:

• What is understood as a ‘living heritage site’, and how does this understanding conflict with other definitions of the term? • What are the complexities in the operation and management of living heritage sites, how do they differ from other sites in terms of operation and management? What are the problems faced by conservation

professionals in dealing with these sites? • Can the operation and management of living heritage sites fit within the current principles and practices of conservation, particularly in the strict World Heritage context?

• If the operation and management of living heritage sites lie outside currently understood principles and practices, what approach can be suggested for the management of these sites?

In order to explore the aforementioned questions, the present study focuses on the site of Meteora (a World Heritage Site) as its case study, while comparisons will be made with various other sites from different parts of the world. Emphasis is on World Heritage Sites because these sites, given their increased recognition in a national and international context, tend to reveal at a greater scale and with greater clarity the mechanisms and complexities of heritage management, as well as the conflicts between the different community groups in terms of values, power, and ethics. Meteora is chosen as the case study because it can explicitly demonstrate the complexities of the operation and management of living heritage sites at an international level. Specifically:

• Meteora monasteries have a complicated ownership status. As monuments of the past, they are part of the national heritage of Greece and belong to the Greek state, which protects them with a specific interest in their archaeological and art-historic value. The state has a well-established and strict system for the protection of its antiquities, which is historically attached to the Classical past. At the same time, as living monasteries, they belong to the Orthodox Church of Greece, which concentrates on their ritual function. Orthodox Christianity is the predominant religion of the Greek state, still followed by the vast majority of Greek citizens and with considerable influence in the everyday life of society. The Orthodox Church maintains strong historic links with the State but frequently develops a

policy that is contradictory to that of the State. Finally, the monasteries are owned, inhabited and used by the monastic communities. The monastic communities have a strong influence upon the life of local society. Also, though being part of the Church in administrative as well as spiritual terms, they frequently hold their own views. • Meteora monastic communities are very powerful in terms of administration as well as financial wealth, which further complicates the attempt to reconcile the monasteries' continual process of creation with the protection of their heritage significance. The power of the monastic communities is often manifested, for example, in the extensive unauthorised construction on the site, with considerable implications for the fabric and space of the site and subsequently for its national and World Heritage status. • Meteora poses significant challenges regarding the reconciliation of monasticism, heritage protection and tourism. Meteora is a typical Byzantine site in Greece in terms of administration (unlike Mount Athos, for example, which is a semi-independent region in Greece), and thus faces all the issues that any Byzantine site in Greece may possibly face. In terms of operation, however, Meteora should be differentiated from other Byzantine sites, given the magnitude and complexity of the issues it faces, such as: As a monastic site, Meteora is one of the largest complexes in Greece (second only to Mount Athos) containing six monastic communities with often conflicting views concerning the development of the site, which causes significant complexities in its operation. As a heritage site, Meteora has been inscribed on the World Heritage List as a site of outstanding cultural and natural significance, and is affected by developments in archaeology and heritage management at a state and international level. As a tourist site, Meteora is one of the most popular tourist destinations in Greece. This causes considerable problems for the everyday life of the monastic communities. It also brings significant financial benefit to them, frequently with consequences for the protection of the heritage significance of the site.

中文译文 · 阅读单元 1

对一般读者来说，“活态遗产（living heritage）”听起来似乎是一个自相矛盾的说法：遗产不是从过去继承下来的东西吗？从定义上说，它难道不应该已经不再“活着”了吗？Stanley-Price 因而提出，所谓“活态遗址”的出现，一方面似乎标志着遗产保护思想的演进，另一方面也可能只是承认一个显而易见的事实——许多被认定具有遗产意义的地方，今天仍然是传统文化实践持续发生的中心。

【问题】二战以后，各国以及国际层面越来越倾向于通过法律和公约来保护、管理遗产地。然而，对于某些仍具有复杂“生活维度”的遗产地而言，传统保护方法往往过于简单和线性。与此同时，虽然遗产领域越来越强调应承认这种活态维度、让地方社区参与管理，“活态遗产地”这一词也被频繁使用，但在实际工作中，保护专业人员仍常常把地方社区边缘化，甚至将其排除在管理之外。希腊的东正教修道院遗址迈泰奥拉正是一个典型案例。这里现有六个修道团体，约六十名修士和修女，以敬拜上帝为生活核心。正因为这些宗教共同体持续、永久地生活于此，迈泰奥拉才仍然是一个“活着的”地方。大迈泰奥拉修道院入口处的告示直接提醒游客：“你正在进入一座仍在使用的修道院。这里是神圣之地，请在参观期间保持敬意。”

随着更广泛社会环境的变化，迈泰奥拉作为遗产地和旅游景点的重要性不断上升，但修士与修女仍在这里继续其修道和礼仪生活。旅游与遗产利用显著影响他们的日常生活；反过来，这六十余名常住者的存在也深刻影响着地方、国家乃至国际层面参与旅游开发和遗产保护的数千人如何使用这里。因此，迈泰奥拉的活态修道功能、遗产保护与旅游利用之间的关系，在现实中最终落实为一个非常具体的管理问题：究竟谁有权决定这个地方每天如何运作、如何管理。

【研究对象、目标、问题与案例】本研究讨论活态遗产地在运行和管理上的复杂性，核心目标是调和两件事：一方面，遗产地持续不断、不断演化的使用和创造过程；另一方面，对其遗产意义的保护。作者提出四组主要问题：第一，何谓“活态遗产地”，这种理解与其他定义之间有何冲突？第二，活态遗产地在运行和管理上有哪些特殊复杂性，与其他遗产地有何不同，保护专业人员在处理这些地方时面对哪些问题？第三，这类遗产地的运行和管理能否纳入现行保护原则和实践，特别是严格的世界遗产框架？第四，如果现有原则无法容纳它们，应当提出怎样的替代性管理方法？

为回答这些问题，研究以世界遗产地迈泰奥拉为核心案例，同时与世界不同地区的其他遗址比较。作者尤其重视世界遗产案例，因为这类遗址在国家与国际层面的认可度更高，因而能以更大的尺度、更清楚地暴露遗产管理的机制与复杂性，也更容易显现不同社区之间围绕价值、权力和伦理形成的冲突。迈泰奥拉之所以适合作为案例，是因为它非常集中地体现了活态遗产运行和管理的多重矛盾。

首先，迈泰奥拉修道院的所有权和管理身份十分复杂。作为过去的历史纪念物，它们属于希腊国家遗产，国家从考古和艺术史价值出发对其实施严格保护；希腊古迹保护制度本身又长期与古典时代遗产紧密相连。与此同时，作为仍然运作的修道院，它们又属于希腊东正教会，教会首先关注的是宗教礼仪功能。东正教是希腊占主导地位的宗教，对社会日常生活仍有很大影响；教会与国家之间虽有深厚历史联系，却也经常形成彼此矛盾的政策。最后，修道院又实际由修道共同体拥有、居住和使用。这些共同体对地方社会影响很大，并且即使在行政和精神层面属于教会，也常常拥有自己的立场。

其次，迈泰奥拉修道共同体在行政与经济上都具有相当强的力量，这进一步增加了“继续创造修道空间”与“保护遗产价值”之间协调的难度。其力量最明显的表现之一，是遗址内规模较大的未经批准建设，这些建设改变遗产的物质实体与空间，并可能影响其国家遗产及世界遗产地位。第三，迈泰奥拉必须同时处理修道生活、遗产保护与旅游之间的关系。行政上它与希腊其他拜占庭遗址类似，并不像阿索斯山那样拥有半自治地位；但运行层面的复杂程度却远高于一般遗址。作为修道场所，它拥有六个修道共同体，是希腊仅次于阿索斯山的大型修道建筑群，各共同体对发展方向并不总是一致；作为遗产地，它同时以突出的文化和自然价值列入世界遗产名录，受到国家和国际考古学与遗产管理政策变化的影响；作为旅游地，它又是希腊最受欢迎的目的地之一，大量游客既给修道生活带来严重压力，也为修道共同体创造可观经济收益，而经济利益又可能反过来影响遗产保护。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 2

In an attempt to understand and face the aforementioned complexities of the living heritage site of Meteora, research was undertaken into the international theoretical principles and practical tools of conservation, mostly in the context of a values-based approach, as the current most preferred approach to conservation. However, through application of these international principles and tools to Meteora, it became clear that such an approach was inappropriate to the specific complexities of the site, and therefore there was a need to develop an alternative method for its operation and management.

Research outcomes

The contribution of this research may be summarised as follows:

• Suggesting a new interpretation of living heritage sites, clearly differentiating them from other sites, and also an innovative way of looking at the operational and management complexities of these sites. • Suggesting a new, radical approach to conservation that goes beyond the current ones (and particularly beyond a values-based approach). The new approach concentrates on the creators of the site as an inseparable part of the site, and distinct from other groups of people protecting and using the site. This approach shifts the focus of conservation from preservation towards a continual and evolving process of creation of sites, attempting to change the way heritage sites are perceived, protected and, more importantly, further created. It is important to note that, though a series of recent international developments in the field of conservation (eg. indigenous

archaeology) have originated from the non-Western world,

this study demonstrates that there are cases in which international developments in the field can be associated to places of the Western world as well. • Serving as a pilot study introducing new ways of understanding and managing Byzantine heritage sites inside and outside Greece.

Research methodology, and sources of material

In developing a new conservation approach for living heritage sites, the following steps were undertaken: A literature review allowed exploration and synthesis of the concept of a 'living heritage site'. In addition to the literature review, discussions with individuals involved in the management of living heritage sites in different parts of the world helped the exploration of the operational and management complexities of such sites, with an emphasis on community involvement in the conservation process. Visits to international organisations and institutions (UNESCO World Heritage Centre in Paris, UNESCO Intangible Heritage Sector in Paris, ICCROM in Rome, and the Getty Conservation Institute in Los Angeles) provided a firm understanding of differing conservation approaches, particularly concerning the living dimension of heritage and community involvement in site management, and helped the examination of whether living heritage sites can fit within the current principles and practices of conservation. These visits allowed the exploration of the underlying philosophy, the latest trends and the future perspectives of these differing approaches. It was decided that the present study does not include an analysis of the UNESCO Convention for the Safeguarding of the Intangible Cultural Heritage (UNESCO 2003) and of the associated issues (such as the policy behind its signing, its differences and similarities with the UNESCO Convention Concerning the Protection of the World Cultural and Natural Heritage and the potential as well as complexities of the merging of the two Conventions, and the difficulties of the implementation of the Convention), despite their relevance to a broader discussion of the living dimension of heritage. It was deemed that such an analysis would go beyond the size and the scope of the present study; this analysis could be the subject of a future study. Field trips to India, Cyprus, Russia, and Greece allowed the study of living heritage sites in various parts of the world giving me the opportunity to make comparisons between these sites and Meteora in terms of their living dimension, and to examine diverse ways of dealing with this living dimension. The trip to India allowed the exploration of the very strong association of local communities with particularly religious sites in the context of a heritage protection system that is strongly influenced by colonialism. Added to this, was the context of a rapidly changing wider economic, political and social environment with concomitant implications for heritage. The visits to Russia and Cyprus resulted in an examination of differing systems and approaches towards the protection of Byzantine heritage. The material from the visits to specific heritage sites in Russia and Cyprus was eventually not included in the present study, for reasons related to its size. Other World Heritage Byzantine sites in Greece helped to place Meteora in the context of other sites within the same system of heritage protection. The above allowed evaluation of Meteora in a wider framework which led to the formulation of a series of findings. These findings were then applied to the study of Meteora in the context of living heritage sites at an international level, giving a much broader context as well as a much greater perspective to the research. Sources of data concerning the site of Meteora are as follows:

• The World Heritage listing documents of the site (World Heritage Centre in Paris).

中文译文 · 阅读单元 2

为了理解并处理上述复杂性，作者首先考察国际遗产保护的理论原则与实践工具，尤其是目前最受推崇的“价值导向方法（values-based approach）”。然而，把这些国际原则和工具应用到迈泰奥拉以后，作者发现，它们并不能妥善处理该遗址的特殊复杂性，因此有必要为其运行和管理发展一种替代性方法。

【研究成果】本研究的贡献主要有三点。第一，提出一种新的“活态遗产地”解释，使其能够与其他类型遗产地更清楚地区分，并用新的方式理解这类遗产在运行和管理中的复杂性。第二，提出一种超出现有保护方法、尤其超越价值导向方法的较为激进的新路径。该方法把遗址的“创造者”视为遗址不可分割的一部分，并把他们与其他负责保护或使用遗址的人群区别开来。这样，保护工作的重点便从“保存既有遗产”转向“让遗址持续、演进地被创造”，从而试图改变人们如何认识、保护，更重要的是如何继续创造遗产。作者特别说明，尽管近年的一些国际遗产创新——例如原住民考古学——源自非西方世界，但本研究表明，类似的理论突破同样可能由西方世界内部的案例触发。第三，本研究还希望作为一个试验性研究，为希腊国内外的拜占庭遗产提供新的理解和管理方式。

【研究方法与资料来源】作者采用多种方法。首先，通过文献回顾梳理并综合“活态遗产地”的概念；其次，与

世界不同地区实际参与活态遗产管理的人士讨论，以理解这类遗产在运作和管理上的难题，尤其关注社区如何参与保护。作者还访问巴黎的联合国教科文组织世界遗产中心、非物质文化遗产部门、罗马的 ICCROM 以及洛杉矶的盖蒂保护研究所，以比较不同保护方法在“遗产的活态维度”和“社区参与”方面的理念与实践，并检验活态遗产能否被当前保护原则真正容纳。这些访问也帮助作者理解不同方法背后的思想、最新趋势与未来方向。

尽管《保护非物质文化遗产公约》（2003）与本文主题密切相关，作者仍决定不系统分析该公约，例如其签署政策、与《保护世界文化和自然遗产公约》的异同、两套公约结合的可能性与复杂性，以及实施困难等，因为这些问题会超出本书篇幅和研究范围，可留待未来研究。作者还赴印度、塞浦路斯、俄罗斯和希腊进行田野调查。印度的调查用于理解在深受殖民主义影响的遗产保护体制下，地方社区与宗教遗址之间极其强烈的联系，并考察迅速变化的经济、政治、社会环境对遗产的影响。俄罗斯和塞浦路斯的调查帮助比较不同的拜占庭遗产保护制度；其中若干具体材料最终因篇幅未收入本书。希腊其他世界遗产中的拜占庭遗址，则帮助把迈泰奥拉放入同一国家保护体系内进行比较。通过这些比较，作者能够在更宽广的框架中评估迈泰奥拉，再把得到的结论放回国际活态遗产讨论中。

资料还包括世界遗产申报与列名文件、修道共同体出版物、当地及区域旅游推广研究、地方报刊、希腊文化部档案、地方拜占庭文物管理机构档案，以及作者与各类参与者的访谈和现场观察。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 3

• Publications of the monastic communities, studies for the tourist promotion of the site and the wider region, and local press. • The archive of the Ministry of Culture, which includes: first, the archive of the Directorate of Restoration of Byzantine and Post-Byzantine Monuments (DABMM) concerning the operation and management of the site during the first decades after World War II (approximately 1950-1980); and second, the archive of the local Ephorate of Byzantine Antiquities that is responsible for the site of Meteora with regard to more recent management issues of the site. It is important to note that the archive of the Ministry of Culture is out-of-date particularly concerning the spatial arrangement of the monasteries, mainly because of the extensive scale of the monastic communities' unauthorised (i.e. not approved by the Ministry) construction activity. To give an example, a five storey building has been erected at the Roussanou Monastery (see below), and the Ministry does not have a map or ground plan of it. Consequently, in order to examine changes in the use and arrangement of the space, analysis relied on a few ground plans that have been published (Papaioannou 1977, 30), which depict the 'original' arrangement of space without taking into account contemporary changes. It should also be noted that there is no management plan for the site. • Discussions with community groups with an interest in the operation of Meteora at local and state level. These allowed an understanding of the way monasticism, heritage protection and tourism operate in Greece, and also the exploration of specific complexities in the operation of the site of Meteora in particular. Such discussions were either with specific individuals (cited in the text as, for example, 'pers. comm. Maximi' or 'pers. comm. Antonis Piniaras', and listed all together at the end of the present study) or with groups of people (cited in the text as, for example, 'pers. comm. Roussanou Monastery' or 'pers. comm. Kalampaka city'). In the case of groups, members of authority within a group were approached to represent the views of the whole group (it was practically impossible to gather and talk to all the members of a group at a given time). There were also cases in which anonymity was requested and these were respected. • Personal investigation and photographs of the site. This approach helped in filling the gap created by the unavailability of material particularly with regard to the contemporary changes in the spatial arrangement of the monasteries. Photographs of the monasteries' buildings were taken with the permission of the monastic communities of the site.

Structure

The present study consists of three parts and a conclusion. Part 1 discusses existing approaches to conservation. Specifically: Chapter 1 provides a definition of the discipline of conservation, and outlines the key developments in the discipline since its birth. Emphasis is on the concept of authenticity. Authenticity, seen as a product of Western European cultural history, is inextricably linked to a discontinuity imposed between the monuments, considered to belong to the past, and the people of the present, and also heavily focuses on the preservation of the fabric of the monuments. Chapter 2 examines the attempts of the discipline of conservation to recognise and embrace the importance of the living dimension of heritage sites, in terms of communities' association with sites and also the need for communities' involvement in site management. Chapter 3 presents existing approaches to conservation, in which the aforementioned developments in the discipline could be

encapsulated: namely a material-based approach and a valuesbased approach. The weak points of the two approaches are pointed out.

中文译文 · 阅读单元 3

文化部档案主要包括两类：一类是拜占庭与后拜占庭纪念物修复局的档案，涉及二战后最初几十年（约1950—1980年）的遗址运行和管理；另一类是负责迈泰奥拉的地方拜占庭文物主管机构档案，用于了解较新的管理问题。作者特别指出，这些国家档案在修道院空间布局方面常常已经过时，原因之一是修道共同体进行了大量未经文化部批准的建设。例如，Roussanou 修道院已经建起一座五层建筑，而文化部甚至没有相应地图或平面图。因此，研究空间使用和布局变化时，只能结合少量已经发表、主要反映“原初”空间而没有纳入现代改变的平面图。遗址本身也没有统一的管理规划。

作者还与地方和国家层面关心迈泰奥拉运作的不同社群进行讨论，以理解希腊的修道制度、遗产保护和旅游体系如何运作，以及这些制度在迈泰奥拉具体交汇时产生何种问题。访谈既包括个人，也包括群体。对于群体，研究通常请具有权威或代表性的成员表达整体观点，因为不可能在同一时间与全体成员交谈；对于要求匿名者，则尊重匿名要求。作者也亲自调查并拍摄遗址，以弥补当代空间变化资料不足的问题，修道建筑的照片均在获得修道共同体许可后拍摄。

【全书结构】本书由三部分和结论组成。第一部分讨论既有的遗产保护方法。第1章界定遗产保护这一学科，并概述其发展过程，重点分析“真实性（authenticity）”。作者认为，真实性是西欧文化历史的产物，它与一种被人为建立的“不连续性”密切相关：纪念物被归入“过去”，当代人则属于“现在”；因此保护特别强调保存纪念物的物质实体。第2章讨论遗产保护领域如何逐渐尝试承认遗址的活态维度，包括社区与遗址的联系，以及让社区参与管理的必要性。第3章把上述发展概括为两种主要路径：“材料导向方法（material-based approach）”与“价值导向方法（values-based approach）”，并指出二者的弱点。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 4

Chapter 4 deals with the definition and management of a living heritage site. A variety of different uses of the term are presented. These suggest different types of communities' association with sites, each of different strength, yet all under the heritage authorities' control over a site. Then, a new approach is outlined, which links the concept of a living heritage site to that of the continuity of a community's original association with the site. The strong points of this approach are presented, as well as certain points of concern. The elements of this new approach that emphasises the concept of continuity are then further developed and expanded, through a detailed account of the conservation and management of the monastic site of Meteora in Greece (Part 2), towards a more holistic definition of a living heritage approach (Part 3). Part 2 provides a detailed account of the conservation and management of Meteora. Specifically: Chapter 5 offers a general description of the site, in terms of its landscape and its history. It is shown that initially, since the end of the tenth - the beginning of the eleventh century until approximately the 1960s, Meteora was exclusively a monastic site; From the 1960s onwards, Meteora retains its monastic function, while increasingly being used as a major heritage and tourist site at a national and international level. Chapter 6 places Meteora within the systems of monasticism, heritage protection and tourism operation. The interdependence of monasticism, heritage protection and tourism operation is outlined. Emphasis is on the key role of the monastic communities in the tourism industry (as those who control the public access to the site) and the complexities this role poses to heritage protection. Chapter 7 discusses the meaning of Meteora as an Orthodox monastic site. Emphasis is on the concept of the Tradition of the Orthodox Church (i.e. any teaching or practice that has been transmitted from generation to generation throughout the life of the Orthodox Church), which defines authenticity in the context of the Orthodox Church. An attempt is made to draw the link between God as believed and worshipped in the Orthodox Church and the specific monastic space and practices at Meteora. The way Tradition has been applied to the site of Meteora over time is analysed. Specifically, from the 11th century to approximately 1940, the original Tradition has been applied to the site. At that time, the monks focused on their personal salvation through the worship of God. From the 1960s to present, however, contemporary influences that were not strictly within the Tradition of the Orthodox Church, namely the externally originated philanthropic-missionary approach to monasticism, have been applied to the site. This approach seems to have altered the practicing of monasticism at the site, shifting the focus of the monks from their personal salvation (through worshipping God) towards the salvation of the WIDER society and towards the acceptance and encouragement of tourism development (through serving the visitors and the WIDER society). Chapter 8 is dedicated to the presentation of the conservation and

management of Meteora (1960 to present), through an examination of the way monasticism, heritage protection, and tourism operate. Reference is made to various examples, such as: the shooting of a James Bond film, studies for the tourism development of Meteora and the broader region, the widening of the road network, and unauthorised construction activity on the site. Chapter 9 is dedicated to the analysis of the conservation and management of Meteora (1960 to present). The recent history of Meteora is divided into three broad phases, on the basis of the changing relationship between monasticism, heritage protection and tourism operation over time. It is demonstrated that the most important factor that has affected the site is the growth of the tourism industry. Chapter 10 studies the use and arrangement of space at Meteora (1960 to present), as affected by the growth of the tourism and heritage industries. It is demonstrated that the monastic communities, as a result of their acceptance of tourism in the context of the philanthropic approach, have become increasingly restricted within their existing space, and therefore seek to create new space.

中文译文 · 阅读单元 4

第4章进一步讨论“活态遗产地”的定义和管理。作者展示这个术语的多种既有用法，这些用法实际上对应社区与遗址强弱不同的关系，但共同点是：遗址最终仍由遗产主管机构控制。随后作者提出新的定义方向，把“活态遗产”与某个社区和遗址之间原初联系的“连续性”联系起来，同时说明这种方法的优势和需要警惕的问题。以“连续性”为核心的思路将在第二部分通过迈泰奥拉的详细案例继续发展，并在第三部分形成更完整的“活态遗产方法”。

第二部分专门分析迈泰奥拉的保护与管理。第5章介绍遗址景观及历史：约从10世纪末、11世纪初一直到20世纪60年代前，迈泰奥拉基本是专门的修道场所；60年代以后，修道功能继续存在，但它越来越同时成为国家与国际层面的重要遗产地和旅游地。第6章把迈泰奥拉放入修道制度、遗产保护制度和旅游体系三者交叉的结构中，分析它们彼此依赖的关系。作者特别强调修道共同体在旅游中的关键作用——因为公共进入修道院的权力掌握在他们手中——以及这种权力给遗产保护带来的复杂后果。

第7章讨论迈泰奥拉作为东正教修道场所的意义，重点是东正教的“传统（Tradition）”：即在教会生命中代代传递的教导与实践，它同时构成东正教语境下判断“真实性”的基础。作者尝试把东正教中被信仰、被敬拜的上帝，与迈泰奥拉特定的修道空间和实践联系起来，并分析传统如何在不同历史阶段具体实现。11世纪至约1940年间，迈泰奥拉主要遵循原初传统，修士通过敬拜上帝追求个人得救；从20世纪60年代至今，外部形成的“慈善—传教式修道观”逐渐影响遗址。这种取向并不完全属于东正教传统本身，它使修道实践的重点发生变化：修士不再只把个人得救和敬拜上帝放在中心，而更多转向“帮助更广泛社会得救”，并通过服务游客和社会，接受甚至鼓励旅游发展。

第8章展示1960年至今迈泰奥拉的保护与管理实践，分别考察修道、遗产保护和旅游如何运行，并讨论多项具体事件，例如詹姆斯·邦德电影在此拍摄、迈泰奥拉及周边地区的旅游发展研究、道路拓宽，以及遗址上的未经批准建设。第9章对这些材料进行分析，把现代迈泰奥拉大致划分为三个阶段，依据是修道、遗产保护和旅游之间关系随时间发生的变化；作者认为，影响遗址最重要的因素是旅游业增长。第10章进一步考察1960年以来空间的使用与布局如何受到旅游和遗产产业发展的影响。由于修道共同体在“慈善式”理念下接纳旅游，他们在既有空间中越来越受到挤压，于是不断寻求创造新的空间。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 5

Chapter 11 summarises the key problems in the operation and management of Meteora, and suggests ways to deal with them. It is argued that the monastic communities, with the help of the heritage authorities and the other communities of the site, should move away from the philanthropic-missionary approach and concentrate more on the principles of the Tradition of the Orthodox Church. In this context, the focus would shift from the encouragement of tourism development back to the worshipping of God, and the challenge would be to incorporate tourism operation and heritage protection within monastic life. Part 3 presents a living heritage approach. References are made especially to the site of Meteora, but parallels are drawn with a variety of sites from different parts of the world. References are mostly to religious sites, but other sites are also taken into consideration. Specifically: Chapter 12 offers a new definition of a living heritage site, based on the further development of the concept of continuity (chapter 1.4) through a specific set of criteria and also embracing the way continuity has evolved over time to present. Chapter 13 demonstrates that the current approaches to conservation (a material-based and a values-based approach) and especially the strict World Heritage concept,

based on a discontinuity between the monuments of the past and the people of the present and heavily focusing on the preservation of the fabric (chapters 1.1 and 1.3), cannot embrace the criteria of the continuity of living heritage sites. Thus, a new conservation approach is required. Chapter 14 presents the main principles of a living heritage approach. A living heritage approach recognises the criteria of continuity as primary drivers for the definition, conservation and management of heritage. It also studies and manages the way these criteria have evolved over time, in an attempt to guarantee the relevance of heritage to the contemporary society. Conservation in the context of a living heritage approach primarily aims at the maintenance and enhancement of continuity, and safeguards heritage within continuity, even if in certain occasions the fabric might be harmed. Chapter 15 outlines a planning process methodology, in a series of specific steps, for the implementation of a living heritage approach by the conservation professionals. Emphasis is on the establishment of a formula of collaboration with the community of a living heritage site, the mapping of the way the continuity of the site has evolved over time to present, and finally on reviewing and revising conservation actions on the basis of their impact on the continuity of the site. The conclusion of the study summarises the contribution of a living heritage approach to the discipline of conservation. It is demonstrated that a living heritage approach challenges, for the first time in the history of conservation, very strong assumptions established over time in the discipline (which were developed along with a material-based approach and were maintained by a values-based approach). The differences between a living heritage approach in relation to a material-based and a values-based approach are then presented in detail, with an emphasis on the different way a living heritage approach looks at the concept of authenticity. Finally, it is noted that a living heritage approach suggests that the discipline of conservation should not simply attempt to expand within its current theoretical framework and practice, but should move towards a completely different context of understanding and safeguarding heritage: shifting the focus from preservation towards creation.

PART 1

Existing Approaches to Conservation

中文译文 · 阅读单元 5

第11章总结迈泰奥拉运行和管理中的核心问题，并提出可能的应对方式。作者主张，修道共同体应在遗产管理机构和其他相关社群的帮助下，逐渐摆脱“慈善—传教式”的修道取向，更集中于东正教“传统”的原则。这样一来，重点应从鼓励旅游发展重新转向敬拜上帝；真正的挑战是如何让旅游和遗产保护被纳入修道生活，而不是让修道生活反过来服从旅游和遗产管理。

第三部分系统提出“活态遗产方法”。讨论仍以迈泰奥拉为重点，但同时与世界不同地区的多种遗产比较，其中宗教遗产较多，也包括非宗教案例。第12章在此前“连续性”概念基础上，用一套更明确的标准重新定义活态遗产地，同时承认连续性本身会随时间发展和变化。第13章论证，现行的材料导向方法与价值导向方法——尤其严格的世界遗产框架——建立在“过去的纪念物”与“现在的人”之间的不连续性之上，并把物质实体保存置于中心，因此无法真正容纳活态遗产所要求的连续性标准，需要新的保护方法。

第14章提出活态遗产方法的主要原则：把“连续性标准”作为定义、保护和管理遗产的首要驱动力，同时考察这些连续性如何演变到今天，以保证遗产对当代社会仍然具有意义。在这种方法中，保护的首要目标不是把物质保持不变，而是维持和强化连续性；遗产应当在连续关系中得到保护，即使某些情况下物质实体会因此受损。第15章进一步给出一套可操作的规划流程，供保护专业人员与社区共同实施，包括建立与核心社区的合作关系，描绘遗址连续性从过去演变到现在的过程，并根据各项行动对连续性的实际影响不断复核和修订保护措施。

全书结论总结活态遗产方法对遗产保护学科的意义。作者认为，这种方法第一次直接挑战了保护学科长期以来极为牢固的基本假设——这些假设在材料导向方法中形成，并在价值导向方法中延续。作者随后详细比较三种方法，尤其强调它们对“真实性”的理解不同。最终，活态遗产方法提出：遗产保护不应只在既有理论框架里继续扩大范围，而应转向一种根本不同的遗产理解与保护语境，即把关注点从“保存（preservation）”转向“创造（creation）”。

Chapter 1. Introduction: definition and development of conservation - the concept of authenticity

第1章：保护学科的定义与发展——真实性概念

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 6

Introduction: definition and development of conservation – the concept of authenticity

Heritage conservation is the discipline devoted to the preservation of cultural heritage for the future (Muñoz-Viñas 2005, 13). Heritage conservation emerged from a Western European world that had experienced the Protestant Reformation, the Catholic Counter-Reformation and the Enlightenment, and was based on a firm belief in science and rationality. Heritage conservation emerged and developed at the turn of the nineteenth century within the larger package of Western European modernity, identified by industrial capitalism, the nation state, rapid economic development, and a sense of human mastery over the natural world (Jokilehto 1995, 2021; 26−29; Cleere 1989, 1−2 and 7−8). Authenticity emerged as the key concept of heritage conservation. The safeguarding of authenticity may be considered the quest for truth in the field of culture (Jokilehto and King 2001, 33). The importance of the concept of authenticity was formally established at an international level with the adoption of the Venice Charter (ICOMOS 1964) and especially the Convention Concerning the Protection of the World Cultural and Natural Heritage (henceforth cited as the World Heritage Convention) (UNESCO 1972). In the context of the World Heritage Convention, authenticity may be seen as an ‘effort to ensure that those values are credibly or genuinely expressed by the attributes that carry those values’, and integrity as an ‘effort to refer to the completeness of the cultural heritage system which holds or contains those values’ respectively (Stovel 2004, 131). The World Heritage Convention (UNESCO 1972) and the accompanying Operational Guidelines for the World Heritage Committee/for the Implementation of the World Heritage Convention (henceforth cited as Operational Guidelines)1 (UNESCO 1977) concentrated on the ‘outstanding universal value’ of certain sites considered worthy of inscription on the World Heritage List, saw authenticity of the materials, in terms of ‘design, materials workmanship and setting’, as a key qualifying condition for the inscription of the sites on the List, and formed rigorous classification and measurement of inscription criteria and categories. The Nara Document on Authenticity (UNESCO 1994a; see also Larsen 1995) adopted a more dynamic understanding of authenticity based on

multiple aspects such as ‘form and design, materials and substance, use and function, traditions and techniques, location and setting, and spirit and feeling, and other internal and external factors’ (article 13), which was much later included in the Operational Guidelines (UNESCO 2005). Authenticity is essentially a product of Western European cultural history (Lowenthal 1995, 125−127; Jokilehto 1995, 18−29; Titchen 1995; Titchen 1996); authenticity is not applicable or even existent, or existent but with a completely different meaning, in several non-Western cultures (Ito 1995, 34−35). Specifically, the Western European world has a feeling of dissatisfaction with the present caused by its rapid change and mobility experienced in the last centuries. This feeling of dissatisfaction has created a taste for the known, the familiar, the predictable, the expected, the repeatable, rather than the unexpected, the innovative. In this rapidly changing reality, the past affords a comfortable and controllable context, and is thus seen in a nostalgic way. The dissatisfaction with the present creates a strong desire or need to experience traces of an ‘authentic’, supposedly more fulfilling past, and repossess and re-experience something untouched by the present. Authenticity is considered to be elsewhere: in other historical periods and other cultures, in purer simpler lifestyles and in a concern for nature (MacCannell 1999, 2−3; Lowenthal 1995, 122). The discipline of heritage conservation has as its fundamental objective the preservation of physical heritage of the past from loss and depletion in the present. Thus, heritage conservation, formed and still operating in this context of dissatisfaction with the present, creates discontinuity between the monuments, considered to belong to the past, and the people and the social and cultural processes of the present/future (Ucko 1994, 261−263; Walderhaug Saetersdal 2000; Jones 2006, 122). In this way, ‘conservation … is a modern concept that sees the past as divorced from the present and existing self-consciously outside tradition’ (Matero 2004, 69). This discontinuity created between the past and the present defines the main principles of conservation, such as the emphasis on the past and its tangible remains / the fabric, the notion that authenticity of heritage is non-‘renewable’ and the care for future generations. This discontinuity also defines the main practices of conservation regarding the fabric of heritage, such as those included in the Athens and Venice Charters (League of Nations 1931 and ICOMOS 1964 respectively): minimum intervention, respect for historic evidence, avoidance of falsification, preservation of the original, reversibility of interventions, compatibility of materials used in restoration, and the need to distinguish the original from the new material. It is this discontinuity that gives heritage authorities (mostly state-appointed), manned by conservation professionals, a dominant role in the conservation and management process of heritage, while defining the boundaries of their intervention. It is this discontinuity that generally

makes the discipline [of conservation]... such a difficult and crucial one, ...much more conscious and artificial than ever before, and still it seems that there is no other path which the responsible modern heritage manager can take... we [heritage managers] dare only, in the words of the Burra Charter, to do 'as much as necessary but as little as possible' to conserve the site as it now is. (Sullivan 2004, 50)

Furthermore, key characteristics of the World Heritage approach could be also put down to this discontinuity, such as: the concept of 'outstanding universal significance', the rigorous classification and measurement of listing criteria and categories, the separation between natural and cultural heritage, and the hierarchical character of the List ('splitting heritage into that which gets on the List – the minority – and that which is deemed not worthy of World Heritage status –the majority': Sullivan 2004, 50). The Western European approach to conservation was then transferred, and even imposed, in other parts of the world, envisaging indigenous/non-Western cultures through Western eyes, in a broader context of colonialism. This led to the suppression and even breaking of the indigenous/

中文译文 · 阅读单元 6

【第1章：保护学科的定义与发展——真实性概念】遗产保护是一门以把文化遗产保存给未来为目标的学科。作者指出，这门学科产生于经历宗教改革、反宗教改革和启蒙运动的西欧世界，其思想基础是对科学和理性的坚定信念。19世纪之交，它与工业资本主义、民族国家、快速经济发展以及人类能够控制自然的现代性观念一起形成并发展。“真实性（authenticity）”逐渐成为核心概念，可以被理解为文化领域中对“真实”的追求。1964年的《威尼斯宪章》、尤其1972年的《世界遗产公约》，使真实性在国际层面得到正式确立。在世界遗产制度中，真实性关注承载价值的属性能否可信、真实地表达这些价值；完整性则关注包含这些价值的文化遗产体系是否完整。早期世界遗产制度强调“突出普遍价值”，并把设计、材料、工艺和环境等物质层面的真实性作为列入《世界遗产名录》的重要条件，同时建立严格的申报标准和分类。1994年《奈良真实性文件》使真实性理解更动态，开始同时关注形式与设计、材料与实体、用途与功能、传统与技术、地点与环境、精神与感受等因素，这一思路后来被纳入《操作指南》。

作者认为，真实性本质上是西欧文化史的产物，在一些非西方文化中它并不存在，或具有完全不同的意义。西欧近几个世纪经历快速变化和高度流动，由此产生对“现在”的不满，并形成对熟悉、可预测、可重复事物的偏好。快速变化的现实让“过去”看起来更舒适、更可控制，于是过去被怀旧地想象为一种更充实、更纯粹的“真实”。真实性仿佛总在别处——在其他历史时期、其他文化、更简单纯粹的生活方式以及更接近自然的状态中。遗产保护恰恰在这种对当下不满的环境中形成，它的基本目标是防止过去的物质遗产在现在损耗或消失，因此人为制造了“过去的纪念物”与“现在/未来的人及社会文化过程”之间的不连续性。保护被理解为一种现代概念：它把过去与现在分离，让过去自觉地存在于传统之外。

这种“不连续性”决定了传统遗产保护的许多原则：重视过去及其有形遗存；认为遗产真实性不可“再生”；强调为未来世代保存；在实际修复中采用最小干预、尊重历史证据、避免伪造、保存原物、使干预可逆、修复材料相容以及区分原物与新材料等原则。它也赋予主要由国家任命、由保护专业人员组成的遗产机构主导地位，并由这些机构界定自身可以干预的边界。正因此，保护工作越来越自觉、人工化，专业人员只能谨慎地遵循“必要的尽可能多，实际的尽可能少”这一原则。世界遗产制度的其他特点——例如突出普遍价值、严格量化与分类申报标准、自然遗产与文化遗产的分离，以及名录把少数“值得进入世界遗产”的对象与大量未入选对象区分开的等级性——也都可以追溯到这种过去与现在的不连续。

随后，这套西欧保护观念在殖民主义背景下被移植甚至强加到世界其他地区，人们用西方视角理解原住民和非西方文化。结果是当地社区与遗产之间的关系遭到压制甚至断裂：传统知识、管理制度和日常维护实践被取消，人群本身也常被从遗产地点迁走。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 7

non-Western communities' associations with their heritage: the communities' (traditional) knowledge, management systems and maintenance practices were abolished, and the communities were physically removed from heritage places (Said 1978; Abu-Lughod 1989; Byrne 1991, 270−276; Layton 1989, 11; Bahrani 1998; Scham 2003, 173−176; De Cesari 2010; Meskell 2010, 192). Given this discontinuity imposed by Western-based conservation between the past and the present, two main ways of seeking and safeguarding authenticity may be identified, which are phenomenally contradictory to each other. A first way is to preserve,

‘freeze’ a chosen - considered ‘glorious’ - past phase of a site, at the expense of the development of the life of the site in the present and the future. Emphasis is on the preservation of the fabric of the monuments, mostly of the initial phase of the history of the site, with negative consequences on the present local community’s association with the site (Ucko 1994b, xviii; Lowenthal 1995, 130−131). An example of this is Stonehenge in the UK (a World Heritage Site), where heritage authorities ‘attempt to ‘freeze’ the landscape as a palimpsest of past activity… [F]reezing time and space allows the landscape or monuments in it to be packaged, presented and turned into museum exhibits’ (Bender 1999, 26). Another example is Great Zimbabwe in Zimbabwe, which since the settlement of the British in the nineteenth century and until approximately the early 1990s had been seen and preserved as an ancient medieval structure (built by a race considered superior to the country’s indigenous population), at the expense of any other post-medieval phase of the site and at the expense of the present-day associations of the local indigenous people with the site (Ucko 1994a, 271−275; Ndoro 1994, 619−622; Ndoro and Pwiti 2001, 30−32; Ndoro 2001, 37−51; Pwiti 1994). A second way is to enliven a chosen past phase of a site, also with negative consequences upon the present local community’s association with the site. This enlivening process is attempted through the imposition of contemporary interpretations, elements and processes upon the past, for example through reconstruction sites and recreation ‘performances’ (Ucko 2000). A characteristic example of a reconstruction site is the so-called Great Zimbabwe Traditional Village, constructed as a ‘live museum’ in the World Heritage Site of Great Zimbabwe in Zimbabwe, to be later relocated just outside the site (Ndoro and Pwiti 1997, 4−8), while a characteristic example of a recreation ‘performance’ is Inti Raymi (or Sun Festivity) that takes place in the site of Sacsayhuaman and in the World Heritage Site of Cusco in Peru (Ucko 2000, 67−68). These two phenomenally contradictory ways of safeguarding authenticity are linked to each other, given that any attempt of preserving a site might be also considered a way to enliven it (Lowenthal 2000, 410). The linking of these two ways is often evident in the same site, as illustrated in the aforementioned case of Great Zimbabwe, and also in the site of Mystras in Greece (Poulios forthcoming; for further information on the history of Mystras see below). At Mystras, the first way of safeguarding authenticity, i.e. ‘freezing’ a chosen past phase at the expense of the present and the future, is reflected in the preservation and anastylosis of its Byzantine monuments, which were considered its ‘glorious’ and ‘pristine’ monuments. The preservation and anastylosis of the monuments were linked to a series of actions: The site came under the ownership of the State and under the management of the Antiquities Service. The remaining inhabitants of the site were removed from the site, lost their rights over the ownership of the site, and their architectural changes to the site were considered ‘encroachments’ and were removed. Finally, the site was inscribed on the UNESCO World Heritage List on the basis of the significance of the site as a testimony to a cultural tradition which has disappeared (inscription criterion iii) and the importance of the fabric of the monuments in the progress and evolution in human history (inscription criteria ii and iv). The second way of safeguarding authenticity, i.e. enlivening a chosen past phase of a site through the imposition of contemporary interpretations upon the past, is reflected in the following elements: a) the support on the part of the heritage authorities of the belief that the inaugural ceremony of Constantine Palaeologos (i.e. the last Byzantine Emperor, before the Fall of the city of Constantinople to the Ottomans in 1453) took place in the site of Mystras, despite

the historic evidence against it; and b) the support on the part of the heritage authorities of an annual religious-cultural-athletic celebration (the so-called ‘Palaeologeans’) to commemorate the inaugural ceremony of Constantine Palaeologos. This celebration encouraged the development of a strong symbolic connection of the broader local community with the site, in an awkward combination of nationalist and religious feelings and an indirect attempt to regain the lost glory. Therefore, as a consequence of the combination of these two ways of safeguarding authenticity, the local community’s connection with the site was not only disrupted (in the context of ‘freezing’ a chosen past phase at the expense of the present and the future) but was also replaced by a new one of questionable historic validity (in the context of enlivening a chosen past phase of a site through the imposition of contemporary interpretations). Despite the attempts of Western-based conservation to seek and preserve an authentic past within its own cultures and also within non-Western cultures, authenticity remains unattainable and ‘chimerical’ (Lowenthal 1992, 185; see also McBryde 1997). Preserving an authentic past is ‘illusion’, and actually brings the opposite result (Lowenthal 1985, 410).

中文译文 · 阅读单元 7

在西方保护制度把过去与现在分开的前提下，作者指出，追求并保护“真实性”主要出现了两种表面上相反、实际上彼此相关的方式。第一种是把遗址历史中某一个被认为最“辉煌”的阶段保存、甚至“冻结”下来，以牺牲遗址在现在和未来继续生活、继续发展的可能性为代价。保护重点通常是最早或最重要历史阶段的物质遗存，这会损害当代地方社区与遗址之间的联系。英国巨石阵就是典型案例：管理机构试图把景观冻结成过去活动叠加留下的“重写本”，一旦时间和空间被固定，景观或纪念物便更容易被包装、展示并转化为博物馆式展品。大津巴

布韦也经历类似过程：从19世纪英国殖民者到约20世纪90年代初，遗址主要被当作一处古代中世纪建筑保存，并曾被错误解释为由“优于当地原住民”的族群建造；这种解释忽视了后中世纪阶段，也牺牲了当代原住民与遗址的联系。

第二种方式则是“让某个过去阶段重新活起来”，即用当代的解释、要素和过程重新制造过去，例如建设重构遗址或安排再现表演。大津巴布韦的“传统村”曾作为一种“活博物馆”被建在世界遗产范围内，后来移到遗址外；秘鲁萨克塞华曼和库斯科世界遗产地举行的 Inti Raymi（太阳节）则属于再现式表演。尽管“冻结过去”和“复活过去”看似相反，但二者可以同时发生，因为任何保存行为本身也可能是一种重新赋予过去生命的行为。

这种结合在希腊 Mystras 也很明显。一方面，遗产机构把拜占庭时期建筑视为遗址最“辉煌”和“纯粹”的阶段，通过保存和修复把这一阶段固定下来：遗址归国家所有并由文物机构管理，原有居民被迁出，失去对遗址的权利，他们在历史中形成的建筑改变也被视作“侵占”而清除；世界遗产列名同样主要依据已经消失的文化传统以及建筑实体在人类历史发展中的意义。另一方面，管理机构又支持一种当代建构出来的历史叙事，例如主张拜占庭末代皇帝 Constantine Palaeologos 曾在 Mystras 举行登基仪式，尽管历史证据并不支持；并通过每年举办宗教—文化—体育庆典“Palaeologeans”纪念这一事件。这种活动在更广泛地方社会中建立了强烈象征联系，把民族主义和宗教情感混合起来，间接追寻失落的荣耀。最终，当地社区与遗址的原有关系一方面因“冻结过去”而被打断，另一方面又被一种历史真实性可疑的新关系取代。

作者因此得出重要判断：尽管西方保护制度不断试图在西方和非西方文化中寻找并保存“真实过去”，真实性仍然难以真正获得，甚至具有“幻象”性质。保存一个完全真实的过去本身就是幻觉，而且往往产生与初衷相反的结果。

Chapter 2. Recognising the living dimension of heritage sites

第2章：承认遗产地的活态维度

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 8

Recognising the living dimension of heritage sites

Presentation

The field of heritage conservation has been characterised, at an international level, by an increasing recognition of the importance of the living dimension of heritage sites, in terms of the communities' association with heritage sites, and also the need for communities' involvement in site management. Specifically, the early approaches to conservation in the late nineteenth and early twentieth centuries, such as the activity of the Cambridge Camden Society, the 'conservation movement', and philosophers like Alois Riegl (Jokilehto 1986, 295–298, 304–311 and 378–381; Stanley-Price et al. 1996, 69–83 and 18–21), could be seen as materialistic. They understood heritage as a tangible, material and non-renewable resource, and emphasised the need for the protection of this heritage from human practices considered to be harmful. It was only after World War II, in the Hague Convention for the Protection of Cultural Property in the Event of Armed Conflict (UNESCO 1954), that cultural property was recognised, at an international level, as human heritage (article 1). However, the scope of the convention was limited to protection in cases of war or violence (article 3). The Venice Charter (ICOMOS 1964) concentrated on cultural, aesthetic and historic values (article 9). The human dimension of heritage was acknowledged (preamble), but there was no direct reference to the people who may live in the monuments. The World Heritage Convention (UNESCO 1972) acknowledged ethnological-anthropological values (article 1), and made a direct link between heritage and the communities: 'Each State Party to the Convention shall endeavour . . . to adopt a general policy which aims to give the cultural and natural heritage a function in the life of the community' (article 5). It is also important to note that until the 1990s there was no reference in the World Heritage Convention and the Operational Guidelines to any living traditions; it was only 'cultural traditions or civilizations which have disappeared' that were taken into account (cultural criterion iii in UNESCO 1980; 1984; 1994c). The term 'living' first appeared in the mid-1990s: cultural traditions or civilizations 'which are living or which have disappeared' (UNESCO 1997 onwards, cultural criterion iii); sites 'directly or tangibly associated with events or living traditions' (UNESCO 1994c onwards, cultural criterion vi); or 'continuing cultural landscapes' that 'retain an active social life in contemporary society closely associated with the traditional way of life, and in

which the evolutionary process is still in progress' (UNESCO 1995) (on the attempts of the World Heritage concept to embrace living traditions see also Labadi 2013, 34−58).

The involvement of local communities in the World Heritage nomination process was initially discouraged, in order to avoid 'undue publicity' and 'public embarrassment' (UNESCO 1988; 1992; 1994c, paragraph 14), but was later seen as 'essential to make them feel a shared responsibility with the State Party in the maintenance of the site' (UNESCO 1996; 1999, paragraph 14). With the inclusion of 'cultural landscapes' (UNESCO 1995; see also Fowler 2003; Cleere 1995), traditional management mechanisms and systems of customary land tenure of the local-indigenous communities were recognised, initially as supplementary to modern scientific-based systems of conservation (UNESCO 1995; UNESCO 1997) and later also as exclusive management systems (UNESCO 2005) in parallel with a shift from the narrow concept of a management plan to the much broader concept of a management system (UNESCO 2005). The Nara Document on Authenticity (UNESCO 1994a; see also Stovel 2008) introduced the concept of 'cultural diversity', stating that heritage should be understood and managed in the specific local socio-cultural contexts to which it belongs (articles 11–12). The Burra Charter (ICOMOS Australia 1999) concentrated on the concept of 'cultural significance', referring to 'a deep and inspirational sense of connection to community and landscape . . . the past and lived experiences' (preamble), and attempted to 'democratise' the planning process by actively involving local, mostly indigenous, communities in the process (articles 12 and 26.3). The Budapest Declaration on World Heritage in 2002 (UNESCO 2002; see also Boccardi 2002), as well as a series of activities since then such as the meeting on 'World Heritage and Sustainable Development' and the adopted 'Action Plan for 2012' (UNESCO 2010), focused on the concept of 'sustainability' / 'sustainable development', linking conservation to the everyday social and economic interests and the quality of life of the local communities (article 6c). In 2007, a strategic objective that focused on 'communities' (known as 'the Fifth C') was adopted to guide the future implementation of the World Heritage Convention, stressing that 'heritage protection without community involvement and commitment is an invitation in failure' (UNESCO 2007).

Critique

Despite the increasing attempts to recognise the living dimension of heritage sites and the inclusion of intangible and less tangible heritage elements, conservation is still primarily attached to the protection of the material. With regards to the use of the term 'living' in the World Heritage concept, the World Heritage concept was originally developed upon the concept of dead traditions and sites, which were classified in strict listing categories. Later the World Heritage Committee attempted to take under consideration living traditions and sites by expanding the existing listing criteria and categories. In this way, living traditions and sites were added to the existing strict categories, and treated in the same way with the dead ones. For example, cultural traditions or civilizations 'which are living' were, and are still, included in the same category with those 'which have disappeared', while 'continuing cultural landscapes' were, and are still, included in the same category with 'fossil cultural landscapes'. This attempt to include living traditions and sites into existing categories proved to fail, revealing the subjectivity, ambiguity and ineffectiveness of classification. For example, the differences between a 'cultural site', a 'mixed site' and a 'cultural landscape' (see Rossler 2004, 48) are not significant, especially 'when it is clear that most of the world is a cultural landscape' (Sullivan 2004, 50). The classification might help towards the measurement of tangible expressions, but not of living traditions and sites: 'the concrete quantifiable values are easier to measure and manage but living natural and cultural sites are organic in the way they change and adapt and our practice sometimes does not suit the conservation of these values' (Sullivan 2004, 50−51). Additionally, the difficulty to take into account living traditions, particularly of the non-Western world, was also reflected in the World Heritage List, with severe

中文译文 · 阅读单元 8

【第2章：承认遗产地的活态维度——呈现】国际遗产保护领域逐渐认识到遗产地“活态维度”的重要性，其中包括社区与遗址之间的联系，以及让社区参与遗址管理的必要性。19世纪末和20世纪初的早期保护方法总体上具有物质主义倾向，把遗产理解为有形、不可再生的物质资源，并强调保护它免受被认为有害的人类活动影响。直到二战后的1954年《武装冲突情况下保护文化财产公约》，文化财产才在国际层面被明确视为“人类遗产”，但该公约主要限于战争和暴力环境下的保护。《威尼斯宪章》重视文化、美学与历史价值，虽承认遗产的人文维度，却没有直接讨论仍生活在纪念物中的人。《世界遗产公约》开始承认民族学和人类学价值，并明确要求遗产在社区生活中发挥作用。

不过，直到20世纪90年代以前，世界遗产制度主要关注已经“消失”的文化传统和文明，几乎不提活着的传统。9

0年代中期以后，“活态”才逐渐进入申报标准：包括仍然存在或已经消失的文化传统，与活着的传统直接相关的遗址，以及在当代社会中仍保有活跃社会生活、继续演化的“持续性文化景观”。社区参与的态度也发生变化。早期世界遗产申报甚至不鼓励地方社区参与，以避免过度宣传或公共尴尬；后来则把社区参与视为让社区与缔约国共同承担保护责任的重要条件。随着“文化景观”类别的引入，原住民和地方社区的传统管理机制与习惯土地制度逐渐获得承认：最初只是现代科学保护方法的补充，后来在某些情况下也可以成为独立的管理体系；与之相伴，世界遗产制度也从较狭窄的“管理规划”概念转向更广泛的“管理体系”。

《奈良真实性文件》提出“文化多样性”，强调遗产应在其具体地方社会文化语境中理解和管理。《布拉宪章》以“文化意义”为核心，强调社区、景观、过去与生活经验之间深刻而具有启发性的联系，并尝试通过让地方尤其原住民社区积极参与，来“民主化”保护规划。2002年《布达佩斯世界遗产宣言》以及之后的世界遗产与可持续发展行动，又进一步把保护与地方社区日常社会经济利益和生活质量联系起来。2007年，世界遗产委员会把“社区”正式列为第五个战略目标（第五个 C），强调没有社区参与和承诺的遗产保护注定容易失败。

【批评】作者认为，尽管保护领域不断尝试承认活态维度，也逐渐纳入无形和较少物质化的遗产要素，其基本重心仍然是物质保护。世界遗产制度原本围绕“已经死亡的传统和遗址”建立，并用严格类别进行分类；后来只是把活态传统和活态遗址加进原有类别，而没有根本改变分类逻辑。例如“仍然活着的文化传统”仍与“已经消失的文化传统”放在同一项标准中，“持续性文化景观”也与“化石型文化景观”放在同一类别中。把活态对象塞入既有分类，反而暴露分类本身的主观性、模糊性和低效：文化遗址、混合遗产与文化景观之间的界线并不总是实质性的。定量分类比较容易处理有形表达，但活态自然与文化遗址会有机地变化和适应，既有保护实践往往不适合这种变化。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 9

imbalances of certain categories of heritage and regions being over-represented: namely European heritage, historic towns, religious buildings, Christian churches, elitist and monumental architecture. The attempts of the World Heritage Centre to correct these imbalances and achieve a more representative World Heritage List (eg. through the Global Strategy for a Balanced, Representative and Credible World Heritage List: UNESCO 1994b) proved far from successful (Titchen 1995; Labadi 2005, 93−99). Therefore, the World Heritage concept originally considered only dead traditions, and it was much later that it attempted to include living traditions, and still by expanding or amending its criteria and categories rather than by substantially changing its underlying philosophy and fundamental principles. Despite the growing emphasis on local communities, there is still a concept of ‘a faceless abstract public’, defined and assessed by the heritage authorities (Jones 2006, 111; see also Cleere 1989, 10−11), and the concern for its involvement in site management remains to be converted into inclusive public debate, regulated by the heritage authorities (Schadla-Hall 1999, 156). Public involvement is defined by ‘a belief that the public either desires the conservation of heritage places in the manner advocated by the charters or should be encouraged to do so through education and involvement in conservation work’, and is addressed mostly ‘in presumptuous and naïve terms . . . more often treated as a realm of common knowledge or common sense’ (Byrne 2004, 19). With reference to the World Heritage concept, its most considerable developments over time, such as the principles of the Nara Document on Authenticity and the references to sustainability (see above), have not been successfully translated into actual policies or procedures for the implementation of the World Heritage Convention (see Labadi 2013, 34−58). Officially there is no World Heritage mechanism to ensure community involvement in the nomination and inscription process, and the local community is marginalised in nomination dossiers (Labadi 2013, 86−92 and 113). Specifically, the (level of the) involvement of local communities is not a qualifying criterion for inscription on the World Heritage List. The format of the nomination dossiers has not been changed: from 1997 onward, one of the direct references to the local community is made under ‘Section 5(e) Factors Affecting the site; Numbers of inhabitants within property, buffer zone’. In the majority of the nomination dossiers the local community is presented as constituting a threat to the site (in terms of population growth, encroachments of private properties onto the site, vehicle circulation and pollution, vandalism and graffiti). The commonly held view among States Parties is that the local community is not supposed to be concerned with or consulted regarding the identification, nomination and management of the site. The majority of the nomination dossiers do not mention the participation of the local communities in the decision-making and the sharing of information between different groups of communities, possibly ‘due to their perceived limited appreciation of the resource’ (Taruvinga and Ndoro 2003, 3), and still details of such participation are rather scant. The majority of the nomination dossiers does not mention the participation of the

local communities in the presentation of the sites either, and does not explain how the inscription of a site on the World Heritage List would assist with the generation of economic benefits to support local communities. The majority of the nomination dossiers still considers authenticity in terms of 'design, materials, workmanship and setting', and has not embraced the more dynamic understanding of authenticity on the basis of the Nara Document on Authenticity. Furthermore, the recent attempt to establish World Heritage Indigenous Peoples Council of Experts (WHIPCOE) as a consultative body of the World Heritage Committee or as a network to report to the World Heritage Committee failed, which 'indicates that, for some countries, local empowerment, and especially giving local minorities an international voice, can be considered dangerous and destabilising' (Sullivan 2004, 55). Therefore, on the one hand, heritage authorities are eager to create, maintain and involve a community that, it is assumed, will derive meaning and value from heritage sites. On the other hand, the concept of a community and the mechanisms for its involvement in site management remain abstract and problematic under the aegis of the heritage authorities.

Given this failure of the World Heritage concept to take on board living traditions and actively involve local communities, the World Heritage approach is sometimes taken advantage of by the national heritage authorities of the States Parties in an attempt to suppress or deny local and indigenous communities' associations with places. There are cases in which the World Heritage inscription of sites might have been sought in the first place for this reason. As it was noted with reference to Great Zimbabwe in Zimbabwe, the denial of suggested special associations of various communities with the site through the declared recognition or imposition of a new 'unified' National Heritage and especially World Heritage status is very convenient from the heritage authorities' perspectives (Ucko 1994a, 271−275; see also Pwiti and Ndoro 1999, 150; Pwiti 1996, 154−156; Ndoro 2001, 97 and 121−123). There are also cases in which present associations with sites are further suppressed after the World Heritage inscription of sites:

Nation-states feel that once a place is declared a World Heritage Site, the interests of local and traditional communities become irrelevant to its management demands. International interests … become paramount. The result has been that, in many cases, we [conservation professionals] have sought to replace traditional systems with what we think are better modern management systems. Very often we have succeeded in ensuring that people no longer recognize or own their heritage. We have also succeeded in undermining the very significant values that formed the basis for their inclusion on the World Heritage list… In many cases, heritage management practices have denied people access to their heritage. (Ndoro 2004, 81−82)

Conclusion

The discipline of conservation, originated in the Western European world, creates discontinuity between the heritage, which is considered to belong to the past, and the people of the present, and faces severe difficulties while attempting to take on board living traditions of the non-Western world. The notion of authenticity is inherently linked to a particular type of value – historic value:

Authenticity…presumes that some kind of historic value is represented by –inherent in- some truly old and thus authentic material (authentic in that it was witness to history and carries the authority of this witness). Thus, if one can prove authenticity of material, historical value is indelibly established. (Mason 2002, 13).

The World Heritage concept is still 'a uniform and non-flexible set of conservation theory without recognizing the broader meanings of heritage and cultural diversity' and without embracing a significant range of intangible heritage elements (Wijesuriya 2003, 3; see also Matsura 2004, 4−5). In contrast with the 'outstanding universal value' of an abstract global community, the manifest continuity and traditional links of the local communities with sites are not considered universal values (Ndoro 2004, 81−82).

中文译文 · 阅读单元 9

世界遗产制度难以真正处理活态传统，尤其非西方活态传统，也反映在《世界遗产名录》的结构失衡中：欧洲遗产、历史城市、宗教建筑、基督教教堂、精英和纪念性建筑长期被过度代表。世界遗产中心通过“全球战略”等方式试图建立更平衡、更具代表性和可信度的名录，但成效有限。因此，问题不只是过去没有纳入“活态传统”，而是后来仍主要通过扩展、修改既有标准与类别来纳入它们，而没有真正改变世界遗产制度的底层哲学和基本原则。

社区参与同样存在这种落差。虽然官方话语越来越强调地方社区，实际操作中仍然经常存在一个由遗产机构定义和评估的、没有具体面孔的“抽象公众”。所谓公共参与往往被限制在由专业机构控制的讨论之中，并假定公众本来就应该按照各种保护宪章倡导的方式支持遗产保护，如果不支持，就应通过教育和参与保护工作来被“引导

”。作者认为，这类表述往往过于想当然和天真，把复杂的社会关系当作常识。即使《奈良文件》和可持续发展理念在理论上推动了世界遗产制度，它们也没有充分转化为《世界遗产公约》实际执行的政策和程序。

正式制度中仍没有足够机制保证社区真正参与提名与列名，地方社区在申报文本中常被边缘化。社区参与程度并不是进入世界遗产名录的必要条件；申报格式中与社区直接相关的内容长期主要放在“影响遗址的因素”之下，例如记录遗产地和缓冲区人口数量。许多申报文件甚至把地方社区首先呈现为对遗址的威胁：人口增长、私人土地侵入、交通与污染、破坏行为和涂鸦等。很多缔约国默认，遗产一旦被认定为世界遗产，就应优先服从国际保护要求，地方和传统社区的利益反而不再重要。这样，保护专业人员常用自己认为更好的现代管理制度替代传统制度，使人们逐渐不再认识、拥有自己的遗产，甚至削弱了遗产当初得以列入世界遗产名录的那些重要价值。在某些情况下，遗产管理还直接阻止人们接近自己的遗产。

【结论】作者总结，起源于西欧的遗产保护学科在人为划分“属于过去的遗产”和“属于现在的人”之后，在试图吸收非西方世界的活态传统时始终遭遇严重困难。真实性概念尤其与“历史价值”紧密相连：人们往往假定真正古老、因此“真实”的材料本身承载并见证历史，只要证明材料真实，历史价值似乎就得到确认。即使今天，世界遗产制度仍带有统一、刚性的保护理论倾向，没有充分承认更广泛的遗产意义与文化多样性，也无法真正涵盖大量无形遗产。相对于一个抽象“全球共同体”的“突出普遍价值”，地方社区与遗址之间具体而持续的传统联系，仍很难被视为同等重要的普遍价值。

Chapter 3. Existing approaches to conservation

第3章：既有遗产保护方法

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 10

Existing approaches to conservation

The above-mentioned developments in the discipline of heritage conservation could be encapsulated in these two approaches, developed since the birth of the discipline to present: a materialbased and a values-based approach. These approaches, though appearing at different periods of time, are both applicable today (see also Poulios 2010a; Poulios 2014).

3.1. A material-based approach

Presentation

A material-based approach (also referred to as ‘authorised heritage discourse’: Smith 2006, 29 − 34; 299) shows an extreme focus on the preservation of the material/fabric. Examples of a material-based approach are: the early approach to conservation marking the birth of the discipline in the nineteenth century and the early twentieth century (such as the Cambridge Camden Society, the ‘conservation movement’, and the work of philosophers like Alois Riegl), and the development of the World Heritage concept and adoption of the World Heritage List (UNESCO 1972; see also Simmonds 1997; Byrne 1991). A material-based approach is best epitomised in the Venice Charter (ICOMOS 1964; see also Jokilehto 1998, 230). A material-based approach is an expert-driven approach. The exclusive responsibility over the definition and conservation of heritage is in the hands of heritage authorities (mostly stateappointed), manned by political officials and especially conservation professionals. Community is not taken into account (see UNESCO 1988; 1992; 1994c, paragraph 14) (figure 3). The significance of heritage, namely defined in archaeological/historic and aesthetic terms, is seen as intrinsic/inherent in the fabric. The use of heritage (by communities) is considerably limited to ensure its protection (by conservation professionals), and is conducted strictly with reference to modern scientific-based conservation principles and practices (ICOMOS 1964). The preservation of the fabric allows for only minimal interventions into heritage, with respect to the physical, material structure. Thus, fabric is seen as a non-‘renewable’ resource. The aim of conservation is to preserve heritage, seen as belonging to the past, from human practices of the present that are considered to be harmful, and transmit it to the future generations. In this

way, a form of discontinuity is created between the monuments and the people, and between the past and the present. The development of the broader area based on the exploitation of heritage is sought exclusively in accordance with the interests of the heritage authorities.

Critique

A series of successes in the preservation of the fabric of the monuments – which was the primary objective of conservation at the end of the nineteenth and the largest part of the twentieth century, mostly due to the long periods of political instability and the armed conflicts as well as the out-of-scale reconstruction and development that followed – are credited to the application of a material-based approach. The most significant weakness of a material-based approach is linked to the exclusive power of the conservation professionals, who are seen as the 'experts'. This means that the conservation process, as well as its results, depends to a large extent on the specific persons/individuals that comprise the team of the 'experts'. Another weakness of a material-based approach is related to its exclusive dependency on state support and funding (and not on a broader community consensus), which is not always feasible in the long-term. Furthermore, the approach does not embrace indigenous/non-Western communities' (eg. spiritual and religious) associations with the sites, nor their management systems and maintenance practices. As a consequence, the application of the approach in non-Western places has resulted in the breaking of communities' associations with their sites and in the long term in the harming of these sites, while on a

theoretical level it has been often seen as an attempt towards the imposition of Western-based views on the non-Western world, in a colonial context (see above). On the basis of these weaknesses, a material-based approach is today considered out-of-date, and thus conservation professionals prefer not to follow it; yet, it is still considered the prominent approach in a variety of places across the world. A characteristic example of a site that may reveal the weaknesses of a material-based approach is Angkor in Cambodia (a World Heritage Site). In the last decades, the heritage authorities of the site have heavily promoted the tourism development of the site. The local communities and the monks of the site have been gradually restricted on the site and occasionally even removed from it, and their association with the site has been altered: the local villagers are now becoming increasingly interested in the financial aspect of the site through their involvement in the tourism industry, while becoming a priest is now seen as a form of investment (Miura 2005).

3.2. A values-based approach

Presentation

中文译文 · 阅读单元 10

【第3章：既有保护方法】作者把遗产保护学科的发展概括为两种主要路径：材料导向方法与价值导向方法。两者产生于不同阶段，但今天都仍然存在。

【3.1 材料导向方法】这种方法也被称为“授权遗产话语”，极端强调保存遗产的材料与物质实体。19世纪至20世纪初的早期保护实践，以及世界遗产制度最初的发展，都是典型例子，《威尼斯宪章》则最能代表其原则。材料导向方法由专家主导：遗产的界定与保护责任掌握在遗产机构、政府官员尤其保护专业人员手中，社区基本不被纳入决策。遗产意义被认为内在存在于物质实体本身，主要以考古、历史和美学价值来界定。为了保证保护，社区对遗产的使用受到明显限制，而且只有符合现代科学保护原则和专业实践的使用才被接受。对实体的干预要求尽可能少，材料被视为不可再生资源。保护的目的，是把属于过去的遗产从被认为有害的当代人类活动中保存下来，并传递给未来世代。这再次在纪念物与人、过去与现在之间制造“不连续性”；地方发展如果要利用遗产，也必须服从遗产机构的利益和判断。

这种方法在保存历史建筑实体方面取得过重要成功，尤其是在19世纪末和20世纪大部分时间经历政治动荡、武装冲突以及随后大规模重建和开发的背景下。然而，它最大的弱点是专业人员拥有排他的权力，保护过程和结果高度依赖具体“专家”个人。它也过度依赖国家支持和财政，而不是广泛社区共识，长期并不总是可持续。更重要的是，它无法容纳原住民或非西方社区与遗址的精神、宗教联系，以及他们自己的管理制度和维护实践。因此，在非西方地区，这种方法常常打断社区与遗址的关系，长期甚至可能损害遗址本身。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 11

A values-based approach focuses on the values that society, consisting of various stakeholder groups / interest groups, ascribes to heritage. A value can be defined as 'a set of positive characteristics or qualities', while a stakeholder group / interest group is 'any group with legitimate interest in heritage' (Mason 2002, 27; Mason and Avrami 2002, 15; De la Torre 2005, 5; de la Torre, MacLean and Myers 2005, 77). A values-based approach has been developed since the 1980s, within the developments of post-processual archaeology (a form of archaeological theory that is related to the broader development of postmodernism, which encouraged

conservation professionals to become more engaged in a world beyond academia and to recognise other values, voices and perspectives in the practice and interpretation of archaeology: Hodder 1991; Trigger 1989; see also Demas 2002, 50; 34–35), and is considered the current most preferred approach to heritage conservation. An example of a values-based approach is the attempt of the World Heritage concept to evolve and open towards non-Western/indigenous communities and cultures (see above; UNESCO 1994a, article 4; UNESCO 1994b; 1996 / 1999, paragraph 14). A values-based approach is largely based on the Burra Charter (ICOMOS Australia 1999), and has been further developed and advocated through a series of projects of the Getty Conservation Institute (De la Torre 1997; Avrami, Mason and De la Torre 2000; Teutonico and Palumbo 2002; De la Torre 2002; Agnew and Demas 2002; De la Torre, MacLean, Mason and Myers 2005). In the context of a values-based approach, through the concepts of stakeholder groups and values, community is considered to be placed at the core of conservation. Heritage is not selfevident, with intrinsic/inherent values, as in a material-based approach; it is people / stakeholder groups that ascribe (subjective) values to it and define heritage, and thus heritage is seen as an extrinsic and social process. Therefore, the main aim of conservation is not the preservation of heritage itself, but the protection of the values imputed to it by the stakeholder groups (Mason and Avrami 2002, 25 and 22). A values-based approach tries to engage the whole range of stakeholder groups early on and throughout the conservation process, and resolve conflicts that inevitably arise between them assuring subjectivity and equity of conflicting stakeholders and different values (Mason and Avrami 2002, 19−23; De la Torre 2005, 4−8; Demas 2002, 49). Stakeholder groups are involved in a variety of ways: through consultation or, more often, through active participation or even through a (formally/legally established) interactive, joint management scheme with the heritage authorities, as in the cases of the World Heritage Sites of Kakadu National Park in Australia and Chaco Culture National Historical Park in USA, often cited as key examples of the successful application of a values-based approach at an international level (on Kakadu

National Park: Flood 1989, 87; Press and Lawrence 1995, 1–8; Sullivan 1985, 141–144; Wellings 1995, 242–244; Jones 1985, vi; 299–300; on Chaco Culture National Historical Park: de la Torre, Mac Lean and Myers 2005).

Critique

The most significant contribution of a values-based approach to the discipline of heritage conservation is linked to the encouragement and promotion of the involvement of communities in the conservation process, with important benefits for the communities themselves. Furthermore, the approach embraces the indigenous/non-Western communities' (spiritual, and religious) associations with the sites, their management systems and maintenance practices. The most considerable weakness of the approach is related to the power of the conservation professionals. Conservation professionals do not have the exclusive power in the conservation process (as in a material-based approach), but retain particularly increased power. Conservation professionals continue to favour the preservation of the tangible – rather than the intangible – heritage elements, and thus conservation continues to reflect mostly Western-based views. In this context, a values-based approach attempts to expand the concepts of a material-based approach, without yet substantially challenging them (see in detail Poulios 2010a, 172−175). Specifically, stakeholder groups are involved in the conservation process, yet in most of the cases within the framework and under the supervision of the conservation professionals (Demas 2002, 48−49; Mason and Avrami 2002, 16). Thus, though in theory conservation professionals may be seen as one of the stakeholder groups, in practice they are the managing authority themselves, supervising the stakeholder groups (figure 4). Hence, the concept of stakeholder groups (i.e. the key concept of a values-based approach), as defined and applied in a values-based approach, proves to be rather problematic, obtaining meaning and existence through conservation professionals' power. Furthermore, new stakeholder groups such as local and indigenous communities are also included (ICOMOS Australia 1999, articles 12 and 26.3), but the most favoured stakeholder groups tend to remain those associated with the preservation of the fabric (De la Torre 2005, 7). Values associated to the safeguarding of intangible heritage elements, such as user or social value, are also taken into account (see ICOMOS Australia 1999, preamble; articles 7.1 and 24.1−2), but their safeguarding is incorporated within and is serving the preservation of tangible remains (De la Torre 2005, 8). The traditional care of heritage by the communities is also recognised (ICOMOS Australia 1999, preamble, articles 7.1 and 24.1−2) yet only to the extent that it does not undermine modern scientific-based conservation principles and practices of conservation professionals. Heritage use (by communities) is generally accepted to the extent that it does not undermine heritage protection (by conservation professionals). More flexible recommendations are adopted in conservation practice such as varied approaches allowing reconstruction depending on the nature and values of heritage (ICOMOS Australia 1999, preamble, articles 7.1 and 24.1−2), yet it is mostly minimal interventions in the heritage fabric, with respect to the physical and material structure, that are allowed. Thus, the fabric is still preserved as a non-'renewable' resource (De la Torre 2005, 8). Therefore, the aim of conservation remains the preservation of heritage, considered to belong to the past, from

the people of the present, for the sake of the future generations (discontinuity). Development potentials based on the exploitation of heritage are sought in an attempt to serve the interests of the various stakeholder groups, yet with an emphasis on the interests of the conservation professionals and under their control. A characteristic example of a site that may demonstrate the weaknesses of a values-based approach is the Chaco Culture National Historical Park (CCNHP) in New Mexico in USA (a World Heritage Site) (de la Torre, MacLean and Myers 2005). The history of the site is inextricably linked to the presence of Navajo [Indian] indigenous communities, who settled in the area in the

中文译文 · 阅读单元 11

【3.2 价值导向方法——呈现】价值导向方法把注意力从“遗产材料本身”转向社会中不同利益相关者赋予遗产的价值。“价值”可以理解为一组积极特征或品质，“利益相关者/利益群体”则是任何对遗产拥有正当利益的群体。这一方法自20世纪80年代以来发展，与后过程考古学和更广泛的后现代主义密切相关。它鼓励保护专业人员走出纯学术世界，承认考古和遗产解释中存在不同价值、声音和视角，目前被广泛视为遗产保护中最受推崇的方法之一。世界遗产制度逐渐向非西方和原住民文化开放，《布拉宪章》以及盖蒂保护研究所一系列项目，都是这一方法的重要基础。

在价值导向方法中，社区通过“利益相关者”和“价值”两个概念被放到保护工作的中心。遗产不再被认为天然拥有固定的内在价值；相反，是人和不同群体赋予它主观价值并由此定义什么是遗产，因此遗产被理解为一个外在的、社会性的过程。保护的主要目标也不再只是保存遗产物本身，而是保护不同利益相关者赋予它的价值。理想状态下，应从规划早期到整个保护过程中持续纳入各类利益相关者，并通过协商处理他们之间不可避免的冲突，尽量保证彼此不同的立场与价值能够被公平考虑。社区参与方式可以从咨询、积极参与，一直到正式的联合管理。澳大利亚卡卡杜国家公园和美国查科文化国家历史公园，常被当作价值导向方法国际实践的代表性案例。

【批评】这一方法最重要的贡献，是明确鼓励社区参与，使原住民和非西方社区的精神、宗教联系、传统管理制度与维护实践获得承认。但作者认为，它最根本的弱点仍然是专业人员的权力。保护人员不再拥有绝对排他权，却仍然保留非常强的主导地位；他们也继续倾向于优先保护有形而非无形遗产，所以整个制度仍主要反映西方保护观念。换言之，价值导向方法更多是在扩展材料导向方法，而不是从根本上挑战后者。利益相关者通常仍在保护专业人员设定的框架和监督下参与；理论上专业人员也只是一个利益群体，实践中却往往同时担任管理者和监督者。这使“利益相关者”这一核心概念本身依赖于专业权力才获得意义。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 12

late sixteenth or the early seventeenth century and developed strong family, cultural and religious ties to the site. In designating the site as a National Monument and as a National Historical Park at the beginning of the twentieth century, the Park authorities (following a material-based approach) recognised officially only the aesthetic and age values of the archaeological remains, and moved the remaining Navajo communities out of the designated Park area. In the last decades, however, the Park authorities (following a values-based approach) have shown a consistent interest in the consultation and the active participation of Navajo communities in the conservation and management of the site through a joint management scheme, though still within their own rules and under their supervision and control. From the 1980s onwards, ‘New Age’ groups claimed the right to perform rituals on the site, which were seen by the Navajo communities as violating their own religious beliefs. Faced with this conflict between these two stakeholder groups, the Park authorities felt they had only two alternatives: either allow both groups to perform rituals or ban them totally. Favoring one group over another in religious issues would be considered discrimination on the basis of religion, according to the American Constitution. As a result, the Park authorities decided to prohibit all religious ceremonies in places regarded as sacred. Therefore, despite the attempts on the part of the Park authorities in the last decades, the primary aim has always been the protection of the tangible remains of the site.

Conclusion

The key principles of the discipline of heritage conservation, as developed along with a materialbased approach and maintained by a values-based approach, may be summarised as follows (see also McBryde 1997, 94; Clavir 2002, xxi; Jones 2006, 111): first, the responsibility for the operation and management of sites is in the hands of the conservation professionals; second, the authenticity of heritage is primarily associated with the fabric of the sites despite the increasing recognition of intangible elements, and the emphasis on the original meanings and uses of the sites despite the increasing recognition of the later developments in the history of the sites; and

third, heritage is considered a monument of the past that has to be protected from the present community, for the sake of the future generations.

中文译文 · 阅读单元 12

价值导向方法虽然纳入地方和原住民群体，但最受重视的往往仍是那些支持保存物质实体的利益群体。使用价值、社会价值等无形价值会被考虑，却通常被整合进“保护有形遗存”这一更高目标。社区传统照护实践也会得到承认，但前提是不能违背专业人员所认定的现代科学保护原则。社区使用遗产被接受，也通常以“不损害保护”为边界。虽然保护规范比过去灵活，例如根据遗产性质与价值允许不同程度的重建，实际仍主要允许对实体进行最小干预，并把材料当作不可再生资源。因此，遗产最终仍被视为属于过去、需要从现在的人手中保护下来并传给未来世代，“不连续性”并未真正被打破。围绕遗产开发的利益可以被讨论，但保护专业人员的利益和控制仍具有优先地位。

美国新墨西哥州查科文化国家历史公园体现了这种局限。纳瓦霍原住民自16世纪末或17世纪初在当地定居，与遗址建立了强烈的家庭、文化和宗教联系。20世纪初，管理机构按照材料导向思路把这里划为国家纪念地和国家历史公园，只正式承认考古遗存的美学价值和年代价值，并把仍住在园区内的纳瓦霍社区迁出。近几十年，管理机构转向价值导向方法，更重视与纳瓦霍社区协商和联合管理，但这种参与仍在官方规则、监督与控制之下。

20世纪80年代起，一些“新时代（New Age）”团体要求在遗址进行仪式，纳瓦霍社区却认为这些仪式侵犯自己的宗教信仰。管理机构面对两个利益群体发生冲突时，认为法律上只能允许两者都举行仪式，或一律禁止，否则可能违反美国宪法关于宗教平等的原则。最后，官方决定在被认为神圣的地点禁止一切宗教仪式。结果是，即使几十年来官方不断强调纳瓦霍参与，制度的首要目标仍然是保存遗址的有形遗存。

本章因此总结出当前遗产保护——无论材料导向还是价值导向——仍共享三个基本原则：第一，遗址运行与管理的最终责任掌握在保护专业人员手中；第二，尽管越来越承认无形要素，遗产真实性仍主要与物质实体相连，并且即使开始承认后期历史发展，制度仍倾向优先考虑遗址的原初意义和用途；第三，遗产仍被理解为“过去的纪念物”，必须为了未来世代而从当代社区手中加以保护。

Chapter 4. Defining and managing living heritage

第4章：界定与管理“活态遗产”

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 13

Defining and managing ‘living heritage’

4.1. Existing approaches

The existing approaches to the definition and management of living heritage sites are examined here, with reference to a variety of examples throughout the world. In this analysis, there will be some overlap between the different uses of the term, but the aim is to stress the most important points of each use. Also, in each example offered, the definitions of heritage site and community have to do with their local geographical and socio-cultural context, and management treatment is linked to a variety of reasons; yet, this is an attempt to draw some conclusions from each example that have broader applicability. A ‘living heritage site’ is defined in various ways, outlined in the following sections.

A site with a local community

The term ‘living heritage site’ refers most of the time to a site with a local community, which is seen as a community of fixed boundaries living near or around a site and is supposed to be differentiated from those communities using a site at a national or international level. However, defining a local community is ambiguous and problematic given the blurred boundaries between ‘local’, ‘national’ and ‘international’. In an increasingly globalised world with an increasing mobility of people, the membership of a local community may range from a small group of people to the entire living world population (Cohen 1985, 117−118; Robertson 1995, 26; Erb 2003, 131). A local community’s association with a site is often a relatively weak one — something that heritage authorities may take advantage of in an attempt to further concentrate on the protection of the material of a site. This is illustrated in the case of Volubilis in Morocco (a World Heritage Site), where the local community seems to be more interested in the development of tourism in the nearby town of Moulay Idriss, and the

heritage authorities separated the site from the local community through the imposition of a fence and significantly restricted the local community's use of the site (pers. comm. Helen Dawson; Fentress and Palumbo 2001, 15). In extreme cases, a local community may have a negative association with a site, even favouring its destruction, in certain occasions with the acquiescence or support of the heritage authorities, as in the cases of

the destruction of the mosque at Ayodhya in India by part of the local Hindu community (Layton and Thomas 2001, 2-11; Sharma 2001; Rao and Reddy 2001, 139−156) and of the Bamiyan statues in Afghanistan by part of the local Muslim community (Gamboni 2001, 10−11; van Krieken Pieters 2002, 305−309; Wijesuriya 2003).

A site with a dwelling community

A living heritage site is also perceived as a site with a dwelling community — a specific community of fixed boundaries living permanently in a site and, thus, differentiated from other communities using a site at other international, national and even local levels (Miura 2005, 3−18). A dwelling community's association with a site may not be particularly strong, and can be rather easily disturbed by heritage authorities, with severe implications for this association. This is demonstrated in Petra in Jordan (a World Heritage Site), where the community of the Bdul (a Bedouin tribe) was relocated from the site to a new settlement (Akrawi 2002, 102; Hadidi 1986, 109−110).

A site with a changing/evolving community

A living heritage site is also seen as a site with a changing/evolving community — a community using a site in a different context to the original one, in response to the changing conditions, requirements and values of the society (van Vucht Tijssen 2004, 23; ICOMOS America 1996, article 5). A community's changing association with a site is, generally speaking, not particularly strong — most probably much weaker than the association of the original community with the specific site. As a result, heritage authorities tend to give priority to the association of the original community. An example of a site that belongs in this category is Diocletian's Palace in Split in Croatia (a World Heritage Site), where the heritage authorities give priority to the protection of the original complex of the palace over the attempts of some of the current users towards the erection of new houses, shops and parking areas within the walls (Marasovic 1986, 57−62; Marasovic 1975, 17−23).

A site whose community has claimed a special association with it

A living heritage site can be also seen as one whose community claims a special strong social, spiritual or other cultural association with it (Matero 2004, 69; ICOMOS Australia 1999, article 12). However, a community's claimed special association with a site can be problematic, given that it may be proved historically fake or remain questionable in terms of its historic validity. In any case, a community's claim to a special association with a site is in most instances accompanied by rights over the use, the management and even the ownership of the site, something that acts against the interests as well as the power of the heritage authorities. This is, for example, the case of Stonehenge in the UK (a World Heritage Site), where the Druids demand a special association with and use of the site (Bender 1998, 128; Sebastian 1990).

A site that has not suffered from modernisation

A living heritage site is also regarded as one that has not suffered from modernisation, urbanisation and globalisation (Inaba 2005, 46). This understanding of a living heritage site is assumed to focus on the 'traditional' that is under assault by, and should thus be protected from, contemporary 'influences' (Rohit Jigyasu, cited in Shimotsuma, Stovel and Warrack 2003, 13−14). In extreme

cases this use of the term might end up associating the concept of a 'living heritage site' with the memory of an unchanging archetype of a past lifestyle, an 'idyllic Eden', as was characteristically noted with reference to Tana Toraja in Indonesia (a World Heritage Site) (Adams 2003, 92). Nevertheless, despite the attempts of heritage authorities to protect a community's 'traditional' association against contemporary 'influences', the latter often prevail, with a serious impact on the former. Once a community's 'traditional' association with a site has significantly suffered, it is very difficult to revive (see The Japan Foundation 2004, 3).

Conclusion

The above-mentioned uses of the term 'living heritage site' suggest different types of communities' association with sites, each of different strength. Specifically (from the weakest to the strongest association): any community using a site at a local, national or international level; a community living near a site; a community dwelling in a site; a community with a changing association with a site; a community with a suggested special association with a site; a community whose original association with a site has not suffered from contemporary circumstances such as modernisation. Yet, in all these cases, the communities' association with and use of a site

is placed under the heritage authorities' association with and control over a site.

4.2. Towards a new approach

Presentation

中文译文 · 阅读单元 13

【第4章：界定和管理“活态遗产”——4.1 既有方法】作者通过世界各地案例梳理“活态遗产地”的多种定义。不同定义之间会有重叠，而且每个地方对“遗产地”和“社区”的理解都受当地地理、社会与文化背景影响，管理方式也由不同原因形成；作者的目的不是把所有案例强行归入固定类别，而是从中提取具有更广泛意义的问题。

第一种常见定义，是“拥有地方社区的遗址”。所谓地方社区一般指生活在遗址附近或周围、有一定空间边界的人群，并与国家或国际层面使用遗址的群体区别开来。但在全球化和高流动时代，“地方”的边界本来就十分模糊，一个地方社区可能从很小群体一直延伸到全球人口。地方社区与遗址的关系也可能相当弱，遗产机构有时会利用这种弱联系，更集中地保护物质遗存。摩洛哥世界遗产沃吕比利斯就是例子：附近社区更关注邻近城镇 Moulay Idriss 的旅游发展，而管理机构通过围栏把遗址与社区分隔，并明显限制地方居民的使用。更极端的情况下，地方社区甚至可能对遗址持负面态度，赞成毁坏它，有时还得到遗产机构默许或支持，例如印度阿约提亚清真寺遭部分当地印度教群体摧毁，以及阿富汗巴米扬佛像遭部分当地穆斯林群体破坏。

第二种定义是“拥有常住社区的遗址”，即某一固定社区永久居住在遗址内部。即使如此，居住本身并不保证关系强固，这种联系仍可能被遗产机构轻易打断。约旦佩特拉世界遗产地中，长期居住当地的 Bdul 贝都因部落就被迁往新聚落。

第三种是“拥有变化/演化中的社区的遗址”：社区因社会条件、需求和价值变化，而在不同于原初语境的情况下使用遗址。作者认为，这种后来形成的联系通常比原有社区的关系弱，因此管理机构往往优先保护“原初”联系。例如克罗地亚斯普利特的戴克里先宫，管理机构优先保存原有宫殿建筑群，而限制当代使用者在城墙内建设新住宅、商店和停车区。

第四种是“社区声称与遗址存在特殊关系”的遗址。社区可能主张自己与遗址拥有特殊的社会、精神或文化联系，但这种主张可能缺乏历史依据，或历史有效性存在争议。由于这类主张常伴随对使用权、管理权乃至所有权的要求，它也可能直接挑战遗产机构的利益和权力。英国巨石阵中，德鲁伊团体主张自己与遗址具有特殊联系并要求特定使用权，就是一个例子。

第五种定义把活态遗产理解为“尚未遭受现代化、城市化和全球化破坏的地方”。这种理解倾向于把“传统”看作正遭受当代影响攻击、因而需要被隔离保护的对象；极端情况下，“活态遗产”会被想象成过去生活方式永恒不变的原型或“田园伊甸园”。印度尼西亚 Tana Toraja 的讨论就出现过这种倾向。然而，即使管理机构试图保护社区的“传统联系”不受现代影响，当代变化通常仍会发生；一旦原有联系已遭严重破坏，日后便很难真正恢复。

综合这些定义，从弱到强可以排列为：任何在地方、国家或国际层面使用遗址的社区；生活在遗址附近的社区；居住于遗址内部的社区；与遗址关系不断变化的社区；声称具有特殊关系的社区；以及原有关系尚未被现代化等当代条件打断的社区。但作者指出，在所有这些既有模式中，社区与遗址的联系和使用最终仍处在遗产主管机构对遗址的关系和控制之下。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 14

There is a tendency to consider continuity of a community's original association with a site to be the key concept in the discussion of a living heritage site (Gamini Wijesuriya, cited in Shimotsuma, Stovel and Warrack 2003, 9; Nguyen The Son, cited in Shimotsuma, Stovel and Warrack 2003, 15; Wijesuriya 2005; Wijesuriya 2007a). The restoration of the Temple of the Tooth Relic in the city of Kandy in Sri Lanka (a World Heritage Site) (Wijesuriya, 2000) could be considered a milestone in the management of living heritage at an international level because it clearly challenged the 'conventional', material-based approach, and opened the path for the development of a new approach (see immediately below). The Temple, constructed in the seventeenth century, is today the most sacred Buddhist site and the most important heritage site in Sri Lanka, and one of the most

significant international Buddhist pilgrimage centers. The Temple was demolished in 1997 as a result of a terrorist bomb attack. The restoration of the Temple required the participation of all main groups, but any decision would be subjected to the approval of the monastic community as expressed by the two high priests and the lay guardian [the officer] of the Temple. In this context, the first priority of the restoration project was the revival of the living (religious) function of the Temple. The restoration solutions clearly favored the function of the Temple at the expense of the protection of its heritage significance, and generally run counter to conservation principles and practices, particularly in the strict World Heritage concept. The restoration of the Temple of the Tooth Relic in Sri Lanka also influenced the approach of ICCROM towards living heritage (Shimotsuma, Stovel and Warrack 2003, 2−3; Stovel 2005, 2−3; Wijesuriya 2007b; see also Poulios 2014). ICCROM had been following a material-based and a values-based approach. Since the mid-1990s, however, ICCROM has started showing a consistent interest in the living dimension of heritage sites, developing projects that concentrated on communities and communities' associations with heritage sites, such as ITUC Program. Since the early 2000s, ICCROM has been running the Living Heritage Sites Program and the Promoting

People-Centered Approaches to Conservation: Living Heritage Program. The former started as part of ITUC Program and was originally focused on the South-Eastern Asian region, while it gradually took a much broader perspective, also linked to other ICCROM programs focusing on other regions; the latter is of international relevance. The aims of the Programs are to develop, implement and promote a new international approach to heritage conservation that clearly differs from the 'conventional', material-based approach by placing the living dimension of heritage at the core of decision-making and considering continuity as the key theme: a living heritage approach. The key principles of this approach are: a) recognising communities as the true long-term custodians of their heritage sites; b) empowering communities in the conservation and managing process, and benefiting from their traditional (and established) values, management systems and maintenance practices; and c) linking conservation to the sustainable development of the communities, by developing a process to manage change and by making heritage relevant to the needs of the contemporary communities. An example of a place where a living heritage has been applied – also in the context of the Living Heritage Sites Program of ICCROM – is Phrae in Thailand (Luk Lan Muang Phrae and SPAFA 2009; see also SPAFA, Phrae Architectural Heritage Preservation Club and Luk Lan Muang Phrae 2011). There the local community established its own (local) heritage management committee, Luk Lan Muang Phrae ['the Children and Grandchildren of Phrae']. Luk Lan Muang Phrae has the following main objectives: a) revive wisdom and pride in local heritage through different awareness activities. Examples: interviewing local house owners about the meaning and significance of their houses, organising awareness programmes on local heritage preservation for children; b) organise a wide range of activities concerning the conservation and management of local heritage, based on traditional knowledge, management systems and maintenance practices. Examples: establishment of an award programme for old house owners who take good care of their houses (owners are given a certificate and a flag to place in front of the house, and the houses awarded are registered by the Provincial Cultural Office), formation of a local museum and a library, and conservation of the city wall; and c) seek development options. Examples: cooking local dishes, growing local vegetables, local pottery- and puppet-making, and making products for sale. For the accomplishment of these objectives, Luk Lan Muang Phrae established over time collaborations with SEAMEO-SPAFA Regional Centre for Archaeology and Fine Arts in Thailand, the Thai Fine Arts Department, and ICCROM. At present Luk Lan Muang Phrae is accepted as an important mechanism in coordinating and mobilizing people and activities as well as networking.

Critique

Continuity, as defined here, is a particularly strong association, clearly differentiated from the other types of association discussed in the previous section: continuity is much more than the association of a local or a dwelling community, is the association of the original (and not a changing/evolving) community, is a historically valid (and not a claimed) association, and can embrace contemporary changes such as modernisation. A living heritage approach has also succeeded in embracing indigenous/non-Western communities and cultures, as illustrated in the cases of the Temple of the Tooth Relic and of Phrae. Yet, there are cases in which continuity may not necessarily be physically linked to an actual site. For example, the indigenous communities of Jigalong in Western Australia, who have voluntarily left their home territories and settled near Europeans, retain their original association with their sacred ancestral sites and associated beings through dream-spirit journeys (rituals consisting of singing and dancing: 'going badundjari'). These journeys, however, most of the time have nothing to do with the actual sites: they are performed away from the sites, and by people who in most cases have never physically been in the sites but are simply imagining them (Tonkinson 1970,

【4.2 走向新方法】作者观察到，越来越多研究把“某个社区与遗址原初关系的连续性”视为界定活态遗产的关键。斯里兰卡康提佛牙寺的修复，是国际活态遗产管理的重要转折点。17世纪建造的佛牙寺既是斯里兰卡最神圣的佛教场所和最重要的遗产地之一，也是国际佛教朝圣中心。1997年寺庙在恐怖袭击中被炸毁。修复需要不同主要群体参与，但所有决定最终必须得到修道共同体——两位高级僧侣和寺庙世俗管理者——批准。项目第一优先不是保存爆炸后的旧材料，而是尽快恢复寺庙仍在持续的宗教功能。具体修复方案因此明显优先功能，有时牺牲遗产物质价值，并与传统保护原则尤其严格世界遗产规则相冲突。

佛牙寺案例也影响了 ICCROM 对活态遗产的理解。ICCROM 原来主要采用材料导向和价值导向方法，但自20世纪90年代中期开始持续关注遗产地的活态维度，并发展强调社区及其遗产联系的项目。21世纪初，它又推动“活态遗产地计划”和“以人为中心的保护：活态遗产计划”，尝试建立不同于传统材料保护的新国际方法，把活态维度放在决策中心，把“连续性”作为关键主题。这套方法强调：承认社区才是遗产长期真正的守护者；赋权社区参与保护和管理，并利用其传统或既有价值、管理制度和维护实践；把保护与社区可持续发展联系起来，通过管理变化，使遗产对当代社区的需求继续具有意义。

泰国帕府（Phrae）是这一方法的实践案例。当地建立了自己的遗产管理委员会 Luk Lan Muang Phrae（意为“帕府的子孙”）。其目标包括：通过访问老屋业主、为儿童组织遗产保存活动等方式恢复地方遗产知识与自豪感；依据传统知识和维护方式开展保护管理，例如奖励维护良好的老屋、建立地方博物馆和图书馆、保护城墙；同时寻找发展机会，如制作本地食品、种植蔬菜、陶艺、木偶和销售地方产品。为实现这些目标，地方组织逐步与东南亚教育部长组织考古与美术区域中心、泰国美术厅和 ICCROM
建立合作，最终成为动员居民、协调活动和建立网络的重要机制。

【批评】“连续性”是一种比前文其他关系更强的联系。它不只是生活在附近或居住在遗址中的关系，而强调原初社区；不是单纯声称的联系，而是历史上有效的联系；同时它也能够包含现代化等当代变化。不过，连续性也有复杂之处。第一，它未必总与实际地点的身体接触相连。例如西澳大利亚 Jigalong 原住民虽然主动离开祖居地、迁到欧洲人定居点附近，仍通过由歌唱和舞蹈构成的“梦境—精神旅程”维持与神圣祖先遗址及相关存在的联系；不少参与者从未真正到过那些地方。类似地，澳大利亚乌卢鲁—卡塔丘塔国家公园的一些原住民社区曾在法庭上表演与遗址有关的仪式，以证明关系的连续性，尽管这一仪式如今已不在遗址现场举行。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 15

277−291; pers. comm. Peter Sutton). In a similar context, there was a recent case in which indigenous communities of Uluru-Kata-Tjuta National Park in Australia (a World Heritage Site) performed in court a ritual about the site, in an attempt to justify the continuity of their association with the site, but this ritual is no longer performed on the site itself (pers. comm. Peter Sutton). There are also cases in which continuity, though related to an actual site, may be severely restricted and affected by other communities’ associations with the site, often with the consent of heritage authorities, with an impact on the character of the site. At the World Heritage Site of Canterbury Cathedral in the UK, for example, despite the continuity of the religious association of part of the local, national and international community with the site, the site is treated less and less as a sacred place and more as a tourist attraction (Hubert 1994, 12−14). In extreme cases, continuity can be restricted and affected to such an extent that it may not be a sufficient criterion to even prevent the destruction of a site, often with the consent of heritage authorities. At the site of Ayodhya in India, for example, the continuity of the local Muslim community’s association with the mosque and their struggle to protect it did not eventually prevent its demolition (Layton and Thomas 2001, 2−11; Sharma 2001; Rao and Reddy 2001, 139−156). The above elements which emphasise on the concept of continuity (Part 1) will be further developed and expanded, also through a detailed account of the conservation and management of the monastic site of Meteora in Greece (a World Heritage Site) (Part 2), towards a more holistic definition of a living heritage approach (Part 3).

PART 1I

The Conservation and Management of the Site of Meteora in Greece

中文译文 · 阅读单元 15

第二，即使连续性确实与具体遗址相连，它也可能因其他群体使用遗址而被严重限制，而且这种限制有时得到遗产机构认可，从而改变遗址的性质。英国坎特伯雷大教堂虽然仍保持地方、国家和国际宗教群体的持续信仰联系

，却越来越少被作为神圣场所对待，更多被当作旅游景点。更极端时，连续性甚至不足以阻止遗址被毁。印度阿约提亚案例中，当地穆斯林社区与清真寺持续的关系以及保护斗争，最终仍未阻止建筑被拆毁。

因此，作者不会把“连续性”当作一个简单、自动有效的答案，而是把它作为新活态遗产方法进一步发展的核心起点。第一部分形成的这些思考，将在第二部分通过迈泰奥拉修道遗址的保护与管理进行详细检验和扩展，并最终在第三部分形成更完整的活态遗产方法。

Chapter 5. Description of Meteora: landscape and history

第5章：迈泰奥拉的景观与历史

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 16

Description of Meteora: landscape, and history

The landscape of Meteora

Meteora is a geologically important landscape that contains monasteries built on high rocks (figure 5). The monasteries look as if they are ‘suspended/floating in the air’, as the Greek term ‘Meteora’ means. Meteora is located in central Greece, District of Thessaly, Prefecture of Trikala, Province of Kalampaka, next to the village of Kastraki and the city of Kalampaka (figure 6). The monastic complex is in state ownership under the control of the Greek Orthodox Church. Each of the individual monasteries of the complex has its own property and the exclusive rights to use it, but their finances are under the control of the State and the Church (UNESCO 1988, 3−4). The space of Meteora could be described as follows (figures 7 and 8). In terms of physical topography, Meteora may be divided into the space inside the physical boundaries of the individual monasteries (i.e. the internal space of the monasteries) and the space outside the physical boundaries of the individual monasteries (i.e. the external space of the monasteries). In terms of status of ownership, the internal space of the monasteries belongs exclusively to the monastic communities, while the external space of the monasteries is mostly public land and, only to a small extent, private land belonging to the monasteries and to citizens. In terms of status of use, the internal space of the monasteries is the exclusive responsibility of the monastic communities, in accordance with the regulations of the Greek government and under the supervision of the relevant government bodies (namely the Ministry of Culture). The status of use of the external space of the monasteries is much more complicated, with the involvement of various groups of people (such as the monastic communities, the local community, the visitors and the tourist agencies), in accordance with the regulations of the Greek government and under the supervision of the relevant government bodies (namely the Ministry of Culture, the Ministry for the Environment, Spatial Planning and Public Works, the Ministry of Agriculture, and the Ministry of Tourism).

The history of Meteora from the 11th century to approximately 1940: Meteora as an exclusively monastic site

Meteora has been an Orthodox monastic site, with continuous conduct of ritual activities, since the end of the tenth-beginning of the eleventh century to the present date. Meteora contains

monastic communities of monks and nuns: initially only monks lived at the site, but later, in 1925, monastic communities of nuns also appeared (this was after a major fire in 1925 when the monks asked for the help of the residents of the nearby village of Kastraki, who subsequently established the first monastic communities of nuns on the site: Kotopoulis 1973, 125−127; Tetsios 2003; 342−343; pers. comm. Kastraki village. The history of the monastic site of Meteora may be summarised as follows (Kontoyannis 1990, 19−28; Nikonanos 1992, 18−19; Sofianos 1990, 11−18; Tsiatas 2003, 161−162; Nikodimi 2002, 21−22; Choulia-Albani 1999, 152−155). At the end of the tenth-beginning of the eleventh century, the first hermits established themselves on the rocks of Meteora. In the twelfth century, the monks concentrated around the skiti [house of groups of monks] of Doupiani, forming the first monastic community in the area. The milestone in the monastic life of Meteora was the establishment of the first koinobio [organised monastery], the Great Meteoron Monastery, by monk Athanasios in 1347. It was monk Athanasios (later St Athanasios of Meteora) who gave the name ‘Meteora’ to the site. Monastic life at Meteora reached its peak in the sixteenth and seventeenth centuries, when there were twenty four monasteries and numerous independent cells at the site. The eighteenth and nineteenth centuries were periods of decline for monastic life on the site, which reached its nadir in the first half of the twentieth century. An odd incident occurred in the early 1930s, when members of the village of Kastraki set fire to one of the Meteora monasteries because the monks were – claimed to be – seducing girls from their village (pers.

comm. Kastraki village). In the 1940s, under the pressure of World War II and the Greek Civil War, the monastic communities left the site, with the exception of a couple of monks who remained at the Great Meteoron and the Varlaam Monasteries.

The history of Meteora from the 1960s to present: a monastic site within the development of heritage and tourism industries

The monastic communities were re-established on the site in the 1960s, and increased over time. Today Meteora contains six monastic communities (four of monks and two of nuns), being one of the largest monastic complexes in Greece and in the entire Orthodox world. The monastic communities perform significant spiritual and philanthropic activity for the benefit of the local community (i.e. the residents of the village of Kastraki, the town of Kalampaka and the broader region), which comprises the congregation of the Monasteries. During the twentieth century Meteora was designated by the Greek government as a heritage site. In 1921, and especially in 1962, the monasteries were officially recognised and protected for their historic and artistic significance as individual monuments. Later, in 1967, Meteora was recognised as a single heritage site with unified boundaries including the local village of Kastraki and part of the town of Kalampaka. In 1988, Meteora was recognised at an international level through its inscription as a World Heritage Site of ‘outstanding’ cultural and natural (‘mixed’) significance. Since the establishment of the first koinobio (the Great Meteoron Monastery) by monk Athanasios in 1347 and especially since the peak of the monasteries in the sixteenth and seventeenth centuries, Meteora acquired fame as a monastic site of remarkable artistic significance, located in an impressive landscape, attracting the attention of numerous visitors from all over

the Christian world (Kontoyannis 1990, 24; Xydias and Totsikas and Braoudakis 1997, 221−222 and 235−240). Yet, it was during the twentieth century that Meteora gradually developed as a tourist site attracting non-Christian visitors. The events that helped to develop tourism at the site were the following (Anastasiou 1994a, 203): first, the construction of stairs for the easier access to the monasteries in the 1920s, which meant the abandonment of the original way of access to the monasteries through the vrizoni (vrizoni is ‘an elevator peculiar to Meteora, used until today for the transportation of heavy loads; it is made of a net, inside which the visitor entered and was pulled upwards through a wheel situated on the monastery tower’: Choulia-Albani 1999, 157); second, the construction of a road network for the easier access to the site in the late 1940s; and third, the abolition of avaton (i.e. the exclusion of women from entering the monasteries), which continued at the Great Meteoron and the Varlaam monasteries until the 1940s. The main tourism development took place after World War II and the Civil War, and in the last two decades Meteora has developed as an international mass tourist destination. Today, Meteora attracts approximately one million and a half visitors per year, being one of the most popular tourist destinations in Greece.1

Conclusion

中文译文 · 阅读单元 16

【第5章：迈泰奥拉的景观与历史】迈泰奥拉位于希腊中部色萨利地区，靠近 Kastraki 村和 Kalampaka 城，是一处地质景观极为特殊的修道院群。修道院建在高耸岩柱之上，仿佛“悬浮在空中”，这也正是希腊语 Meteora 名称的含义。整个修道建筑群在国家所有权和希腊东正教会控制体系之下；各个修道院又分别拥有自己的财产与排他性使用权，而其财政受到国家与教会监督。

从空间上，作者区分“修道院内部空间”和“修道院外部空间”。内部空间属于各修道共同体并由其直接使用和管理，但须遵守国家规定并接受文化部等机构监督。外部空间大多是公共土地，少部分属于修道院或私人；它的使用关系更复杂，修道共同体、地方居民、游客和旅游机构都参与其中，同时受文化部、环境与空间规划部门、农业部门、旅游部门等多个国家机构的规定影响。

迈泰奥拉从10世纪末—11世纪初开始就是持续进行东正教修道仪式的地方。最初只有男性修士；1925年一场大火后，Kastraki 村居民应修士请求前来帮助，随后出现了最早的女性修道共同体。10世纪末至11世纪初，隐修者首先来到这些岩柱；12世纪，修士围绕 Doupiani 的 skiti（小型修道群体居所）聚集，形成当地第一个修道共同体。1347年修士 Athanasios 建立大迈泰奥拉修道院，这是第一个组织化的 koinobio，也成为迈泰奥拉修道生活的关键转折；正是他赋予此地“Meteora”这一名称。16、17世纪是鼎盛期，当时共有24座修道院和许多独立修道单元。18、19世纪逐渐衰落，20世纪上半叶降至低谷。20世纪30年代初还发生过一段特殊冲突：Kastraki 部分村民纵火焚烧一座修道院，理由是有人指称修士勾引村中女性。到1940年代，二战和希腊内战迫使大多数修道共同体离开，仅少数修士留在大迈

泰奥拉和 Varlaam 修道院。

20世纪60年代，修道共同体重新建立并逐渐增加。今天共有六个共同体——四个男修道院、两个女修道院——使迈泰奥拉成为希腊乃至整个东正教世界规模最大的修道建筑群之一。这些共同体也面向 Kastraki、Kalampaka 及更广阔地区开展重要宗教、精神和慈善活动，当地居民构成修道院的信众群体。

与此同时，20世纪国家逐步把迈泰奥拉定义为遗产。1921年、尤其1962年，一批修道院因历史和艺术价值分别被列为受保护纪念物；1967年，迈泰奥拉第一次被作为具有统一边界的整体遗产地保护，范围还包括 Kastraki 村和 Kalampaka 部分地区；1988年则以兼具突出文化与自然价值的“混合遗产”进入《世界遗产名录》。

旅游发展也有长历史。自1347年大迈泰奥拉修道院建立、特别是16—17世纪修道群鼎盛以后，这里因显著的宗教艺术和壮观景观已吸引基督教世界访客。但真正转向包括非基督徒在内的现代旅游目的地是在20世纪。几个关键变化促进了游客增长：20世纪20年代修建楼梯，使进入修道院不再完全依赖传统的 vrizoni 吊网升降方式；40年代末道路网络形成；同时过去禁止女性进入的 avaton 制度逐渐取消，大迈泰奥拉和 Varlaam 也在40年代终止这一限制。二战和内战之后旅游迅速发展，最近几十年更成为国际大众旅游地，每年约有150万游客。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 17

Meteora has been an Orthodox monastic site since the end of the tenth-beginning of the eleventh century to the present date. Initially, since the end of tenth-beginning of the eleventh century until approximately the 1960s, Meteora was exclusively a monastic site. Later, from the 1960s onwards, Meteora retains its monastic function, while increasingly being used as a major heritage and tourist site at a national and international level. As a result of this increasing popularity of the site, a variety of groups of people, of different backgrounds, with different, sometimes conflicting needs, views and practices concerning the present operation and the future development of the site, are involved in its life at local, national and international level.

中文译文 · 阅读单元 17

本章的结论是：迈泰奥拉自10世纪末—11世纪初至今一直保持东正教修道功能。大体上可分为两个阶段：从最初形成到约20世纪60年代，它主要是专门的修道空间；从60年代以后，修道功能没有消失，但国家和国际层面的遗产利用与旅游利用迅速增强。正因为知名度和使用方式增加，今天围绕迈泰奥拉生活和工作的群体非常多样，不同群体在地方、国家和国际层面拥有不同背景、需求、观点和实践，对遗址当前如何运行以及未来如何发展也常常发生冲突。

Chapter 6. Meteora within the systems of monasticism, heritage protection and tourism operation

第6章：修道制度、遗产保护与旅游运行体系中的迈泰奥拉

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 18

Meteora within the systems of monasticism, heritage protection and tourism operation

Monasticism

The relationship between the State, the Church and the Monasteries in Greece may be summarised as follows (Troianos and Poulis 2002, 60−68, 79−81 and 109−119; Venizelos 2000, 55−61, 76−84 and 91−93; on the side of the State: Stathopoulos 2000, 59−70; on the side of the Church: Ramiotis 1997, 80 and 89−92; on the side of the Monasteries: Apostolakis 2002b, 9−12 and 17−22; Apostolakis 2003, 11−18 and 23−32). Within the framework of the freedom of religious expression and worship and of the respect to all religious groups as fundamental human rights within a Western democratic state (Greek Government 1975, article 13), Orthodox Christianity is recognised as the predominant religion in Greece. The Church of Greece still retains close links with the State and holding a primary position in Greek society (Greek Government 1975, article 3). The Church of Greece is recognised as a ‘legal entity governed by public law’ [nomiko prosopo dimosiou dikaiou] within the State in the context of ‘rule of law’ [kratos dikaiou] model [it is an entity that, though legally distinct from the State, performs state-like functions and is empowered with competence to control its own administrative and

operational affairs quasi a public body]. On this basis, the State grants the Church control of its own operational issues, in strict compliance with the Constitution and the laws of the State (Greek Government 1977). The relationship between the State and the Church in Greece is in everyday practice characterised by the efforts of the State, on the one hand, to define and regulate the operation of the Church, and by the attempts of the Church, on the other, to resist the pressure from the State (see Koliopoulos and Veremis 2002, 140−151). In the context of State-Church relationship, Greek people are at the same time citizens of the State and congregation of the Church. The Church is governed by the Holy Synod of the Hierarchy, which consists of the Bishops of the Greek territory with the Archbishop of Athens as its President. The Church is operating in a decentralised way. Each Bishopric has a considerable degree of independence from the central Church in dealing with the issues of the operation and management of its own diocese and congregation. Monasteries are recognised as 'legal entities governed by public law' within the Greek state (Greek Government 1977). Monasteries are, in terms of administration, dependent upon the

local Bishopric. The supervision of the local Bishopric over the Monasteries officially covers spiritual and liturgical issues (i.e. so that the Monasteries comply with the rules of the Orthodox Church) and not issues of their operation and management, which remain the responsibility of the individual Monasteries. Monasteries are also obliged to give part of their income to the local Bishopric. In practice, however, a local Bishopric's collaboration with, and influence on, the Monasteries may extend to a variety of issues other than strictly spiritual ones (Kostopoulos 2003, 267−273). The relationship between the State, the Church and the Monasteries with regard to the site of Meteora presents further complexities (Apostolakis 2008). Initially there was a single Bishopric, but in the period 1967-1974 it was divided into two Bishoprics: one of Trikala and one of Meteora and Stagoi [Kalampaka]. Meteora Monasteries now belong in the latter. As a result of this division, the two Bishoprics are not on very good terms with each other, often with implications for the local community and for Meteora Monasteries. Another complexity of the site of Meteora is the operation of six separate Monasteries, with different spiritual and ideological links and with different views with regard to the operation and management of the complex. These differences affect the Monasteries' relationship with the local Bishopric, the local community, the local and national government bodies.

Heritage protection

The system of heritage protection in Greece is controlled by a strict legislative framework: the ownership of heritage within the territory of Greece that is recognised as a national one, and the responsibility for its protection, are in the hands of the State (Greek Government 2008, article 24). The system of heritage protection (defined by Greek Government 1932 and Greek Government 2002) is particularly concerned about 'the safeguarding of [the monuments'] material substance and their authenticity' in an attempt to 'safeguard the historic memory for the sake of the present and the future generations' (Greek Government 2002, articles 40 and 1) and could be generally characterised by an emphasis on the preservation of the tangible/material — rather than the intangible — elements of monuments (see Kotsakis 1991, Poulios 2010 c; Poulios forthcoming; Poulios 2012a; Poulios 2012b; Poulios and Touloupa forthcoming). The responsibility for protection lies with the Ministry of Culture1; even in those cases where other government agencies (such as the Ministry of the Environment, Spatial Planning and Public Works) are also involved, the Ministry of Culture retains final responsibility. Protection is centrally administered: the central divisions of the Ministry set the policy, while the local divisions / the so-called 'Ephorates' deliver this policy at the local level (Ministry of Culture 2003; Greek Government 2002, articles 49–50; Doris 1985, 359−408; 416−446; Eugenidou 1993, 6−10; see also Pantos 1993; Papachristodoulou 2002). The protection of those sites that are inscribed on the UNESCO World Heritage List is generally the same as that of the other national designated heritage sites; the only difference is the further increased responsibility of the central Ministry, with very little involvement of the local Ephorates (Greek Government 2002, article 50). The underlying philosophy of national heritage protection in Greece is based on Western European Classical ideals and is characterised by a strong attachment to its Classical past, as a

1 The Ministry of Culture has changed form over time, on the basis of its position within the state structure and its relation to the other ministries eg. it has been for many years a Ministry of Culture only, in 2009 it incorporated Tourism and became the Ministry of Culture and Tourism, while in 2013 it became the Ministry of Culture and Sports. In the present study it is cited as 'Ministry of Culture'.

中文译文 · 阅读单元 18

【第6章：迈泰奥拉所处的修道、遗产保护与旅游制度——修道制度】希腊国家、教会和修道院之间的关系具有制度上的双重性。在西方民主国家保障宗教表达和礼拜自由、尊重所有宗教群体的框架内，东正教仍被宪法认定为希腊占主导地位的宗教。希腊教会与国家保持紧密关系，并在社会中拥有重要位置；法律上，它是"受公法管理

的法人”，虽然与国家在法律上相互区分，却承担某些类似公共机构的职能，有权管理自己的行政和运行事务。国家允许教会处理内部事务，但必须严格遵守宪法和国家法律。现实中，国家经常试图界定并规范教会如何运行，而教会则持续抵抗部分国家压力。希腊人因此同时是国家公民和教会信众。

希腊教会由主教组成的圣主教会议治理，以雅典大主教为主席，并实行较强的地方分权。每个主教区在自己的教区和信众事务上拥有相当自主权。修道院同样被视为公法法人，行政上属于当地主教区。主教区对修道院的正式监督主要涉及精神和礼仪问题，确保修道院遵守东正教规范；日常运行和管理原则上仍由各修道院负责，修道院还需把部分收入交给主教区。实际中，地方主教区对修道院的影响往往超出纯宗教事务。

迈泰奥拉使这一关系更复杂。1967—1974年间原有一个主教区被分为 Trikala 与 Meteora and Stagoi（Kalampaka）两个主教区，迈泰奥拉修道院归后者。两个主教区关系并不总是良好，这种矛盾会影响地方社会和修道院。此外，迈泰奥拉不是单一修道院，而是六个独立共同体；它们在精神传统、意识形态联系和遗址如何运行、如何发展的看法上并不一致，这又影响它们与主教区、地方社会、地方政府和中央政府机构之间的关系。

【遗产保护制度】希腊遗产保护有严格法律框架。被认定为国家遗产的对象，其所有权和保护责任主要由国家承担。法律强调维护纪念物的物质实体与真实性，并以保存历史记忆、服务当代和未来世代为目标；整体上更加重视有形材料而非无形要素。文化部承担最终保护责任，即使环境、空间规划等其他部门参与，文化部仍居主导。制度高度中央集权：中央部门制定政策，地方文物管理机构执行。世界遗产地在法律保护方式上与国家遗产并没有本质差异，只是中央文化部责任更大，地方机构参与相对更少。

希腊国家遗产观长期深受西欧古典主义理想影响，并高度依恋古希腊古典过去。这种偏向在相当长时间里以牺牲其他历史时期——尤其拜占庭时期——为代价。早期希腊国家法律中的“古物”几乎专指古典希腊纪念物，直到1899年才纳入拜占庭遗产。甚至到2002年前，1453年以前的拜占庭遗址可以自动受保护，1453年后的后拜占庭遗址仍须单独列名。这种古典主义取向使国家即使承认拜占庭宗教建筑为遗产，也往往从艺术与艺术史价值出发理解它们，强调物质实体保存，却相对忽视这些地方仍持续存在的教会和礼仪功能。拜占庭宗教遗产因而只是被加进一套早已建立、按照西欧古典原则运作的严格规则，而没有形成真正适应宗教遗产特点的特殊制度。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 19

result of a variety of factors before, during, and after the Greek revolution against the Ottoman occupation and the formation of the Greek state (1821-1832) until present day (Yalouri 2001, 187−196; Hamilakis 2000, 69−71; Hamilakis and Yalouri 1999, 116−127; Hamilakis and Yalouri 1996, 118−127; Lowenthal 1988). This attachment to the Classical past has developed at the expense of any other (than Classical) past and particularly of the Byzantine past (Yalouri 1993, 24−35). Indicative examples to this end: During the early history of the Greek state the word ‘antiquities’ meant in the terms of the period exclusively monuments of the Classical Greek past, and consequently, the establishment of national heritage regulations in 1833 referred exclusively to the protection of Classical antiquities (Kotsakis 1991, 65); it was not until 1899 that provisions were made for the protection of the Byzantine antiquities as well (Zias 1995, 84−86; Zias 1993, 17−18). Also, until 2002 it was only (Byzantine) sites dating before 1453 that were automatically recognised and protected as national heritage, while those (post-Byzantine) sites after 1453 required a specific listing (Greek Government 2002, article 6 replacing Greek Government 1932). Yet, even after the recognition of Byzantine sites as ‘heritage’, the State’s emphasis on the Classical past has substantially affected the overall way Byzantine sites were, and are still, approached and protected: First, Byzantine religious sites are looked upon from a Classical perspective, with considerable emphasis on their artistic and art-historical significance and on the need for the preservation of their fabric, while their continuing ecclesiastical and liturgical use is largely ignored (Zias 1995, 83−84). Therefore, it appears that Byzantine religious heritage was simply added to an already well-established and strict set of regulations modelled upon Western European Classical principles; and is not treated as a special category of heritage under a special set of heritage regulations (see Poulios 2010c; Poulios forthcoming). Second, the State / the Ministry of Culture has the exclusive responsibility and power over the protection of the sites, while Church authorities, such as the Bishoprics and the monastic communities, are not (officially) included in the protection of the sites (Zias 1995, 83−84). In practice, however, the State / the Ministry of Culture has to take into account and collaborate with the monastic communities given the latter’s officially recognised ownership of the sites (see above; Greek Government 2002, article 73; see Zias 1993, 18). This means that the sites are under the responsibility of two different managing authorities: as heritage sites they are under the responsibility of the Greek state, while as monastic sites they are under the responsibility of their

monastic communities (see Poulios 2010c; Lavvas et al. 1997). The most effective way for the State / the Ministry of Culture to control the monastic communities is through the provision for the funding for restoration of the monasteries, imposing two requirements for the monastic communities to qualify for funding: first, to respect the fabric of the monasteries, which means that the restoration works must be authorised and supervised by the Ministry of Culture, and, second, to have the monasteries open to the visitors (public access) (Greek Government 2002, article 11). This means that practically the control by the Ministry of Culture depends on the relative financial power of the individual monastic communities and on their attitude towards tourism. Meteora was designated at a national level initially through the inscription of individual monuments: the Varlaam, the Great Meteoron, the St Stephen and the Holy Trinity monasteries were inscribed in 1921 (Greek Government 1921), while the Roussanou, the St Nikolaos Anapafsas, the Coming of Christ, the Hagia and the Ipsilotera monasteries were inscribed in 1962 (Ministry of Culture 1962). In 1967 Meteora was recognised as a single heritage site with unified boundaries including the village of Kastraki and part of the town of Kalampaka (Ministry of Culture 1967), while the boundaries of the heritage site were re-defined in 2005 (Ministry of Culture 2005). Meteora was designated a World Heritage Site in 1988, recognised as a cultural and natural ('mixed') 'property' of 'outstanding universal value' on the basis of cultural criteria i, ii, iv, v and natural criterion iii (UNESCO 1988; ICOMOS 1987a; IUCN 1988). Buffer zones for the protection

of the site were defined in 1995 and 1996 (Ministry of Culture 1995; Ministry of Culture 1996), and were re-defined in 2002 (Ministry of Culture 2002; see also below): buffer Zone A (around the Meteora monasteries) strictly prohibits the erection of any buildings in it, while buffer Zone B (around the Meteora rocks) sets conditions on the construction of buildings in Kastraki and Kalampaka settlements (see above, figure 8). The responsibility for the protection of the site of Meteora, given its World Heritage status, lies primarily in the central Ministry of Culture and, at a clearly secondary level, in the 19th Ephorate of Byzantine Antiquities (based on the city of Trikala, Prefecture of Trikala). Given the significance of Meteora also as a natural heritage site, the Ministry for the Environment, Spatial Planning and Public Works is also involved in the management of the site, but the final responsibility remains in the Ministry of Culture. Despite the general policy of the Greek government bodies not to provide any special legal framework of protection for its religious heritage (see above), Meteora was actually given a special legal status. It was recognised in 1995 as a holy site, protected against any commercial activity that would do harm to its holy character (Greek Government 1995: see below), with the boundaries of the holy site being defined in 1999 (Ministry of Culture and Ministry of Environment, Spatial Planning and Public Works 1999).

Tourism operation

中文译文 · 阅读单元 19

在这种制度中，文化部在法律上对遗产保护拥有排他性的权力，主教区和修道共同体并没有正式保护权限。但现实中，由于修道共同体依法拥有并使用修道院，国家又必须与其合作。因此同一地方实际上有两套管理权：作为遗产，它归希腊国家负责；作为仍在使用的修道院，它又归各修道共同体负责。文化部影响修道共同体最有效的手段之一是修复经费：修道院若希望获得国家资金，通常必须满足两个条件——修复工程需要文化部批准并监督，而且修道院要向公众开放。于是，文化部实际能够控制到什么程度，会受到各修道共同体自身财力以及其是否愿意发展旅游的影响。

迈泰奥拉的国家遗产保护经历逐步扩展：1921年先列入 Varlaam、大迈泰奥拉、St Stephen 与 Holy Trinity 等个别修道院；1962年增加 Roussanou、St Nikolaos Anapafsas 等；1967年被整体划为统一遗产地；2005年又重新界定边界。1988年以“突出普遍价值”的文化与自然混合遗产进入世界遗产名录。1995—1996年建立保护缓冲区，2002年重新调整：A 区围绕修道院，严格禁止新建建筑；B 区围绕岩柱，对 Kastraki 与 Kalampaka 建设设置条件。由于世界遗产身份，中央文化部承担最主要责任，Trikala 的第19拜占庭文物管理机构只处在次要位置；由于迈泰奥拉也是自然遗产，环境与空间规划部门也参与，但最后责任仍在文化部。虽然希腊通常不会为宗教遗产另设完全不同的法律体系，迈泰奥拉还是获得特殊身份：1995年被认定为“圣地”，法律禁止损害其神圣性质的商业活动，1999年进一步划定圣地区域边界。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 20

Tourism is one of the current pillars of the economy of Greece (see Patsouratis 2002, 1−12; Research Institute for Tourism 2004, 47−52). Tourism is centrally administered, with responsibilities increasingly allowed to a local level: the central divisions of the Ministry of Tourism in collaboration with the Hellenic Tourism Organisation [a

Public Entity supervised by the Ministry of Tourism that is responsible for the promotion of Greek tourism] set the policy, while the local divisions deliver this policy at the local level. These government bodies collaborate with various independent tourist agencies for the setting and the delivery of the policy (Varvaressos 1999, 160−166). The policy of the Greek state may be summarised as follows: Within the international market, which is dominated by tour operators and is operating through the selling of holiday packages for mass tourism on an 'image and price' basis, Greece is mainly promoted on the basis of the 'Sea and Sun' model for the summer period. The Greek state positions Greece within the international market in two ways: First, within the 'Sea and Sun' model: by differentiating Greece from its competitors (that are also promoted on the basis of the 'Sea and Sun' model) through the 'Sea, Sun and Culture' model. Hence, from these three elements 'culture' stands out as the quintessential aspect of the new tourism profile of Greece, and as the competitive advantage of Greece (Hellenic Tourism Organisation 2001, 7 and 12−18; Chatzidakis 2004, 7; see also Patsouratis 2002, 205 and 214−215; Tsartas et al. 2010). In this new tourism profile, 'culture' is associated with a wide range of aspects of the contemporary Greek style of life such as hospitality, a pleasant and relaxing style of life, and picturesque scenery (Hellenic Tourism Organisation 2001, 17; Chatzidakis 2004, 1−2 and 7−8). Still, a key element of this 'culture' remains cultural heritage – with an emphasis on the ancient Classical heritage, as the one more easily associated with Greece internationally due to the continuing Classical interest of the Western world (see above) (Chatzidakis 1993, 2−3; see also Touloupa 2010). Second, outside the 'Sea and Sun' model: by developing smaller, alternative tourism trends, outside the mainstream mass tourism trends and beyond the summer period. The aim is to attract segments in the existing market that cannot be satisfied by the current mass tourist trends, and potentially develop these segments and create new markets (Hellenic Tourism Organisation 2003b, Phase B, 33−35; Hellenic Tourism Organisation 2001, 11 and 14; Patsouratis

2002, 212−214; Chatzidakis 2004, 7−8; Chatzidakis 1993, 4−7; Varvaressos 1999, 33−35). Such alternative forms of tourism are cultural tourism (associated mainly with monuments-sites, museums and contemporary culture), rural tourism, and religious tourism, which is mainly aimed at the Orthodox, mainly Eastern European, markets (on religious tourism, see: Hellenic Tourism Organisation 2000; Hellenic Tourism Organisation 2003a; on religious tourism based on monasteries in use, see: Konsola 1996, 269−270; Kazazaki 1996, 325−328; Kazazaki 1999). The Greek state also promotes the development of domestic tourism (i.e. based on the Greek visitors), outside the 'Sea and Sun' model and beyond the summer period (during which Greeks usually seek beach destinations) (Patsouratis 2002, 23−26). Among the most significant types of domestic tourism is religious tourism, with the participation of the Church authorities and the monastic communities. Meteora is one of the most popular tourist destinations in Greece. Meteora fits within the policy of the Greek state in the following ways. Within the international market: First, within the 'Sea, Sun and Culture' model, Meteora provides an excellent example of a site that demonstrates that Greece is much more than 'Sea and Sun' and, furthermore, much more than ancient Classical culture, thus further expanding the tourism profile of Greece (figure 9) (pers. comm. Ministry of Tourism; Hellenic Tourism Organisation 2003b, Phase B, 97). Second, outside the 'Sea, Sun and Culture' model, the region of Meteora offers a great variety of alternative forms of tourism, such as cultural tourism, rural tourism, religious tourism, and rock-climbing (Hellenic Tourism Organisation 2003, Phase B, 34−35; Charalambeas 2005, 206−210 and 255−256; Xydias and Totsikas and Braoudakis 1994, 10/17−26; 10/29-32; Chormova 1997, 285; Livanidis 1988, 2; Ministry of Coordination and Development 1980, 19). Within the domestic market, Meteora is by far the most popular monastic site in Greece (Xydias and Totsikas and Braoudakis 1994, 10/20). The popularity of Meteora as a tourist destination is also eased by the fact that Meteora is also open to women, is much easier to access by a wellorganised transportation system, and there are no special entry procedures or restrictions in the number of the visitors (unlike for instance Mount Athos). The operation of Meteora may be seen from a tourist point of view as follows. First, within the 'Sea and Sun (and Culture)' model (within the international market): Meteora operates as a transitory destination added to other, primary destinations and routes (such as sea resorts, and on the way from Athens to Thessaloniki) mostly during the summer period (Xydias and Totsikas and Braoudakis 1994, 10/18−19). The visitors spend approximately two to three hours visiting a couple of monasteries, make a brief stop at shops and restaurants, and move on to their final destination. The most visited monasteries are those with more open space, museums and shops (such as the Great Meteoron and the Varlaam monasteries) or those with the easiest access from the road (the St Stephen monastery). The most preferred restaurants and shops are those located

on the roads of access to the site. The majority of the visitors do not stay in the nearby town of Kalampaka and the village of Kastraki (Xydias and Totsikas and Braoudakis 1994, 10/18−19; pers. comm. KENAKAP; Alexiadis 1998). Second, outside the 'Sea, Sun and Culture' model (within the international market, through the alternative types of tourism, and also within the domestic market): Meteora is established as a primary tourist destination at a more extended period throughout the year (Xydias and Totsikas and Braoudakis 1994, 10/19;

Hellenic Tourism Organisation 2003b, Phase B, 97−98). The visitors stay in Kastraki and Kalampaka. Rock-climbers, for example, stay in the area for approximately seven days (Liolios 2006, 6). In this context, the impact of the development of tourism at Meteora is as follows. The benefits are most significant for the Greek state through the contribution of tourism in the overall development of the country. The benefits are rather limited for the local community, with the exception of a few restaurants, souvenir shops, and hotels (see above). The benefits for the Meteora monastic communities, as the ones who control the access to the monasteries, are significant. Therefore, the key players in the tourism industry are the tour operators (international level), the Greek state (national level) and the Meteora monastic communities (local level), while the other groups of people, such as the local agents and the local community, try to benefit through their relationship with these key players.

Conclusion

中文译文 · 阅读单元 20

【旅游运行】旅游业是希腊经济的重要支柱。国家层面由旅游部门和希腊国家旅游组织制定政策，地方机构负责实施，并与独立旅游企业合作。国际市场长期由旅行社和大众度假套餐主导，希腊传统上主要以夏季“海洋与阳光”形象营销。为与同样出售海滨度假的竞争目的地区分，国家逐渐提出“海洋、阳光与文化”的组合，其中“文化”成为希腊旅游新形象和竞争优势。这里的文化不只指古迹，也包括好客、轻松愉快的生活方式和风景，但文化遗产仍非常重要，尤其是西方长期熟悉的古典遗产。

在大众“海洋与阳光”模式之外，希腊也希望发展规模较小的替代旅游，突破夏季旺季并吸引不能由大众旅游满足的细分市场，包括文化旅游、乡村旅游和宗教旅游。宗教旅游主要面向东正教市场，尤其东欧，同时国内旅游也被鼓励从夏季海滨扩展到其他季节和类型，教会和修道共同体因此成为重要参与者。

迈泰奥拉非常符合这套政策。在国际市场中，它能说明希腊不只是“海洋和阳光”，也不只有古典文化，从而扩展国家旅游形象；在替代旅游层面，周边又可发展文化、乡村、宗教、攀岩等多种活动。国内市场中，它更是希腊最受欢迎的修道目的地。与阿索斯山相比，迈泰奥拉允许女性进入、交通便利、没有复杂入场程序或严格人数限制，因此更容易成为大众目的地。

在“海洋—阳光—文化”的国际大众旅游线路中，迈泰奥拉常是过境式目的地，被附加在海滨度假或雅典—塞萨洛尼基路线中。游客通常停留两三小时，参观两座左右修道院，短暂停留商店和餐馆后继续行程。拥有更多开放空间、博物馆和商店的修道院，或从公路最容易到达的修道院，访客最多；多数游客并不住在 Kalampaka 或 Kastraki。相比之下，在文化、宗教、攀岩等替代旅游以及国内旅游中，迈泰奥拉更可能成为主要目的地，游客会全年更长时间停留；例如攀岩者平均可能停留约一周。

旅游收益的分配并不均衡。国家通过旅游对全国发展的贡献获益最大；地方社区的直接收益相对有限，主要集中于少数餐馆、纪念品商店和酒店；而掌握修道院入口和公共开放权的修道共同体获得显著收益。因此，旅游体系中的关键行动者是国际旅行运营商、国家以及地方的修道共同体，本地旅游企业和普通地方居民则必须通过与这些核心行动者建立关系来获得利益。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 21

The interdependence of monasticism, heritage protection and tourism oprration may be summarised as follows: Heritage protection, in principle, is in conflicting terms with the monastic sites' continuing ecclesiastical and liturgical meaning and function, and is dependent upon the monastic communities' legally recognised ownership of their monasteries. Heritage protection, in practice, considers public access a basic requirement for the provision for the funding for restoration of the monasteries, and depends on the monastic communities' attitude towards tourism and also on their relative financial power. Meteora is a most popular tourist attraction. The monastic communities of the site, as those who control the public access to the site, play a key role in tourism industry and derive considerable power from this role, also in financial terms. The increased public access to the site, as well as the increased financial power of the monastic communities, hinders the cooperation between the State / the Ministry of Culture and the monastic communities, posing several complexities to heritage protection.

中文译文 · 阅读单元 21

本章结论强调修道、遗产保护和旅游三者彼此依赖又相互冲突。原则上，遗产保护要求把修道院当作历史纪念物

保存，这与其仍持续存在的教会和礼仪意义并不完全一致，而且国家保护又不得不面对修道共同体依法拥有修道院这一事实。实践中，国家通常把“向公众开放”作为修复资助的重要条件，因此遗产保护又依赖修道共同体对旅游的态度和自身财力。迈泰奥拉本身是极受欢迎的旅游景点，修道共同体掌握公共进入权，因而在旅游业中拥有关键地位和相当经济力量。游客增加以及共同体财政力量增强，反过来又使国家文化部与修道共同体更难合作，为遗产保护带来持续复杂性。

Chapter 7. The meaning of Meteora as an Orthodox monastic site

第7章：迈泰奥拉作为东正教修道场所的意义

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 22

The meaning of Meteora as an Orthodox monastic site

7.1. From the 11th century to approximately 1940: the original Tradition at Meteora

From the 11th century to approximately 1940, the original Tradition has been applied to the site of Meteora. The Tradition of the Orthodox Church relates to a series of beliefs.1 Through the presentation of these beliefs, an attempt is made to draw the link between God as believed and worshipped in the Orthodox Church and the specific monastic space and practices at Meteora. Emphasis is on the definition of the concept of authenticity in the context of the Orthodox Church.

God

At the core of the Orthodox Church is the belief in the inextricable relationship between the Persons of the Holy Trinity (the Father, the Son, and the Holy Spirit) in a communion of Love (Vasileios 1974, 75−77). The substance of God is love (John 4. 8, translated by Bible 1966). The entire creation, comprising the angels, the universe and man, is the ‘natural’ [‘by nature’] expression of the Love of God. God is always present in, and defines, the history of humanity through the creation of man by the Father (the beginning of history), the Incarnation of Christ/the Son (the centre of history) and the Second Coming of Christ (the end of history). Thus, the history of humanity is viewed in the Orthodox Church as a linear process, centred on the Incarnation of Christ. God created man ‘in his own image and likeness’. In this way

…it is this unity that in substance connects the three persons of the Holy Trinity that God gave by the grace to his creature. This constitutes the ontological basis of the ‘in his own image’ and the capacity of achieving the ‘in his own likeness’. This is the harmony and balance of our nature as beings and of our relationship with our creator. (Vasileios 1974, 75−77)

Through his fall, however, man destroyed the harmony and balance of his nature and his relationship with God, and consequently experienced death (Iosif 1996, 38). It was God Himself (Christ, ‘the Word’: John 1. 1−16, translated by Bible 1966) who restored this harmony through His personal intervention in history, i.e. through His Incarnation, Death and Resurrection. The relationship between man and the environment is placed within the relationship between God and man. God created the environment as a tool for man to glorify and serve Him. Thus, the environment does not have value in its own right but only through its service to man. The ultimate aim of God is the salvation of man and not the salvation of the environment (Nikodimi 2002, 4−5). The fall of man, and consequently the destruction of the relationship between man and God, unavoidably affected the relationship between man and the environment. And it was only through the personal intervention of Christ in history that the environment was restored to its original essence (Nikodimi 2002, 5−6; Zizioulas 1992, 17−37). Therefore, Christ, the Incarnated Son of God, is the exclusive cause of salvation of man and of the entire creation, and thus the exclusive source of true life.

Church

The Church exists through its permanent relationship with God: ‘The living God continues to reveal Himself in and through the Church’ (Nellas 1987, 148−154). The Church was founded by Christ and with the coming of the Holy Spirit. The Church operates as a unified communion modelled upon the relationship within the Holy Trinity. The members of the Church are linked to each other through their individual linking with Christ. God created man, as noted above, ‘in His own image and likeness’. His image is given through the creation to everybody regardless of religion and doctrine. However, His likeness was offered through the Incarnation of Christ, and can be achieved only within the Church, through the Grace of God/the Holy Spirit and with the co-operation of man

(Iosif 1996, 40−41).

The Tradition of the Church

The concept of authenticity in the context of the Orthodox Church is linked to that of Tradition. Tradition means any teaching or practice that has been transmitted from generation to generation throughout the life of the Church; it is 'the very life of the Holy Trinity as it has been revealed by Christ Himself and testified by the Holy Spirit' (Bebis 2014).2 To be more specific: Tradition is the continuous presence and revelation of God/the Holy Spirit in the Church throughout time and space (Vlachos 1937, 32; Nellas 1987, 148−154; Damianos 1987, 161−166).

Tradition in Church is not simply the continuation of human memory or the continuation of the ritual activities and habits. It is, above all, the continuation of the guidance and illumination from God, it is the maintaining, living presence of the Holy Spirit. Church is not attached to the letter [of the law], but is steadily driven by the Holy Spirit. (Florovsky 1960, 241)

Tradition defines the Church as a whole, including the Holy Scripture, the writings of the Holy Fathers, the decisions of Ecumenical and local Councils, the administration, the liturgical life, and

the art of the Church. The Tradition is unified, rooted in the unity of the Holy Trinity (Vasileios 1986, 16−17; Damianos 1987, 161−166). As it was noted,

everything in Church emerges from the same font of the liturgical experience. Everything co-operates in a triadic [i.e. associated to the Holy Trinity] way… Everything emerges from the knowledge of the Holy Trinity. (Vasileios 1974, 7−10)

Tradition as an entity is experienced by the entire Body of the Church: As nothing is done within the Holy Trinity without the cooperation of the three Persons, similarly 'nothing is achieved in the Church without the participation of its entire Body, without the consent of the ecclesiastical, triadic consciousness of the Church' (Vasileios 1974, 75−77). In the first place, however, Tradition is revealed by God/Christ only to the Saints, who in turn pass it to the entire Body of the Church through their writings, their decisions and their art. Saints are the authentic, the real Christians, 'the living examples of authenticity', they 'become Tradition themselves' and are 'sons of God by the grace' (Damianos 1987, 161−166; Vlachos 1987, 167). In this way,

…the authentic man does not simply constitute a model of moral completion, but is actually transformed in a vessel of revelation of the dogmatic truths [of the Church]. He experiences and reveals the Economy [Oikonomia] of God [i.e. all the actions of God for the salvation of man] in its entity. (Nikolaos 2005, 158−159)

The real Christian is compatible with the doctrine of the Church, but also brings something new and original of his/her own:

The image of the authentic person is not something that exists and everyone should imitate, but something that does not exist and everyone is asked to create. It is the expression of the one for which man is chosen. Authenticity is what demonstrates the holiness and the uniqueness of the person. (Nikolaos 2005, 133−134)

The real Christian is contemporary at any time:

中文译文 · 阅读单元 22

【第7章：迈泰奥拉作为东正教修道场所的意义——7.1 11世纪至约1940年：原初“传统”】作者首先解释东正教内部所谓“传统（Tradition）”，以此建立上帝、修道生活、具体空间和“真实性”之间的联系。东正教信仰的核心，是圣父、圣子、圣灵三个位格在爱的共融中不可分离；上帝的本质是爱，天使、宇宙和人都被视为上帝之爱的“自然表达”。在人类历史中，上帝始终存在：圣父创造人是历史的开始，基督/圣子道成肉身是历史中心，基督再临是历史终点。因此，东正教把人类历史理解为以道成肉身为中心的线性过程。

人按照上帝的“形象和样式”被创造，原本分享圣三位格之间的统一、和谐与平衡；但人的堕落破坏了这种与上帝之间的和谐，并带来死亡。基督作为“圣言”通过道成肉身、死亡和复活介入历史，重新建立这一关系。人与环境的关系同样被放在上帝—人的关系中理解：环境由上帝创造，是人荣耀和服事上帝的工具，其价值并非独立存在，而通过服务于人的终极目标——得救——获得意义。人的堕落也破坏了人与环境的关系，而基督的介入使整个受造界重新获得其本质。因此，基督是人和全部创造得救的唯一原因，也是真正生命的唯一源头。

【教会】教会通过与上帝持续的关系而存在：“活的上帝继续在教会中并通过教会启示自己。”教会由基督建立，并在圣灵降临中形成，其统一共融以圣三内部关系为原型。教会成员通过个人与基督的联系彼此连接。每个人

在受造时都拥有上帝的“形象”，不分宗教；但“样式”通过基督的道成肉身提供，只能在教会内、借上帝/圣灵的恩典与人的合作逐渐实现。

【教会的传统】东正教语境中的“真实性”与传统紧密相连。传统不是简单的旧习惯，而是教会生命中代代传递的教导与实践，是“圣三的生命本身——由基督启示、由圣灵见证”。更具体地说，传统就是上帝/圣灵超越时间和空间、在教会中持续临在和启示。它不是人的记忆或仪式习惯机械延续，而首先是上帝引导和光照的持续，是圣灵活生生的临在；教会不是被法律字句束缚，而是不断由圣灵引导。

传统涵盖整个教会：圣经、教父著作、大公及地方会议决定、行政制度、礼仪生活和教会艺术都属于其中。它之所以统一，是因为根源于圣三的统一，一切都来自同一礼仪经验并彼此配合。整个教会共同体验传统；如同圣三内部没有任何行动脱离三个位格的共同参与，教会中的事情也不能脱离整个“身体”及其共同意识。不过，传统首先由上帝/基督向圣徒启示，再由圣徒通过著作、决定和艺术传给整个教会。圣徒被视为真正、真实的基督徒，是“真实性活的榜样”，甚至“自身成为传统”。真实的人不只是道德完善的模范，也成为教义真理启示的器皿，完整体验并显明上帝救赎人的“经纶”。

真正的基督徒既与教会教义一致，也必须带来个人独特的新表达；真实的人并不是现成模板让所有人模仿，而是每个人按照自己的召命去创造的存在。真实性因此体现人的圣洁与唯一性。真正的基督徒在任何时代都具有“当代性”。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 23

…not … worldly ‘contemporary’; but … ‘contemporary’ in the sense of bearing/incarnating the eternal message of God in the present [of each times]. He bears/incarnates the Tradition of the Church and also the image of the ultimate… The Christian life is authentic… when we experience the kingdom of God as more real than the historic events. (Nikolaos 2005, 157−158 and 132)

The real Christian ‘constantly acts in the boundaries between God and man’, but remains ‘truly humane’ (Nikolaos 2005, 154). As it was characteristically noted:

Authenticity helps a Christian to constantly act in the boundaries between God and man, between rationale and mystery, between the love of God and the pain of man, between freedom and obedience. This [authenticity] inspires him to move also in the beyond of personal space, of humane measure, of secular time, of ego. It is in these boundaries that God is hiding. It is in this beyond that one meets his brother, eternity, grace, truth, God Himself… The authentic/real Christian is truly humane. He does not find salvation on his own, he shares salvation. He can be devoid of his pride, and thus unify with God and with his brothers. (Nikolaos 2005, 154)

Therefore, Church is not seen as a group of people operating on the basis of majority, but as a community of saints operating on the basis of the Tradition of the Church.

Worship (The Holy Liturgy)

The Holy Liturgy is the most significant aspect, the sine qua non, the core of the Tradition of the Church since it unifies the faithful with Christ. Holy Liturgy is ‘a ritual, …the transition from the empirical world to the symbolic one, …communion with God and with society’ (Papadopoulos 1991a, 44−45). Given that Christ is the reason for the salvation of the entire creation (see above), it is basically the Holy Liturgy that gives salvation as well as essence to the entire creation:

The Holy Liturgy makes the organism of creation as a whole operate in the triadic way. The one who participates in the Holy Liturgy has an esoteric view of the world. Time and space become new. (Vasileios 1974, 123)

The Church cannot exist without the Holy Liturgy:

There is no Church or Orthodoxy without the Holy Liturgy, and there is no Holy Liturgy and Orthodoxy outside the Church. Holy Liturgy is the constant centre of our life. (Vlachos 1987, 169−170)

The Holy Liturgy gives meaning to all the other elements of the Tradition of the Church. The other elements of the Tradition do not have meaning and existence in their own right but are created as an entity, through the Holy Liturgy. Thus, the Tradition as a whole is purely functional, acquiring its existence and meaning serving the worship of God (Vlachos 1987, 168). Therefore, the aim of the existence of man is the ultimate unification with Christ, which is actually achieved through the Holy Liturgy. In this context, the concept of authenticity in the Orthodox Church is centred on the Holy Liturgy, and the real Christian, the Saint, is the one who is absolutely

dedicated to the worship of God.

The art of the Church

The art of the Church, in all its expressions (such as architecture, sculpture, painting, poetry, and music), acquires its existence and meaning exclusively within the Tradition. The art of the Church is a purely functional one, created and operating as an entity serving the worship, and is guided and defined, in terms of its boundaries, by the Tradition of the Church, i.e. by the Holy Spirit. The aim of the art of the Church is to lead to the knowledge of God and subsequently to the unification with Him and the salvation through Him (Vasileios 1986, 16−20; Vasileios 1974, 127−130; Paliouras 1997, 18−19). In this context, the art of the Church (for instance, an icon) is clearly differentiated from art that depicts a religious topic (for instance, a religious painting). The art of the Church is not simply seen as the outcome of the artistic capacity of an individual, but as the expression of the liturgical life of the Church: 'It is not a man-created image, but the incarnated grace of God' (Vasileios 1974, 137−138). It is an eternal and ever-lasting reality that transcends the physical reality of time and space of a particular era and beyond history, and expresses the ultimate/the Great Beyond, which is the time and space of Paradise. In this way, it is 'not a representation of past events, but participation in a new, transformed history and materiality, the outcome of the merging of the created and the uncreated'. Thus, it is not an item of the past, but 'a presence within the continuous life of the Church that is living, bears life and gives life' (Vasileios 1974, 123−130 and 136−140; also Vasileios 1986, 15). Therefore, the entire Tradition of the Church, including art, is created and operates as an entity, stemming from the one Church and from one God, and serving the one Holy Liturgy.

The monastic Tradition of the Church

中文译文 · 阅读单元 23

这里的“当代”并不是顺从世俗潮流，而是在每一个时代的当下承担、体现上帝永恒的信息：基督徒承载教会传统，也承载终极未来的图像；当人体验上帝国度比历史事件更真实时，基督徒生活才具有真实性。真实基督徒不断处在上帝与人、理性与奥秘、上帝之爱与人的痛苦、自由与顺服之间的边界，却仍然“真正具有人性”。真实性使人超越个人空间、人类尺度、世俗时间与自我，在这种“超越”中与弟兄、永恒、恩典、真理和上帝相遇。得救也不是个人孤立完成，而是被分享的；人通过摆脱骄傲，与上帝和弟兄联合。

因此，作者强调，教会不是一个按多数票运行的普通人群体，而是一个依据“传统”生活的圣徒共同体。

【敬拜与神圣礼仪】神圣礼仪（Holy Liturgy）是教会传统最重要、不可缺少的核心，因为它使信徒与基督联合。它既是礼仪行动，也是从经验世界进入象征世界的转换，同时是与上帝和共同体的共融。由于基督是全部受造界得救的原因，正是神圣礼仪赋予整个创造以得救和存在意义。参与礼仪的人以一种内在方式观看世界，时间与空间也被更新。没有神圣礼仪就没有教会或正教信仰，礼仪是生活持续不变的中心。

其他传统要素本身并不独立拥有意义，它们在礼仪中共同形成整体，并以服务于敬拜上帝为功能。因此人的存在终极目标是与基督联合，而这种联合主要通过神圣礼仪实现。由此，东正教中的真实性并不主要取决于一件物质对象是否保存原样，而在于是否持续参与这一活的传统、礼仪和与上帝的关系。

【修道主义】修道生活被理解为追求与基督联合的最彻底道路。修士和修女离开一般社会生活，不是为了逃避世界，而是把全部生命集中于敬拜上帝。他们通过礼仪、祈祷、顺服、禁欲和共同生活追求个人得救。一个东正教修道院首先是精神活动中心，而不是以社会慈善或学术研究为主要目的的机构。这一点也被作者用来与部分天主教修道传统区别。

在东正教修道观中，修士对更广泛社会最根本的贡献，是通过自己的得救帮助世界得救；报偿只来自上帝，而不是社会赞誉。修道院唯一和最终目标是“造就圣徒”，成为“圣徒的方舟、受祝福者的共同体”。学校、医院、养老院、圣像和十字架作坊、传教等社会活动并非修道生活必不可少的部分；即使进行，也必须服从而不能取代这一终极目标。迈泰奥拉共同体把“从修道共同体中造就圣徒”称为修道主义最大的社会贡献。因此，修道共同体本质上具有内向性，以礼仪和敬拜为中心；它对世界最重要的责任，就是通过继续修道生活和神圣礼仪，让遗址保持“活着”，也让教会传统继续活着。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 24

Monastic life is considered the most absolute path in the Orthodox Church for the devotion to, and unification

with, Christ (Iosif 1996, 40; Vasileios 1974, 173; Ioannou 2003, 124−129), the quintessence of Christianity, the most dynamic, complete and consistent expression of it, thus serving as the ideal model for the Church as a whole (Yannaras 1973, 68; Meteora Monasteries 1994a, 16−17). Monasticism as a way of life developed and still operates within the Tradition of the Church: the constitutional form and regulation of monasticism were revealed by God to the Fathers of the Church, who were considered real Christians, Saints (see above; Iosif 1996, 40). A monastic community is a community of people absolutely dedicated to Christ, and aiming at unifying with Him. The unification with Christ is achieved through the Holy Liturgy and with the support of the Abbot/Head monk of the monastic community. The Abbot is the most prominent person in a monastic community, the one who gives the character and the essence to it (Aimilianos 1991, 119). The Abbot is considered the person who receives the Tradition directly from God and transfers it to the monks. Thus, he is considered the real Christian, the Saint, the living Tradition for his monks (Aimilianos 1991, 120). The relationship between the monk and his Abbot is a personal and a closest one, modelled upon the relationship within the Holy Trinity (Iosif 1996, 38), while the relationships between the members of a monastic community are indirect ones, passing through the Abbot. This spiritual role of the Abbot is also reflected in the administration of a monastery: The Abbot is the Head of the 'Holy Assembly' [the ultimate administrative body of a monastic community consisting of the Abbot and of two supervisors], is elected but is irremovable. The Abbot is the primary reason for the monks to move in their monasteries in the first place – a view that that is shared by the Meteora monks as well (pers. comm. Ioasaph; pers. comm. Maximi). The Holy Liturgy, what unifies man with God (see above), is the essence of monasticism. Monastic life 'imitates the eternal worship, in accordance with the example of the eternal glorifying of angels to God' (Aimilianos 1991, 120). Thus, 'worship is not an interval of schedule in a worldly life, but a permanent state of living' (Fountoulis 1991, 136). Monastic life as a whole could be seen as a way of continuous exercise and preparation for the Holy Liturgy (Vasileios 1974, 173; Metallinos 2003, 231−238). In this way, in the everyday monastic schedule a major part of the day is devoted to the conduct of the Holy Liturgy. The rest of the day is devoted to the sleep and prayer of monks in their cells, the communal monastic activities [diakonimata] and the communal meals, which have a practical purpose, aiming at the physical survival of the monks, but also a spiritual character, in the context of the preparation for the Holy Liturgy (Zias 1999, 11−12). Furthermore, the Holy Liturgy conducted in a monastery is not attended exclusively by the members of the monastic community but also by laity, who thus become an organic part of the life of the monastery (Aimilianos 1991, 120). Hence, thanks to the conduct of the Holy Liturgy, the 'inside' world (the monastic community) is connected with the 'outside' one (the laity). The Holy Liturgy also defines space and time in a monastery, transforming the monastery into a world of its own, different to the outside world. The core of the monastery is the katholicon [the main church in a monastery], where the Holy Liturgy is conducted, and the cells and the other monastic buildings are centred around the katholicon (Papadopoulos 1991b, 64; see below in detail). In terms of the everyday monastic schedule, the communal as well as the private activities of the monks are regulated on the basis of the Holy Liturgy, which is conducted according to Byzantine time, based on the cycle of nature (Papadopoulos 1991, 32−44). Furthermore, the Holy Liturgy conducted in a monastery defines space and time in the surrounding area of the monastery as well. A monastery is most of the time located on a high position, easily noticeable, with the crosses of its katholicon dominating the skyline (Papadopoulos 1991b, 64). It also sets the sound for the surrounding area through the ringing of the bells of its katholicon for worship (Papadopoulos 1991b, 64).

中文译文 · 阅读单元 24

【修道院的运行与管理】东正教修道院的生活，尤其礼仪生活，由名为 typicon 的规章文本规定。各修道院的 typicon 都源自耶路撒冷圣 Sabbas
修道院的共同传统，这体现修道传统和敬拜的统一与连续；与此同时，每座修道院又有自己独特的 typicon。它被视为该共同体所遵循的教会传统的一部分，并界定本共同体“传统”的实际边界。

一座修道院的 typicon 通常由创始人制定。信仰上，创始人被认为直接从上帝领受这一传统，再传给修士，因此通常被视作真正的基督徒和圣者。今天的共同体从前代修士那里继承
typicon，这些前辈也常受到圣者般尊敬。由此，typicon 成为一座具体修道院礼拜和运作连续性的证明，可以追溯到神圣创始人。迈泰奥拉各共同体遵循大迈泰奥拉修道院、由圣 Athanasios 制定的规章。它并不是静止的制度文本，也不是简单从一代“教授”给下一代，而是在每天礼拜实践中被学习，并依据共同体随时间变化的具体需求演进。保持遗址“活着”的首要责任，因此就是继续依据本院 typicon 进行敬拜。

【修道空间】由于修道共同体是通过神圣礼仪敬拜上帝的人群，修道院具有双重功能：既是敬拜上帝的地方，也是维持修道共同体日常生命的地方。空间形态正由这两种功能共同决定。

修道生活大致有四种形态。第一，隐修模式以个人生活和个人敬拜为主，空间较松散，许多小型独立修室分布在更大区域。第二，skiti 模式是个人生活、共同敬拜，修室围绕一座供共同礼拜的教堂 kyriakon 分布，整体仍较松散。第三，koinobion 是组织化修道院，共同生活和共同敬拜，空间严格组织为一座大型修道院。第四是修道建筑群，即同一地区存在多座彼此独立、但相互联系、甚至共享某些行政体系的修道院。

迈泰奥拉正是一处修道建筑群，并同时保留这些不同形态：已经停用的隐修小室多为木、砖、石构成的简单建筑；仍使用的 skiti 包括 Doupiani 和 St Antonios；组织化修道院则是在岩柱顶部形成的纪念性建筑，今天仍有大迈泰奥拉、Varlaam、St Stephen、Roussanou、Holy Trinity 和 St Nikolaos Anapafsas 六座在用。此外还有一种介于 skiti 和 koinobion 之间、以墙体封闭在岩壁中的特殊类型，现仍使用的有 St Nikolaos Badovas 和 Meeting of Christ。

【外部空间与景观】传统修道院应与周围景观高度协调，以有限、低调的方式介入自然，并谨慎使用物质资源。这与东正教传统对“物质”的理解一致：自然材料主要在维持身体生存和修道院持续存在所必需的范围内使用。迈泰奥拉修道院仿佛是岩石自然延伸的一部分，或者说岩石本身成为建筑的天然基座。修道院基本保持周围景观，只建设绝对必要的空间，并最大限度利用岩顶有限面积；外轮廓贴合岩面边缘，形成不规则形状，必要时还会用碎石填补边缘以增加可用面积。因此，修道院既“补充”也“完成”了景观。修道共同体认为，人的存在并未滥用在上帝创造中的特权，没有破坏自然生态，而是以敏感、克制的方式把神圣修道院置入景观，以强化空间的神圣性和精神性。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 25

The continual conduct of the Holy Liturgy renders a monastery ‘a symbolically structured and ritually experienced view of the world’. A monastery is a symbolic world, in which, in the views of the monks, the actual scale of space is heaven and the actual scale of time is eternity (Papadopoulos 1991b, 64−73). The monastery is considered to connect earth and heaven, being in fact ‘heaven on earth’ (Iosif 1996, 40−41). Above the monastery there is a different world, that of true and eternal life: Paradise. The monastery is considered the ideal community, and the katholicon the symbol of the world, ‘a living image of the Kingdom of God’ (Papadopoulos 1991b, 75−77; Papadopoulos 1991a, 44). Also, between the monastery and Paradise, i.e. between earth and heaven, there is a world with transitory space and time, in expectation of the Second Coming, which (world) is represented by the cemetery. That is why the cemetery of a monastery is constructed as a completely different unit, outside the walls of the monastery and surrounded by a wall (Papadopoulos 1991a, 45). Through the continual conduct of the Holy Liturgy, a monastery is also considered to transform, in terms of meaning, its surrounding landscape into a new, monastic landscape formed and operating within the constant service and worship of God, setting a model for the establishment of balance and harmony in the entire creation (Nikodimi 2002, 9−10; Theoxeni 1999, 84−86; Keselopoulos 2003, 322−236). Therefore, the actual essence and power of a monastic community is inextricably and exclusively associated with the Tradition of the Church and particularly with the Holy Liturgy. If the Holy Liturgy stops in a monastery, as a result of the departure of the monastic community from the site, then the Grace of God/the Holy Spirit (which is believed to be continuously present everywhere and cover everything) remains inactive in the site, and, as a consequence, the life in the monastery stops, and the monastery loses its symbolic meaning as a new world (pers. comm. Ioasaph). In this context, an Orthodox monastery is a centre of spiritual activity, and not a centre of social philanthropy or scientific research. In this respect, an Orthodox monastery could be differentiated from a Catholic one (Zias 1999, 11−12; Ioannou 2003, 130−132; Feidas 1996, 39−40). In Orthodox monasticism, the salvation of the the wider society is achieved through the salvation of the monk himself, and any reward to the monk is given only from God and not from the people (Moisis 1997, 29−32). The ultimate and exclusive aim of a monastery is the making of saints: monastery is ‘an arc of saints, a community of blessed’ (Aimilianos 1991, 131). Any other social activities (such as the operation of schools, hospitals, homes for the elderly, and workshops for the making of icons and crosses, and the organising of missions to non-Orthodox people or for the benefit of the nation) are not an essential part of monastic life and, if undertaken, should be clearly fit into, and not undermine let alone replace, this ultimate aim of the monastery. As the Meteora monastic communities state, ‘the making of saints from the Monastic Community is the most significant social contribution of Monasticism’ (Meteora Monasteries 1994a, 16). This section demonstrated that monasticism, as the most absolute path for unification with Christ, is centred on the Holy Liturgy. In this context, a monastic community is an introverted community devoted to the worship of God. The most significant contribution as well as

responsibility of the monastic community towards the wider world is to keep their site ‘living’, to keep alive the Tradition of the Church by leading their monastic life and conducting the Holy Liturgy (Moisis 1997, 32−33).

The operation and administration of a monastery

The operation and administration of an Orthodox monastery, and particularly its liturgical life, are defined by a text called typicon (Apostolakis 2002d, 19−20). The typica of all Orthodox monasteries stem from the same typicon, that of St Sabbas Monastery at Jerusalem, something that

reveals the unity and the continuity of the monastic Tradition and worship (Fountoulis 1991, 133). At the same time, each monastery has its own distinctive typicon. The typicon of a monastery is recognised as part of the Tradition of the Church, as followed by the specific monastic community, and defines the boundaries of the Tradition for the specific monastic community (Fountoulis 1991, 133−134; Ephraim 1996, 26). The typicon of each monastery is composed by the founder of the monastery. The founder of the monastery is considered to receive the typicon (as part of the Tradition of the Church: see above) directly from God and transfer it to the monks; he is considered a real Christian, a Saint (see above), officially canonised by the Church or considered to have shown signs of sanctity and treated as a holy person. The typicon is inherited by the current monastic community from its predecessors, who are also treated as holy persons (figure 10). Thus, the typicon of a monastery is an indication of the continuity of worship and operation in the specific monastery, traced back to its holy founder. The Meteora monastic communities, for instance, follow the typicon of the Great Meteoron Monastery, composed by St Athanasios of Meteora, the founder of organised monasticism at Meteora (Tsiatas 2003, 161−162; Apostolakis 2002d, 20−24). The typicon (as part of the Tradition of the Church) is not a static document that is taught or transferred from one generation to the other but is learnt in practice with the conduct of worship on an everyday basis, and is thus evolving in accordance with the changing needs of the specific monastic community over the course of time (Fountoulis 1991, 133−134).

Therefore, the greatest contribution of a monastic community to the wider world, in order to keep their site living, is to continue to conduct the worship by following the typicon of their monastery (Fountoulis 1991, 135).

Monastic space

Given that a monastic community is a community of people devoted to the worship of God through the Holy Liturgy (see above), a monastery has a two-fold function: as a place of worship of God and as a place that sustains the monastic community. This two-fold function of the monastery defines monastic space. Specifically:

Forms of monastic space

中文译文 · 阅读单元 25

【修道院在景观中的位置】修道院相对于景观的位置同样由双重功能决定。由于修道生活具有内向、与外部世界保持距离的特点，传统修道院通常是独立、封闭、有清晰边界的单位，往往建于偏远区域，以围墙和纪念性入口隔离。然而修道院并不完全拒绝外界，它通过神圣礼仪与外界保持联系，因此入口通常朝向道路。迈泰奥拉除 St Stephen
外比较特殊：岩柱本身已经构成天然隔离，所以多没有传统围墙，也不以通常方式与外部道路直接相接。

由于敬拜是核心，katholicon（修道院主教堂）位于修道院核心，并朝向东方。东方在东正教中象征基督第一次和第二次降临，因此主教堂的位置和朝向进一步决定整个修道院相对于周边景观的布局。

【内部空间】修道院中心通常是院落，主教堂位于院落中心，餐厅多靠近主教堂；修室和储藏室、医院、钟楼等次要建筑则围绕院落布置。这一结构直接体现双重功能：主教堂是敬拜上帝的核心，院落是修道共同体和访客日常生活的中心。主教堂置于修室与院落中心有强烈象征意义——基督是修士持续的参照和终极目标，日常生活因此围绕基督与教会展开。餐厅靠近主教堂也同时具有精神和实用意义：食物与物质生活不是单纯维持身体，而与礼仪生活相连；同时修士守夜礼拜后可以直接到餐厅进食。

主教堂与院落彼此不可分割：院落以主教堂为最重要建筑，主教堂也必须通过院落才能从入口到达。这表明修道院的“敬拜”与“共同体生活”两个功能紧密连接。院落又由修道共同体和访客共同使用，说明东正教修道院虽然与外界分隔，内部却具有直接接纳访客的社会性。作者以此与某些天主教修道院结构对比：后者教堂可能从入口直接进入，院落和修道共同体生活区与访客分开，因此访客不被同样纳入修道生活。

Papaioannou 通过观察人在修道院中的行走路线分析这种空间动力。路线从入口开始，最终以主教堂为象征终点

。其中可区分两条轴线：入口—院落轴对应修道共同体及访客的生活功能；穿过主教堂并向院落投射的轴线对应敬拜功能。虽然最终目标都是主教堂，真正定义每座修道院性格的，是人如何经过院落走向这个终点。总体而言，东正教修道院更加突出入口—院落轴，因此在空间上强调“人的生活”这一功能。作者认为，这种“根源高度象征、却始终真实而人性”的空间特点，与东正教真实性观相呼应：真正的基督徒虽在上帝与人的边界中生活，却仍“真正具有人性”。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 26

There are basically four patterns of monastic life, defined mainly by the individual or common life and worship. These patterns of monastic life create the following forms of space (Nikodimi 2002, 9−10; Paliouras 1997, 17−18): First, the hermetic pattern, based on individual monastic life and worship, creates an incoherent and rather badly organised form of space, with small isolated cells scattered in a larger area. Second, the skiti [house of groups of monks], based on individual monastic life but common worship, creates a not well-organised form of space, with cells centred around a single church [kyriakon] where the common worship takes place. Third, the koinobion [organised monastery], based on common worship and life, creates a well- and strictly-organised arrangement of space, with a single large monastery. Fourth, a monastic complex, based on the parallel operation of several monasteries in the same area which operate individually but with links to each other and often under a unified administrative and management scheme, consists of several monasteries scattered in a larger area. Meteora is a monastic complex, in which all the patterns of monastic life exist (Tetsios 2003, 340−342; Nikodimi 2002, 19−20): The hermitic cells, no longer in use, are simple structures, mostly made of wood or bricks and stones, supported by wooden balconies (figure 11). The kyriaka of the skites that are still in use are those of Doupiani and St Antonios (figure 12). The koinobia [organised monasteries] are monumental structures built on the top of the rocks. Six of them are still in use: the Great Meteoron, the Varlaam, the St Stephen, Roussanou, the Holy Trinity and the St Nikolaos Anapafsas monasteries (figure 13). At Meteora there is also a special type of skites which are enclosed in the rocks by a wall, which (type) marks the transition between the skites and the koinobia. Only two examples of this special type of skites are still in use: St Nikolaos Badovas and the Meeting of Christ (figure 14).

The external space of a monastery (The monastery and its landscape)

A monastery is in absolute harmony with its surrounding landscape, with a limited and discreet effect on it, and makes a most sensitive use of the available physical resources (Theocharidis 1991, 87−88). The way monastic communities treat the natural environment is in accordance with the importance of materiality as defined by the Tradition of the Church: to the extent that the natural materials are essential for the survival of their bodies and the maintenance of their monastery (Nikodimi 2002, 6−10). The Meteora monasteries give the impression of being the physical continuation of the rocks on which they are built; or rather the rocks look like the physical foundations of the monasteries. The monasteries have left the surrounding landscape largely intact. Only the absolutely essential buildings have been built, and in a way that makes the best possible use of the available space. The external outline of the monasteries follows the furthest edges of the surface on the top of the

rocks, which gives an irregular shape to the monasteries. There has also been a further attempt to increase the available space on the top of the rocks by filling the edges of the surfaces with rubble (Nikodimi 2002, 23; Tetsios 2003, 339−340) (figure 15). Hence, it seems that the Meteora monasteries complemented, as well as completed, the landscape. As the Meteora monastic communities state with reference to their monasteries:

The human presence did not abuse its privileged position within the creation of God, did not upset or violate the natural ecosystem and did not distort the beauty of the landscape, but placed its creations (i.e. the holy monasteries) in the landscape, with significant sensitivity and care towards it, with the aim of emphasizing the holiness and spirituality of the space and not disrupting the balances. (Meteora Monasteries 1994a, 56)

The positioning of a monastery in relation to its landscape

The positioning of a monastery in relation to its landscape is defined by the monastery’s two-fold function: as a place of worship and as a place that sustains the life of the monastic community. Specifically: In accordance with the introverted character of the life of the monastic community, dedicated to the worship of God, a monastery is an independent and closed unit, isolated from the outside world, with specific, clear boundaries. That is why a monastery is in most of the cases founded in remote areas, and is surrounded by wall enclosures with a monumental gate (Paliouras 1997, 18-19; Theocharidis 1991, 87; Papadopoulos 1991b, 58−64). However, a monastery maintains at the same time a link with the outside world (through the Holy Liturgy: see above). That is why

the entrance of a monastery faces towards the road (Papadopoulos 1991b, 58−64). The Meteora monasteries (apart from the St Stephen monastery) are an exception to this rule: because of the inaccessibility of their location, they are not surrounded by wall enclosures, and are not in communication with the outside world. Given the central role of worship, the katholicon is located in the centre / at the core of the monastery, and is also orientated towards the east (this orientation has a strong symbolic meaning: east is the symbolic point of the First and the Second Coming of Christ). This location and orientation of the katholicon defines the arrangement and the orientation of the monastery as a whole in relation to its surrounding landscape (Papaioannou 1977, 13−17).

The internal space of a monastery

中文译文 · 阅读单元 26

迈泰奥拉总体遵循上述东正教修道空间原则，但由于岩顶面积狭小且形状不规则，各修道院发展出更自由、更复杂的布局。有些建筑如 Roussanou 和 St Nikolaos Anapafsas 因岩面非常有限，只能沿垂直方向向上发展为多层建筑；外部高度显著增加，而每层内部层高又很有限，甚至同一房间会因贴合岩体而出现不同高度。有些如 Holy Trinity、St Stephen 主要沿水平轴展开；大迈泰奥拉和 Varlaam 则在同一层次中形成多个不规则标高。

这也使迈泰奥拉与一般东正教修道院有所不同：主教堂不一定处在院落正中心，修室也不总围绕主教堂，墓地有时直接纳入修道院而不是分离出去。由于岩面限制，主教堂轴线通常很难向院落投射，两条空间轴线也不一定相交，于是入口—院落轴、即共同体和访客生活功能更突出。作者因此再次总结三点：第一，主教堂与院落的不可分割体现敬拜和共同体生活两个功能的结合；第二，院落由修士和访客共享，体现外部世界被纳入修道共同体生活；第三，东正教“真实性”不是僵硬复制固定格局，而允许每座修道院依据双重功能和地形形成独特空间，甚至在实际布局中更强调“人”的生活功能。这些特点也构成东正教修道院与天主教修道空间的区别之一。

【建筑形式与物质实体】修道院的基本建筑形式自拜占庭时期以来大体连续，这种连续性主要来自 typicon 与礼仪需求，使建筑形式本身成为修道传统的一部分。然而，具体材料和构件却会不断变化。修道院作为寿命极长的制度，存在时间往往远超过单个建筑构件的物理寿命，因此更换和更新是整体生存的必要条件。换言之，修道院永远不会真正“完成”，而是在持续创造中走向一个永远不会到达的终点。材料在这里不是不可替换的真实性唯一载体；只要修道功能和传统继续，物质更新本身可以属于连续生命的一部分。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 27

The arrangement of the internal space of a monastery may be summarised as follows (see Zias 1999, 13−14; Paliouras 1997, 19−23). The central part of the monastery is occupied by the yard, with the katholicon in the centre of the yard, and the refectory in most of the cases close to the katholicon. The periphery of the monastery, around the yard, includes the cells and the other, secondary buildings, such as the storerooms, the hospital and the bell tower (figures 16 and 17). This arrangement of the internal space of a monastery is defined by the monastery’s two-fold function: as a place of worship and as a place that sustains the life of the monastic community. Specifically, the most prominent elements in a monastery are the katholicon and the yard. The katholicon is the core of the monastery as the place of worship of God, while the yard is the centre of the life of the monastic community and the visitors (Zias 1999, 13−14; Paliouras 1997, 19−21; Papaioannou 1977, 33−35). The location of the katholicon in the centre of the yard and of the cells has a strong symbolic meaning: Christ is the consistent point of reference as well as the ultimate and exclusive aim of the monks, and thus the everyday life of a monastic community is centred on Him and His church (Zias 1999, 13−14; Fountoulis 1991, 136−362; see also above). The location of the refectory close to the katholicon also has a strong symbolic meaning, reflecting the view of the Church that food and materiality in general are not exclusively linked to the survival of the body but also have a spiritual character as well, linked to the conduct of the Holy Liturgy (Zias 1999, 13-14; Vasileios 1986, 27−28; pers. comm. Theophanis). The location of the refectory close to the katholicon covers practical needs as well, given that the monks go to the refectory for their meal immediately after their vigils in the katholicon (Vasileios 1986, 27−28). The katholicon and the yard are inter-connected, indivisible, and the one cannot exist without the other (i.e. the yard has the katholicon as its most prominent building, and the katholicon cannot be accessed from the entrance of the monastery without the existence of the yard), which demonstrates the inextricable connection between the two functions of the monastery (Papaioannou 1977, 33−35). The fact that both the monastic community and the visitors share the yard reveals that in an Orthodox monastery there is direct communication between the monastic community and the visitors and that, consequently, the visitors are embraced within monastic life. Hence, though being closed and separate

from the outside world, the monastery actually has an open, social character embracing the outside world (Papaioannou 1977, 18−19). This connection between the monastic community and the visitors differentiates an Orthodox monastery from a Catholic one, where the church and the yard are separated: the church can be accessed directly from the entrance of the monastery, without the existence of the yard, which means that the monastic community and the visitors are kept separated from each other, and the visitors are thus not embraced within monastic life (Papaioannou 1977, 18−19 and 71) (figure 18). Papaioannou (1977) studied the dynamics of the internal space of an Orthodox monastery by examining the route of the viewer in it [the 'viewer' of a monastery refers to both a visitor and a member of the monastic community] (figure 19). The starting point of the route of the viewer was

marked by the entrance of the monastery, given that the entrance defines the relation of the monastery with the outside world (see above), while the ultimate end of the route was marked by the katholicon, given its primary symbolic significance and its central position in the monastery (see above). Two axes in the route of the viewer in the monastery may be identified. The first axis starts from the entrance of the monastery and continues and ends into the yard, and is associated with the function of the monastery as a place for the life of the monastic community (and the visitors). The second axis passes through the katholicon, and is projected, through the opening of the façade of the katholicon, in the yard of the monastery, exercising influence upon the part of the yard that is immediately in front of the façade of the katholicon. This second axis is associated with the function of the monastery as a place for the worship of God (Papaioannou 1977, 33 and 67−69). The analysis of Papaioannou demonstrates that, though the ultimate end of the route is the same in all monasteries (i.e. the katholicon), what actually defines the character of each monastery is the route towards the end (i.e. through the yard). In this context, despite the differentiations of the route in each monastery based on the intersection of the two axes, in an Orthodox monastery, as a general principle, emphasis tends to be placed on the entrance-yard axis and subsequently on monastery's function as a place for the life of the monastic community and the visitors.

Though the katholicon always remains a window towards the symbolic world/ the great beyond, nonetheless the free inside space of the monastery [the yard] becomes the centre of the real, the actual world of the monastery and constitutes the basic core around which the so plain but always multiform monastery is arranged. The yard becomes the carrier of

the true content [of the monastery], which, despite its high, symbolic roots, remains simply and truly human. (Papaioannou 1977, 123)

The basically 'truly human' character of the monastic space despite its symbolic roots could be paralleled by the definition of authenticity in the Tradition of the Orthodox Church and to the character of the real Christian, that, though 'acting in the boundaries between God and man', remain 'truly human' (see above). The Meteora monasteries generally tend to follow the aforementioned rules governing the arrangement of the internal space of Orthodox monasteries. Yet, the monasteries are developed in various ways and axes in an attempt to adjust to the limited and irregular rock surfaces. Specifically, some monasteries, particularly those built on very limited rock surfaces such as Roussanou and St Nikolaos Anapafsas monasteries, are structured on a vertical axis and laid out in several storeys in an attempt to make the maximum use of the available space (figure 20). These monasteries externally acquire increased height, while internally each storey is of very limited height, and occasionally each storey (and even the same room) has ceilings of different height adjusted to the surrounding rock, as in the case of the Roussanou monastery. Other monasteries, such as the Holy Trinity and St Stephen monasteries, are structured on a horizontal axis, on the

中文译文 · 阅读单元 27

修道院内部空间的基本布局可以概括如下：中央是庭院，主教堂（katholicon）通常位于庭院中心，食堂多在主教堂附近；庭院周边则分布修士居住的单间以及库房、医院、钟楼等附属建筑。这种布局反映了修道院的双重功能：一方面是敬拜上帝的场所，另一方面又要维持修道共同体的日常生活。主教堂和庭院因此成为最重要的两个空间：前者是敬拜的核心，后者则是修道共同体和来访者生活、交流的中心。主教堂位于庭院和修士住处的中心，具有强烈的象征意义——基督是修士生活始终不变的参照和最终目标，修道共同体的日常生活因此围绕基督及其教会展开。食堂紧邻主教堂也同时具有象征与实用意义：教会并不把饮食和物质生活仅仅理解为维持肉体生存的活动，而认为其同样具有与圣礼相关的精神内涵；同时，修士在主教堂守夜礼结束后通常立即前往食堂用餐。

主教堂和庭院彼此连接、不可分割：庭院以主教堂为最突出的建筑，而从修道院入口前往主教堂又必须经过庭院。这体现了修道院两种功能之间不可分割的关系。修道共同体与访客共同使用庭院，则说明东正教修道院中的修

士与外来者之间存在直接交流，访客在一定意义上被纳入修道生活。因此，修道院虽然在物理上封闭并与外部世界分隔，却同时具有向外部世界开放的社会性。作者指出，这一点区别于天主教修道院：在后者中，教堂与庭院往往相对分离，访客可从入口直接进入教堂，修道共同体与访客彼此区隔，访客也就不真正进入修道生活。

Papaioannou 通过“观看者”在东正教修道院中的行进路线分析空间动力。“观看者”既包括访客，也包括修道共同体成员。路线从修道院入口开始，因为入口界定修道院与外部世界的关系；路线的最终目的地是主教堂，因为它具有最高的象征意义并处于修道院核心位置。可以辨认出两条轴线：第一条从入口通向庭院，对应修道院作为修道共同体和访客生活空间的功能；第二条穿过主教堂，并由其立面开口投射到庭院中，象征修道院作为敬拜上帝之地的功能。虽然所有修道院路线的最终终点都是主教堂，但真正决定各修道院空间性格的，是通往这一终点的具体路径，也就是如何经过庭院。总体而言，东正教修道院更强调“入口—庭院”轴线，从而把重点放在修道共同体及访客实际生活的空间上。Papaioannou 因此认为，主教堂固然始终是通往象征世界的窗口，但真正构成修道院现实世界中心的是庭院；它承载着修道院虽然具有崇高象征根源、却仍然“真实而人性”的内容。这种“真正的人性”也与东正教传统中对真实性的理解相呼应：真正的基督徒虽然处在上帝与人之间的边界，却仍然是完整的人。

迈泰奥拉的修道院总体遵循这些东正教空间原则，但为了适应面积有限、形状不规则的岩顶，各院又形成不同的空间轴线和发展方式。Roussanou 和 St Nikolaos Anapafsas 等岩顶面积尤其狭小的修道院主要沿垂直方向发展，以多层建筑最大化利用空间；外观高度增加，而室内各层高度却很有限，甚至同一房间的天花高度也会随岩体变化。Holy Trinity 与 St Stephen 等则主要沿水平方向展开。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 28

same storey (figure 21). Other monasteries, such as the Great Meteoron and Varlaam monasteries, are laid out on different and irregular levels within the same storey (figure 22). The Meteora monasteries present a freer and more complicated arrangement of space compared with the standards for the Orthodox monasteries (figures 23, 24 and 25). The katholicon is in some cases not situated in the centre of the yard, as in the cases of the Varlaam, the Great Meteoron and the Holy Trinity monasteries (figures 24 and 25). The cells are in some cases not centred around the katholicon, as in the Holy Trinity and the St Nikolaos Anapafsas monasteries (figure 25). Unlike most Orthodox monasteries, at Meteora the cemeteries are not separated from, but incorporated within, the monasteries. The application of the approach of Papaioannou in the Meteora monasteries leads to the following conclusions (figure 26). Due to the irregular surfaces, the axis of the katholicon is hardly (or not at all) projected towards the yard, and consequently the two axes do not intersect each other. Thus, in the Meteora monasteries, emphasis is clearly placed on the entrance-yard axis and subsequently on monastery’s function as a place for the life of the monastic community and the visitors. Therefore, the analysis of the arrangement of the internal space of an Orthodox monastery demonstrated the following. First, the two-fold function of the monastery (as a place of worship of God and a place that sustains a monastic community) is clearly reflected in the inextricable

connection between the katholicon and the yard. Second, the incorporation of the visitors (and the outside world) within the life of the monastic community is clearly reflected in the fact that the yard of the monastery is shared both by the monastic community and the visitors. Third, the concept of authenticity in the Orthodox Church, as defined by the Tradition, is reflected in the fact that, although the arrangement of space in each of the monasteries is unique, dependent upon the synthesis of the two functions, emphasis is actually placed on the ‘human’ rather than the religious function of the monastery. It is worth noting that these elements differentiate an Orthodox monastery from a Catholic one.

The architectural form and the fabric of a monastery

The architectural form of a monastery has been basically the same since Byzantine times. The continuity of the architectural form could be put down mostly to the typica of the monasteries and the common strict needs of worship, which rendered the architectural form part of the monastic Tradition (Papaioannou 1977, 11−13). The fabric of a monastery is being continually changed over the course of time. A monastery is an institution of particularly long life, whose life exceeded, in principle, the physical endurance of its individual architectural parts, which means that the renewal of these parts is essential for the physical survival of the whole. Thus a monastery never actually reaches completion, but is being continually created towards a never-reached end (Papaioannou 1977, 11−13). As the Meteora monastic communities noted with reference to their monasteries:

...in a living monument and a carrier of cultural value, such as the [Meteora] monasteries, the protection from the physical damage and the covering of the functional needs are never achieved in a static way but in an every time contemporary creation. (Tetsios 2003, 343)

The continual renewal of the individual architectural parts does not affect, but is incorporated in harmony within, the architectural type of a monastery. Hence, a monastery is an expression of a free organic growth, while maintaining its architectural homogeneity and entity over the course of time (Papaioannou 1977, 11−13).

Conclusion: the monk and the monastery

A monk, being absolutely dedicated to Christ through the Holy Liturgy, considers his monastery the centre of his life.

Monastery as a community, as a structure and space, as a place of worship by its founder and a way of worship according to his own example, as miracle and as history, is the basic

element of the identity of the monk, his personality and his uniqueness. It is the primary point of reference for him and the axis of his life. The only way that [the monk] can experience heaven on earth. (Papadopoulos 1991b, 64)

A monk has renounced his home in the world in order to create a new home in a remote place (his monastery) in which to gain the true life (Paradise), through the unification with Christ. A monk does not consider himself the owner of his new home (his monastery) but a temporary resident of it; for him the only actual home, and the constant point of reference and ultimate intention is Paradise. As a human, however, he is attached to his monastery as his only home on earth: as the place for the worship of his God and the place of his spiritual father / his Abbot, who is the link between him and his God (see above). These views are shared by the members of the monastic communities at Meteora (Meteora Monasteries 1994a, 38; Anastasiou 1994a, 208; pers. comm. Ioannis). As a human, a monk may become attached to his monastery for a variety of further reasons related to the worship of God, which (reasons) are different for each site. In the case of Meteora, for example, the members of the monastic communities are particularly attached to their site because of the following elements. Thanks to its distant location Meteora is a peaceful and quiet place (outside the opening hours of the monasteries), ideal for praying (pers. comm. Maximi; pers. comm. Ioannis). The most impressive character of the landscape, radically changing according to

中文译文 · 阅读单元 28

另一些修道院，如 Great Meteoron 和 Varlaam，则在同一层内形成多个高低不规则的平台。总体而言，迈泰奥拉修道院的内部空间比一般东正教修道院规范更加自由、复杂。主教堂并不总位于庭院中央，例如 Varlaam、Great Meteoron 和 Holy Trinity；修士单间也不一定围绕主教堂布置，例如 Holy Trinity 和 St Nikolaos Anapafsas。与多数东正教修道院不同，迈泰奥拉的一些墓地也并未与修道院分离，而是纳入院内。

如果把 Papaioannou 的分析方法应用于迈泰奥拉，可以看到：由于岩顶表面不规则，主教堂轴线很难、甚至完全无法向庭院投射，因此“主教堂轴线”和“入口—庭院轴线”往往并不相交。结果是，迈泰奥拉的空间更清楚地强调入口—庭院轴线，也就是修道院作为修道共同体和访客生活场所的功能。由此可以总结三点。第一，修道院作为敬拜之地和生活共同体这两重功能，体现在主教堂与庭院之间不可分割的联系中。第二，访客被纳入修道共同体生活，则体现在双方共同使用庭院。第三，东正教传统中的“真实性”也反映在空间上：各院虽然因条件不同形成独特布局，但空间最终强调的仍不是抽象、纯宗教性的形式，而是“人的”功能。作者再次指出，这一点构成东正教修道院与天主教修道院的重要差异。

修道院的建筑形式自拜占庭时期以来大体保持连续，这主要与各院的 typicon 及共同而严格的礼仪需要有关，因此建筑形式本身成为修道传统的一部分。然而，修道院的物质实体却始终在变化。修道院作为一个寿命极长的制度，其存在时间往往超过任何单个建筑构件的物理寿命，因此必须不断更换和更新各个部分，整个修道院也从未真正“完工”，而是在持续创造、不断趋向一个永远不会最终完成的状态。迈泰奥拉修道共同体因此强调：对于仍在生活、仍承载文化价值的修道院而言，避免物质损坏和满足功能需求，从来不是靠静态保存，而是通过每个时代的当代性创造完成的。局部建筑的持续更新并不会破坏修道院的建筑类型，反而可以与其整体形式和谐结合，使修道院在长期变化中保持整体性和同质性。

对于修士而言，修道院是其身份、人格和独特性的根本组成部分，是其生命的首要参照和轴心，也是他在尘世体

验天堂的唯一道路。修士离开世俗家庭，是为了在偏远之处建立新的“家”，通过礼仪生活追求与基督合一。修道院因此并非一座可与共同体分离的建筑，而是修士精神存在的一部分；修士、共同体、礼仪和空间共同构成一种持续的生活现实。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 29

the weather conditions (such as rain, snow, and fog), helps the monks and nuns sense the presence of God through the landscape (pers. comm. Maximi). The absence of wall enclosures surrounding the monasteries makes the monks and nuns feel not ‘imprisoned’ but free, as if they were part of the entire landscape worshipping God (pers. comm. Maximi; pers. comm. Ioannis). The presence of other monastic communities in the same area gives, along with the help and support in practical and administrative issues, also a sense of shared spiritual life, and creates a sense of spiritual ‘rivalry’ among them (pers. comm. Maximi). A monk considers his monastery and the surrounding area as well as the elements he uses in his everyday life (such as the icons, and the liturgical vessels) holy, through their participation in the continual worship of God, constituting thus parts of the Tradition as followed by the specific monastic community (see above). The monastery, the area and the monastic items, inherited by the current monastic community from its predecessors, are also signs of the monastic community’s temporal continuity. These views are shared by the Meteora monks (Great Meteoron Monastery 1997, 3; Anastasiou 1994a, 186; pers. comm. Nikodimi; pers. comm. Maximi; pers. comm. Ioasaph). A monk considers his permanent presence in the monastery and the constant conduct of the Holy Liturgy in it the core of the operation and protection of the monastery. On this basis, a monk is not willing, for instance, to abandon his monastery or restrict his ritual activities firmly considering such possibilities a kind of sacrilege, regardless of the reasons these possibilities might possibly serve, such as the preservation of the fabric or the satisfying of the visitors’ needs (pers. comm. Nikodimi; pers. comm. Maximi; pers. comm. Ioasaph). A monk feels that his monastic needs, such as increases in the size of the monastic communities or the development of their style of life over time, are paramount and come before any need for the maintenance of the fabric and

space of the monasteries. These views are shared by the Meteora monks (pers. comm. Tetsios; pers. comm. Maximi; pers. comm. Nikodimi; Meteora Monasteries 1994a, 36).

7.2. 1960s to present: contemporary influences to the Tradition at Meteora (the philanthropic-missionary approach to monasticism)

The philanthropic-missionary approach to monasticism: presentation

The so-called ‘ecclesiastical organisations’ are religious organisations that bore the ideology of Western Christian non-Orthodox brotherhoods and operated as ‘societies under civil law’ [astika somateia] within the cities, independent from the existing ecclesiastical structures (the local Bishoprics). They appeared in Greece in the early twentieth century and reached their peak in the period following World War II and the Civil War as an organised attempt to help the Greek population recover from the sufferings of this period and also, more importantly, to achieve the modernisation and reformation of the official Church and thus ‘save’ the Church and give it a dominant position in Greek society (Yannaras 1992, 348−365; Yannaras 1987). In order to achieve this modernisation of the Church, the ‘ecclesiastical organisations’ attempted to impose upon the life of the Church of Greece a so-called ‘modern’, ‘innovative’ Western Christian ideology of ‘good morals’ and extensive philanthropic activity [ofelimo ergo]. The ‘ecclesiastical organisations’ themselves served as a substitute for monastic communities, discouraging particularly young people from becoming monks by promoting other, more ‘efficient’ ways to follow these ‘good morals’ and

produce this philanthropic activity, with a negative effect upon monastic life in Greece (Yannaras 1992, 364−368 and 391−405; Yannaras 1987). This attitude of the ‘ecclesiastical organisations’ had a negative effect on Meteora as well, as noted by Bishop Dionysios of Meteora (i.e. the person who brought the first organised monastic communities back to the site in the 1960s: see above), with specific reference to the St Stephen monastery:

[Numerous] disasters hit the monastery: the [German] Occupation,… the Civil War… Then the anti-monastic wind blew strong. Even the religious people, though arguing that they respected and loved the monasteries, in fact systematically discouraged young people from becoming monks. Their recipe was the following: Little spirituality, participation in some [religious] gatherings and more turnout’. (Dionysios 1976, 66)

The 1960s and 1970s are a most crucial period in the life of the Church of Greece. It is the period of the beginning of the rapid decline in the influence of the ‘ecclesiastical organisations’ and at the same time the

beginning of a strong emphasis on the principles of Orthodox Tradition with the rebirth of organised monasticism (on Mount Athos, for instance, organised monasticism was reborn at that time after a long period of monastic decline, to a significant extent thanks to the moving of monastic communities from the Great Meteoron Monastery to the Simonopetra and Xenofontos Monasteries at Mount Athos: Anastasiou 1990, 391; Anastasiou 1994a, 204). This emphasis on the Tradition was, however, not always devoid of the remains of the influence of the 'ecclesiastical organisations'. Thus, in some cases there was a conscious or underlying attempt to give a more social, open, 'beneficiary' and 'productive' character to organised monasticism, in the context of a modern organisational and managerial approach based on a strict schedule of monastic life and aiming at specific tangible benefits-targets visible to the wider world – a philanthropic-missionary approach to monasticism. This new philosophy was crystallised in the new concept of 'missionary monasticism' [monachoierapostoli] adopted at that time by the official Church (Yannaras 1992, 385).

The philanthropic-missionary approach to monasticism: review

This philanthropic-missionary approach towards monasticism is not, strictly, in accordance with the Orthodox Tradition. This approach is not simply an attempt to achieve philanthropic and social goals in the context of the Orthodox monastic principles (see above), but to move away from the Orthodox monastic principles towards a more social philosophy and way of monastic life. Specifically, in this philanthropic-missionary context, Christ is viewed as the ideal moral model to imitate, in order to save the wider world, rather than as the ultimate and exclusive cause for the existence and salvation of each person – as the personal God. Orthodox Christianity is identified and experienced as an ideology of social benefit rather than as the exclusive way of true life through the unification with God mainly through the Holy Liturgy. Orthodox monasticism is seen as a way to save the wider society rather than as the ultimate expression of the existential need of an individual for unification with God. A monastic community is seen as a mainly extroverted community taking care of the needs of the wider society rather than as an introverted community dedicated to the worship of God. A monastery is considered to be an extroverted unit attempting to respond to the needs of the visitors rather than an introverted unit for the worship of God attempting to incorporate the visitors and the wider society into its ritual life (Moisis 2003, 351−358). Therefore, the Tradition of the Church, through its mixture with the ideology of the 'ecclesiastical organisations', tended to be transformed from the living presence of the Holy Spirit in the Church beyond any time and space into a historic past to be preserved at a specific space and time. As it was characteristically noted, the Tradition

中文译文 · 阅读单元 29

迈泰奥拉的自然条件进一步强化这种“持续活着”的体验。雨、雪、雾等天气与巨大岩体，使修士和修女能够通过景观感受上帝的临在。由于多数修道院没有外围高墙，他们不会觉得自己被“监禁”，反而感到自己自由地融入整个景观，在其中敬拜上帝。同一区域存在多个修道共同体，一方面提供现实行政与生活互助，另一方面也带来共同精神生活以及某种“属灵竞争”。

修士会把修道院、周围区域，以及日常使用的圣像、礼仪器物等都视为神圣，因为它们持续参与敬拜上帝，成为特定共同体所遵循的“传统”的一部分。这些从前代共同体继承下来的空间和物件，也证明共同体在时间上的连续。修士因此把自己永久居住在修道院并持续举行神圣礼仪，视为修道院运行和保护的核心。即使为了保护建筑材料或满足游客需要，他们也很难接受离开修道院或实质限制礼仪活动，因为这会被理解为近似亵渎。修道共同体的实际需要——例如成员增加、生活方式随时代变化——在他们看来也应优先于保持建筑实体和空间不变。

【7.2 1960年代至今：对传统的当代影响——慈善—传教式修道观】20世纪初希腊出现一批所谓“教会组织”，它们受西方非东正教基督教团体思想影响，以城市中的民法社团形式运行，并相对独立于地方主教区等既有教会结构。二战和内战后，这些组织达到高峰，一方面帮助社会从战争创伤中恢复，更重要的是希望通过现代化、改革官方教会来“拯救教会”，使其重新获得社会主导地位。为实现这一目标，它们把一种被称为“现代”“创新”的西方基督教“良好道德”观和广泛慈善行动带入希腊教会生活。

这些组织在某种意义上甚至取代修道共同体，劝年轻人不要成为修士，而应采用更“有效率”的方式实践道德、从事公益，从而对希腊修道生活造成负面影响。迈泰奥拉主教 Dionysios 回忆，战争和内战之后“反修道”的风气很强，即使自称尊重修道院的宗教人士，也系统性阻止青年出家，把宗教生活简化为少量灵修、参加聚会和更多社会活动。

20世纪60—70年代是希腊教会关键转折期：这些“教会组织”的影响迅速下降，同时强调东正教传统、恢复组织

化修道生活的趋势上升，阿索斯山也在此时复兴。然而，回归传统并没有完全清除前述组织的影响。一些修道团体有意识或无意识地赋予组织化修道更社会化、更开放、更“有益”和更“生产性”的性质，以严格日程和现代管理追求可以被社会看到的具体成果，于是形成作者所谓“慈善—传教式修道观”。官方教会当时提出“传教修道主义”这一概念，正是这种思路的集中体现。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 30

became absolute as a value in its own terms... in a desperate attempt to preserve historically –in other words, as a museum- a past that was bright and glorious ... detached from the present/living experience of the Church –hence dead. (Yannaras 1988, 74−75)

Introduction of the philanthropic-missionary approach to Meteora

It has been argued that this philanthropic-missionary approach of the ‘ecclesiastical organisations’ has affected monastic life at Meteora (Xydias and Totsikas and Braoudakis 1994, 4/3−5 and 4/24−26; Xydias and Totsikas and Braoudakis 1997, 248−252 and 320−330; Moisis 2003, 352 and 355−356). The re-establishment of the monastic communities on the site (in the 1960s) in the first place may be seen in the context of the complexities in the broader life of the Church of Greece at that period, with the influence of the ‘ecclesiastical organisations’ on the one hand and the tendency to return to the principles of the Orthodox Tradition on the other (see above). Specifically, this philanthropic-missionary approach, first introduced by the Varlaam monastic community which was very influential at that time, led to the formation of a new programme for the operation of the Meteora monasteries that would be centred on the active promotion of the Orthodox faith to the wider society at a local, national and international level (Xydias and Totsikas and Braoudakis 1994, 4/3−5 and 4/25; Xydias and Totsikas and Braoudakis 1997, 250−252 and 328−330). In the context of this new programme, the Meteora monks and nuns have three main objectives: First, with regards to monasticism, Meteora should become an important monastic site with monastic communities that are flourishing and increasing in size and influence, and have a significant contribution through the conduct of sermons and philanthropic activity to the wider society (Meteora Monasteries 1994a, 37−43; Meteora Monasteries 1995, 10; Anastasiou 1994a, 204−206; Anastasiou 1990, 391−392). This objective is reflected in the words of Bishop Dionysios of Meteora:

With the return to the magnificent and holy ideals of Orthodox monasticism and their careful development on the part of the Brotherhood and also with the parallel development of missionary activity, the monastery will become again a spiritual centre and a bright lighthouse. (Dionysios 1964, 37)

Second, with regards to tourism development, Meteora should become a popular site that would promote the Orthodox faith to the largest possible number of visitors (Xydias and Totsikas and Braoudakis 1997, 320−330). This is reflected in the words of one of the Abbots of Meteora Monasteries:

The monk of Meteora, because of the large number of visitors, Greeks [who are] Orthodox and foreigners who belong to other Christian denominations or other religions, has today a large field of exercise and promotion of the Orthodox faith in practice. This monk does not come [to Meteora] for a mission. He comes [to Meteora] for the obedience and isolation from the outside world... But Meteora is in fact ‘a city built on the hill’ [Matthew, 5. 14-16], and he in practice either demonstrates or spoils the Orthodox faith internationally. (Anastasiou 1990, 391)

Third, with regards to heritage protection, Meteora should be a well-maintained complex with the potential of being further developed. The monastery buildings should reflect a sense of strength and glory, in an attempt to attract the largest possible number of visitors and portray the power of the Orthodox faith to them (Xydias and Totsikas and Braoudakis 1997, 248−252 and 320−330; Meteora Monasteries 1994a, 45−47). As noted by one of the Abbots of the Meteora Monasteries:

We [the Meteora monastic communities], of course, with the grace of God and the blessings of our Saints, will never stop fighting for these high and pleasing to God/pious aims [the welcoming and hospitality offered to the visitors], for the benefit of our city and the residents of our area... The Holy Monasteries [of Meteora] have shown in the last years a special interest and a huge and very expensive activity for the formation of areas for receiving and guiding their numerous visitors. Key expression of this activity is the operation of storerooms for the past monastic ‘treasures’ [skeuofilakeia] and of museums in most of the monasteries. Thus, buildings of significant architectural value have been chosen, restored and formed, so that their visitor appreciates, in parallel to their significance as treasures, also the value/wealth of their architecture. Especially in our monastery [the Great Meteoron monastery] six such buildings have been arranged and operate... The formation of all these buildings, which have been formed, operate and preserved with the effort, expenses and interest of the monks

themselves, significantly extend the stay of the visitors in the Holy Monasteries and subsequently in the area as well- which is our city's agonising and primary demand. (Anastasiou 2004, 21)

中文译文 · 阅读单元 30

作者认为，严格来说，“慈善—传教式修道观”并不完全符合东正教传统。问题不在于修道院不能做慈善，而在于这种思路把慈善和社会目标从服从修道核心的活动，变成修道生活本身的中心，从而把修道哲学向更加社会化的方向移动。在这种框架中，基督更容易被理解为供人模仿的理想道德榜样，以便拯救更广大的世界，而不再首先被体验为每个人存在和得救的唯一原因、作为“个人的上帝”。正教信仰可能被体验为一种社会公益意识形态，而不是主要通过神圣礼仪与上帝联合、获得真实生命的唯一道路；修道主义也从个人追求与上帝联合的终极表达，转向“拯救更广泛社会”的方法。修道共同体从以敬拜为中心的内向共同体，变成面向社会需求的外向共同体；修道院则从把访客和外部世界纳入自身礼仪生活的空间，变成主动调整自己来满足访客需要的单位。

在这种情况下，“传统”也可能发生反向变化：原本是超越时间空间、圣灵在教会中的活的临在，却在与社会组织意识形态混合后，被绝对化为一个需要在特定时间和空间中“保存”的历史过去。也就是说，人们越是想把辉煌传统像博物馆一样固定，传统反而越可能脱离教会当下的生活经验，变成“死的过去”。

【慈善—传教式取向进入迈泰奥拉】作者认为，这种思路确实影响了20世纪60年代重新建立的迈泰奥拉修道生活。当时希腊教会一方面仍受“教会组织”影响，另一方面又在回归东正教传统，两种力量共同塑造了迈泰奥拉的复兴。最初影响很大的 Varlaam
共同体推动了新的运行方案，核心是积极向地方、全国乃至国际社会传播东正教信仰。

由此形成三个目标。第一，在修道层面，要让迈泰奥拉成为繁荣、人数增加、社会影响力扩大的重要修道中心，并通过讲道和慈善服务社会。主教 Dionysios 期待修道院在回归正教修道理想的同时发展传教活动，从而再次成为“精神中心和明亮灯塔”。第二，在旅游层面，要让迈泰奥拉成为广受欢迎的地点，把东正教信仰传递给尽可能多的访客。修士虽然并不是为了“执行传教任务”而来到这里，而是为了顺服和隔离世俗，但大量来自不同宗派和宗教的国内外游客，使他们实际上处于一个能向世界展示或损害正教形象的位置。第三，在遗产和建设层面，要把修道院维护成整洁、有力量、有荣耀感、还可以继续发展的建筑群，以吸引更多游客并向他们表现东正教的力量。修道共同体因此投入大量资金整理接待空间、藏品库和博物馆，认为这既能让访客理解建筑与“宝藏”，也能延长游客在修道院及本地区停留时间。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 31

The Meteora monastic communities, though all broadly sharing this philanthropic-missionary approach, have differing responses to it: The monastic communities seem to form two different groups, on the basis of their degree of commitment to this approach. The first group of monastic communities, namely the Great Meteoron and St Stephen, seems to be more committed to this approach. These monastic communities tend to see the philanthropic-missionary activity as an inseparable part of their monastic life and among the basic reasons for their establishment on the site in the first place (pers. comm. Great Meteoron Monastery; pers. comm. St Stephen Monastery; Anastasiou 2004, 21: see immediately above). The second group of monastic communities, especially the Holy Trinity and Roussanou, appears to be less committed to this approach and more attached to the traditional monastic principles (pers. comm. Holy Trinity Monastery; pers. comm. Roussanou Monastery). The first group of monastic communities, with regards to monasticism, tends to show an increased care for the safeguarding of the monastic and holy character of the site considering themselves to be the exclusive guardians of this holiness. In this context, they tend to associate the protection of the site with their own exclusive and ultimate power in the operation of the site against those attempts identified as threats to it. On this basis, they see any attempt of other groups of people, such as the local community, to take a role in the operation of the site, even a clearly secondary or minor one, as potentially threatening the holy character of the site. With regards to tourism development, they are highly concerned about conveying and promoting the Orthodox faith (and possibly the Greek national identity as well, often seen as inextricably linked to the Orthodox faith) to the largest possible number of visitors as a kind of obligation towards them. To this end, they are actively involved in the tourism industry and focus on increasing the visitor figures of their monasteries. Thus, they also develop close contacts with key people involved in tourism at local and state level. They also develop publications for the promotion of tourism at Meteora, and become involved in the promotion of the site in tourist campaigns abroad particularly within states with large Orthodox populations such as Serbia and Russia

(pers. comm. Great Meteoron Monastery; Anastasiou 1990, 390−391; Anastasiou 2004). With regards to heritage protection, they show a high level of concern about the condition and development of their monasteries through an extensive maintenance and construction activity, which increasingly serves the covering of the visitors' needs (pers. comm. Great Meteoron Monastery; pers. comm. St Stephen Monastery). These monastic communities also appear very confident concerning their 'expertise' on heritage issues, sometimes even making use of their monastic identity in order to establish this 'expertise'.

Outside the site of Meteora, these monastic communities express their high level of concern about the wider society at local, national and international level in a variety of ways. At a local level, they are highly concerned about the conduct of a most extensive philanthropic activity, the promotion of the Greek identity and history (for example, through the organisation of festivals dedicated to local heroes of the Greek revolution against the Ottomans, such as Vlachaveia) and the promotion of the ideals of Meteora monasticism in the broader local community (for example, through the construction of churches dedicated to Saints of Meteora as the case of the Church of St Athanasios of Meteora in Ypati, Lamia) (Great Meteoron 1995; Anastasiou 1994b, 282−285; Anastasiou 1994a, 201). At a national level, these monastic communities are more likely to take actions for the protection of the Orthodox faith against those seen as attempting to do harm to it (Great Meteoron 1995). For example, they organised campaigns and made publications against the movie The Last Temptation, which they considered a harsh insult to the Church and Christ Himself (pers. comm. Great Meteoron Monastery). They often intervene in issues regarding the relationship between the state, the Church and the monastic communities. A most characteristic example for this was the successful struggle of the Great Meteoron monastic community against the Greek state's attempt to expropriate part of monastic estate on a national basis (Apostolakis 2002b, 24; Papadakou and Fotopoulou 1995). At an international level, these communities conduct extensive philanthropic and missionary activity in foreign countries with Orthodox populations (Paradosi 1994, 293 and 297). They are also consistently against the dialogue between the Orthodox and the Catholic Church, a dialogue which is encouraged by the Orthodox Ecumenical Patriarch of Constantinople (pers. comm. Great Meteoron Monastery). The second group of the Meteora monastic communities tends to place more emphasis on the principles of monastic isolation. With regards to monasticism, they do not show a high level of concern for the defense of the holiness of the site, do not demand the exclusive power in the operation of the site, and are more open to other groups of people using the site. With regards to tourism development, they accept and take care of the visitors, but concentrate on their monastic life, without any special concern for promoting the Orthodox faith to them. With regards to heritage protection, they conduct the necessary maintenance and construction works, almost exclusively for their monastic needs, and without any intense sense of developing their monasteries. They appear much less confident about their own 'expertise' on heritage issues, and are therefore more open to collaboration with the Ministry of Culture officials. For example, the Holy Trinity monastic community admitted its mistakes regarding its post-wars maintenance and development works in the monastery, and collaborated with the Ministry of Culture officials towards the replacement of these mistakes (pers. comm. Tetsios). Outside the site, they conduct philanthropic activities, but mainly in a narrower, local context and in a less intense way (pers. comm. Holy Trinity Monastery; pers. comm. Roussanou Monastery). The response of each of the Meteora monastic communities to the philanthropic-missionary approach is mostly a matter of the Abbot of each monastic community given the Abbot's spiritual and administrative power in each monastic community (see above).

Conclusion

The Orthodox Tradition, as applied at the site of Meteora, is based on the continual conduct of the Holy Liturgy: Meteora is a place of worship of God. The worship of God is the most significant contribution as well as responsibility of the monastic communities towards the wider society, and the entire operation and management of the site (including the visiting of the site and the maintenance and development of the monasteries) should be incorporated within it. At the same time, however, contemporary influences, namely the philanthropic-missionary approach to monasticism, which are not strictly within the Orthodox Tradition, affect the way the

中文译文 · 阅读单元 31

迈泰奥拉六个共同体虽然大体都受慈善一传教式取向影响，但程度不同。作者大致分为两组。第一组以大迈泰奥拉和 St Stephen 为代表，更强烈认同这种取向，甚至把慈善、传教活动视为修道生活不可分割的部分和共同体最初在此建立的重要理由。它们在“神圣性”问题上也更强调自己是遗址神圣性质的独占守护者，因此倾向把保护遗址与自己在运行中的最终权力联系起来；地方社区等其他群体即使只要求次要参与，也可能被视作威胁。

在旅游方面，第一组共同体高度重视把东正教信仰、甚至与之紧密相连的希腊民族认同，传递给尽可能多的人，并把这视为对访客的责任。因此他们积极进入旅游体系，希望增加访客数量，与地方和国家旅游关键人物保持联系，出版旅游宣传材料，还在塞尔维亚、俄罗斯等东正教人口较多国家参与海外推广。遗产方面，他们投入大量维护和建设，越来越多设施直接服务游客，并对自身处理遗产问题的“专业能力”相当自信，有时甚至以修道身份本身来证明这种专业性。

在遗址之外，这些共同体也把使命扩展到地方、全国和国际社会。地方层面，它们开展大规模慈善、推广希腊身份和历史、举行纪念反奥斯曼革命地方英雄的节庆，并在其他地区兴建纪念迈泰奥拉圣者的教堂。国家层面，它们更可能主动介入任何被认为会伤害东正教的议题，例如组织反对电影《基督最后的诱惑》的宣传，或介入国家—教会—修道院财产关系；大迈泰奥拉共同体还成功反对国家征收部分修道院土地。国际上，它们在东正教国家开展慈善和传教活动，同时反对由君士坦丁堡普世牧首推动的东正教—天主教对话。

第二组以 Holy Trinity 和 Roussanou 为代表，更强调传统的修道隔离原则。它们不会强烈声称自己对遗址神圣性拥有排他权，也较能接受其他群体使用遗址；接待游客但不把向游客积极宣传信仰作为核心，而是继续集中于修道生活；维护和建设主要为了自身生活需要，不强烈追求扩张，也不太把自己视为遗产“专家”，因此更愿意与文化部专业人员合作。Holy Trinity 共同体甚至承认战后维修建设中的错误，并配合官方纠正。它们也做慈善，但更多局限在地方范围且强度较小。各共同体最终采取何种立场，很大程度上取决于院长，因为院长在精神与行政上都拥有很强权力。

【结论】东正教传统在迈泰奥拉的核心，是神圣礼仪持续进行：迈泰奥拉首先是敬拜上帝的地方。修道共同体对更广泛社会最重要的贡献和责任，应是维持这种敬拜，并把游客接待、修道院维护和发展等全部运行管理活动纳入这一中心。然而，慈善—传教式修道观改变了共同体对遗址和外部世界的认识。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 32

monastic communities see their site and their relationship with the outside world. Meteora is not seen simply as a place of worship of God; it is mainly seen as a place for the conduct of philanthropic-missionary activity to the wider society. The conduct of philanthropic-missionary activity is considered the most significant contribution as well as responsibility of the monastic community towards the wider society, and the entire operation and management of the site (including the visiting of the site and the maintenance and development of the monasteries) should be incorporated within it. In the context of the ‘philanthropic-missionary’ approach, the monastic communities’ attitude towards tourism changes. The monastic communities tend to accept visitors as a much broader ‘audience’ for their philanthropic-missionary activity, and use tourism as a most effective means to promote the Orthodox faith on a large scale and at an international level. Furthermore, the monastic communities seem to accept the development of tourism as a means of acquiring more power in order to further develop their philanthropic-missionary activity for the benefit of the wider society. Tourism is thus seen as an essential part of monastic life. Therefore, the application of the ‘philanthropic-missionary’ approach in the site of Meteora means much more than an increasing emphasis on the conduct of philanthropic activity; it alters the essence as well as the practicing of monasticism itself. There is a shifting in the focus from the monks and their personal salvation towards tourism and the salvation of the wider society. In fact, the salvation of the monk is believed to pass through the salvation of the wider society.

中文译文 · 阅读单元 32

在“慈善—传教式”框架下，迈泰奥拉不再主要被理解为敬拜上帝的地方，而越来越被视为向更广泛社会进行慈善和传教活动的基地。共同体把这种活动看作自己对社会最重要的贡献和责任，因此游客接待、修道院维护和进一步建设也都要围绕它组织。

这直接改变了修道共同体对旅游的态度。游客不再只是偶然进入修道生活的外部人群，而成为传教活动可以面对的巨大“受众”。旅游因此被视为在国际尺度推广东正教信仰最有效的工具之一。共同体甚至会接受旅游增长，因为游客和收入增加能带来更多权力和资源，进而支持更广泛的慈善、传教行动。旅游由此从需要被纳入修道生活的外部条件，转变为修道生活的重要组成部分。

作者强调，这种变化远远不只是“慈善活动增加”那么简单，它实际上改变了修道主义本身的重心：关注点从修士自身通过敬拜上帝而得救，逐渐移向旅游和更广泛社会的“得救”。在这一逻辑下，修士自身的得救甚至被理

解为必须通过先帮助、拯救外部社会才能实现。这种变化将直接影响下一部分所讨论的遗产管理、游客关系和空间建设。

Chapter 8. The conservation and management of Meteora (1960 to present): presentation

第8章：迈泰奥拉的保护与管理（1960年至今）：呈现

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 33

The conservation and management of Meteora (1960 to present): presentation

8.1. Overview

From the end of World War II (1945) and the Civil War (1946-1949) most monasteries at Meteora were not in use, and the rest, such as the Great Meteoron and the Varlaam monasteries, had very few monks. The monasteries, already in a dilapidated condition because of the wars (Tzimas 2000, 395), further suffered during the period of the monastic absence: for example, the Hagia monastery collapsed (figure 27), while the Holy Trinity and the Roussanou monasteries suffered from theft (Theotekni 1978, 86−87; Tetsios 2003, 342; Tzimas 2000, 404; Meteora Monasteries 1980a; Meteora Bishopric 2002; pers. comm. Holy Trinity Monastery; pers. comm. Roussanou Monastery). From the early 1950s to the early 1960s the State (through the Ministry of Reconstruction and Development, and the Hellenic Tourism Organisation) allocated money for the restoration of the monasteries. The interest of the State was to rescue the monasteries from collapse and also to develop tourism at the site:

We believe that Meteora should be dealt with as follows: a) as monuments of Byzantine art and architecture and Christian history, b) as the only tourist area of special interest for the connection of the route of Athens-Larissa with the route of Athens-Delphi-Ioannina- Metsovo … so that the necessary requirements for the maintenance of Meteora as a site that has tourism potential are not lost. (Hellenic Tourism Organisation 1951)

The above extract demonstrates that the State already had specific plans for the tourism exploitation of Meteora based on specific tourist routes in the 1950s. The interest of the State in developing tourism at the site is also illustrated by the construction of a very large and luxurious hotel by the standards of that time, named ‘Xenia’, in Kalampaka in the late 1950s (Chatzidakis 1993, 3). In the context of developing tourism at the site, in the early 1960s, the State (through the Hellenic Tourism Organisation) constructed guesthouses within the monasteries, as in the case of the Great Meteoron (Meteora Bishopric 1960; pers. comm. Ioasaph). Thus, the Great Meteoron monastery was mainly used by visitors as a guesthouse, while at the same time the only monk living in the monastery at that time was isolated in a smaller part of the monastery leading his

spiritual life. Bishop Dionysios of Meteora considered this guesthouse ‘profoundly incompatible to the holy character of the site’ (Meteora Bishopric 1960), while the current monks of the Great Meteoron Monastery note the oral tradition according to which the monk died of sorrow because he considered the guesthouse a sacrilege (pers. comm. Ioasaph). In the early 1960s, mainly as a result of the initiatives of Bishop Dionysios of Meteora, the first organised monastic communities were re-established on the site (Tzimas 2000, 395-96; Tsiatas 2003, 162; pers. comm. Ioasaph). As Bishop Dionysios stated, asking for the cessation of the contract with the Hellenic Tourism Organisation regarding the guesthouse in the Great Meteoron monastery: ‘The Great Meteoron monastic community… is restructured and increasing in terms of size, and the space is absolutely essential for it’ (Meteora Bishopric 1961). In the late 1960s, the Church (through a central Ecclesiastical Council and the local Bishopric), with the agreement of the developing monastic communities of Meteora, cleared part of the estate of the Church and of the monasteries and allocated money for their maintenance and development. The local community actively helped in the maintenance works in kind, without asking for money in return. It gradually became the congregation of the monasteries, with active participation in the ritual life. These maintenance and development works, undertaken by the monastic communities with the help of the local community, were not scientifically-based, and were conducted without reference to contemporary conservation guidelines. As a consequence, the monastic communities significantly,

中文译文 · 阅读单元 33

【第8章：迈泰奥拉的保护与管理（1960年至今）：呈现——8.1 概述】二战（1945年结束）和希腊内战（1946—1949）之后，迈泰奥拉大多数修道院一度无人使用，其余如

Great Meteoron 和 Varlaam
也只剩极少数修士。修道院在战争中本已破败，在修道共同体缺席期间状况进一步恶化：Hagia
修道院倒塌，Holy Trinity 和 Roussanou 还遭到盗窃。1950年代初至1960年代初，国家通过重建与发展部门以及希腊旅游组织拨款修复修道院。国家的目的既是避免建筑继续倒塌，也是把迈泰奥拉发展为旅游地。1951年的官方文件明确把它同时视为“拜占庭艺术与建筑、基督教历史的纪念物”，以及连接雅典—拉里萨和雅典—德尔斐—约阿尼纳—迈措沃等线路的特殊旅游节点，显示国家在1950年代已经把遗产保护与旅游线路开发联系起来。1950年代末，Kalampaka 建成当时规模很大、条件豪华的 Xenia
酒店；1960年代初，希腊旅游组织甚至在修道院内部设置旅馆，Great Meteoron 就是一例。

Great Meteoron
当时几乎主要被游客当作旅馆使用，而唯一居住其中的修士只能在较小区域里独自进行精神生活。迈泰奥拉主教 Dionysios 认为这种旅馆“与遗址的神圣性质根本不相容”；现今修士还转述口述传统，称当时那位修士因把旅馆视为亵渎而悲痛至死。1960年代初，在 Dionysios
主教推动下，组织化的修道共同体重新在迈泰奥拉建立起来。他要求终止 Great Meteoron 与旅游组织之间的旅馆合同，理由是共同体正在恢复并扩大，院内空间对修士本身已绝对必要。1960年代末，教会通过中央机构和地方主教区，并在新发展的修道共同体同意下，处置部分教会和修道院地产，把所得资金用于维修和发展。当地社区也大量以无偿劳动和实物支持维修工作，并逐渐成为修道院礼仪生活中的会众。

然而，这一时期由修道共同体和当地社区进行的维修和扩建，并没有建立在现代科学保护规范上。工程往往缺乏专业指导，也没有参照当代遗产保护原则，因此在一些情况下严重甚至不可逆地损害了原有材料与空间布局；但另一方面，这些工程也确实把若干濒临倒塌的修道院保存了下来。Holy Trinity 就是这种矛盾状况的典型例子。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 34

and in some cases even irreversibly, damaged the original fabric and altered the original spatial arrangement of the monasteries, but still managed to rescue them from collapse. An example of this is the Holy Trinity monastery (Tzimas 2000, 395−396 and 403; pers. comm. Tetsios). During the 1960s, there was an interest on the part of the State to further emphasise and establish the heritage significance of Meteora. Thus in 1967, the Ministry of Culture (which had previously protected some monasteries as individual monuments in the 1920s) assigned the site as a whole with single boundaries including the local village of Kastraki and part of the city of Kalampaka. During the 1960s, visitors started arriving at Meteora in larger numbers. These visitors were mostly individuals rather than organised groups, and were mainly interested in the monastic life of the Monasteries as pilgrims (Kouros 1965, 46−47; Kotopoulis 1973, 12−20). The Meteora monks and nuns, with the exception of the Great Meteoron monks, accepted and embraced tourism from the very beginning, seeing it as a source of income through the donations from visitors, which would help towards the growth of their communities and the restoration of their monasteries. At that time the local community was primarily concerned with the ritual life of the site, and was cautious or even negative towards the phenomenon of tourism mostly on the grounds of its effect on the monastic character of the site (Kouros 1965, 44−45; Kotopoulis 1973, 13−20). It seems clear that at that time the local community had not recognised the economic benefits of tourism. During the 1970s and the early 1980s the monastic communities increased in size with the support of the local Bishop (Tzimas 2000, 396). At the same time there was also an increase in the visitors to the site. The visitors in this period consisted not only of those interested in the ritual life of the Monasteries as pilgrims, but also those more interested in the landscape and the monastic buildings as an inseparable part of the landscape, and were increasingly visiting the site as a result of more organised tourism. The State supported the development of more organised tourism in an attempt to further develop and enhance its contacts with foreign, mostly Western European, states (Ministry of Coordination and Development 1980, 26−27 and 39; pers. comm. KENAKAP). The monastic communities continued to accept the development of tourism at the site, with an increasing recognition of the financial benefits of tourism. During this period admission charges for the non-Greek visitors were introduced (pers. comm. Great Meteoron Monastery). The local community, whilst continuing their involvement in the ritual life of the Monasteries as the congregation which had increased in size, also started to recognise the financial benefits of tourism, gradually becoming involved in tourism by opening shops, restaurants and small hotels in Kalampaka and Kastraki (Alexiadis 2004). During the 1970s and the early 1980s the Ministry of Culture launched, through its local Ephorate, large-scale restoration projects, particularly at the Roussanou and the St Nikolaos Anapafsas monasteries. As a result of these projects these monasteries were rescued from collapse

(Tetsios 2003, 342−344; Meteora Ephorate 1977; pers. comm. Lazaros Deriziotis). These projects were primarily a result of the State's increasing interest in the protection of the monuments as part of national heritage, as well as its constant concern to maintain and increase tourism at the area. The monastic communities developed smaller-scale projects at their monasteries through the income derived from tourism, and with the firm support of the local community which now started to be paid for its work. These projects aimed at the maintenance and development of the monasteries, the improvement of the communication of the monasteries with the outside world and the satisfying of the visitors' needs. Thus, stairs were constructed for the easier access of the members of the monastic communities and the visitors to the monasteries, and small rooms were arranged for the protection and exhibition of the monastic treasures (Tzimas 2000, 396−397 and 399; Nikodimi 2001, 276). These works were mostly unauthorised, with considerable implications for the original fabric, as reflected in the views of the Ministry of Culture officials:

In very few years, if the allowance on the part of the authorities and the unauthorised [construction] activities on the part of the monks continue, it is scientifically certain that the [architectural] style of the Meteora monasteries will be irreversibly harmed. (Ministry of Culture 1982b)

By the early 1980s Ministry of Culture officials had begun to complain about not being informed about construction activity taking place in most of the Meteora monasteries, as in the Great Meteoron and Varlaam (Ministry of Culture 1982a). By the early 1980s Ministry of Culture officials described the complexities of the operation and management of Meteora as follows:

The Meteora monasteries are united against any danger/issue... They also have remarkable financial power, law consultants, covering from the Church and contacts with Mount Athos, etc. They also influence a large part of the local society, which willingly supports them in any initiative of theirs, regardless if it is right or wrong. (Ministry of Culture 1982b)

中文译文 · 阅读单元 34

1960年代，国家还进一步确立迈泰奥拉的遗产价值。1967年，文化部不再只保护20年代以来被列为单体纪念物的个别修道院，而是把整个迈泰奥拉划为统一保护区，边界还包括 Kastraki 村和 Kalampaka 的一部分。与此同时，访客人数开始增加。那时的访客多为个人而非旅行团，主要以朝圣者身份对修道生活本身感兴趣。除 Great Meteoron 外，多数修士和修女从一开始就接受旅游，把游客捐赠视为扩大共同体、修缮修道院的重要收入来源。当地社区当时主要仍参与宗教仪式，对旅游较为谨慎甚至持否定态度，担忧其破坏修道性质，也尚未充分意识到旅游的经济收益。

1970年代至80年代初，修道共同体在地方主教支持下继续扩大，游客人数也增长。游客不再只有朝圣者，越来越多人是因岩石景观和作为景观组成部分的修道建筑而来，而且旅行日益由组织化旅游推动。国家支持这种旅游发展，希望借此进一步发展同国外、尤其西欧国家的联系。修道共同体继续接受旅游，也越来越清楚其财务收益；这一时期开始向非希腊游客收取门票。当地社区一方面继续作为会众参与礼仪生活，另一方面也开始认识旅游利益，在 Kalampaka 和 Kastraki 开设商店、餐馆和小型旅馆。

同一时期，文化部地方文物机构在 Roussanou、St Nikolaos Anapafsas 等处实施大型修复，使这些修道院免于倒塌。这既源自国家加强国家遗产保护的意愿，也与维持和增加地区旅游有关。修道共同体则利用旅游收入实施较小规模工程，并得到当地社区（此时通常开始获得报酬）的支持。工程目标包括维修和发展修道院、改善与外界的交通、满足游客需要，例如修建方便修士与访客进入的楼梯，把小房间改成保存和展示修道“珍宝”的空间。

问题在于，这些工程大多没有获得授权，对原有材料造成明显影响。到1980年代初，文化部官员已经公开抱怨自己并未被告知 Great Meteoron、Varlaam 等院的建设活动，并警告如果主管部门继续纵容、修士继续无许可施工，迈泰奥拉修道院的建筑风格将在很短时间内遭到不可逆破坏。官员还指出，各修道院面对外部威胁时会联合起来，同时拥有可观经济实力、法律顾问、教会支持、与阿索斯山的联系，并能影响很大一部分当地社会；后者往往不论修道院行动是否妥当都会给予支持。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 35

From the mid-1980s to present is the period of mass tourism at the site. Mass tourism developed with the constant support of the government agencies as well as the acceptance and encouragement of the monastic

communities. The local community also became increasingly involved in tourism, with considerable implications for the local population and economy: The local economy changed its character, increasingly relying on tourism, where it had previously been based on agriculture and cattle-raising. During this period the rural population began moving from the surrounding villages to the city of Kalampaka (Kalyvas 2002, 97, 166 and 198−199). From the mid-1980s until the mid-1990s, the State's concern for the heritage protection of the site was strengthened. This concern was manifested mainly in two ways: first, through the funding of extensive restoration projects at the monasteries. This funding came mainly from the European Union, and was assigned through the Ministry of Culture and especially the Ministry for the Environment, Spatial Planning and Public Works for restoration works at the monasteries; and second, through the promotion of the World Heritage inscription of the site, which took place in 1988. It is important to note that the State initiated and completed the World Heritage nomination process of the site without any attempt to involve the monastic communities. The monastic communities did not show any willingness to participate in, or oppose, the process either. Nevertheless, in the nomination file the Ministry of Culture placed heavy emphasis on the monastic communities' association with the site, clearly reflecting their views. It stressed that 'this area [of Meteora] has been continuously used by the Meteora Monasteries since the end of the tenth century till now and it has been also continuously resided by monks and nuns' (Ministry of Culture 1986, 2−3), and also attached a book written by a Meteora nun (Theotekni 1978). The concern on the part of the State for the heritage protection of the site was also linked to the tourism exploitation of the site, given that both the allocation of money from the Greek government and the European Union and the World Heritage inscription of the site required that the monasteries would remain open to the public (see above; Greek Government 2002, article 11; Greek Government 1932). The monastic communities continued to carry out maintenance and development works, increasingly on a much larger scale. From the late 1980s onwards, with the establishment of the current St Stephen monastic community comprising nuns of a higher educational status, the monastic communities started to show a greater concern to carry out scientifically-based studies, with reference to contemporary conservation guidelines (Tzimas 2000, 398). However, the monastic communities, because of their income through tourism, continued not to necessarily depend on the authorisation and the funding from the Ministry of Culture for their works (pers. comm. Meteora Ephorate).

From the mid-1990s onwards, Meteora became a popular tourist destination in Greece. As a result, the monastic communities have increased their income, which has ensured them financial independence from the State. This enables the communities to conduct almost any project they might desire often without the authorisation of the Ministry of Culture (Ereuna 2002), not only in the context of covering their monastic needs or even ensuring for them better and more convenient everyday life conditions but also in the context of a form of rivalry between the monastic communities towards giving their monasteries the strength and glory of the past (pers. comm. Meteora Ephorate). Such projects concern: first, the restoration or replacement of existing buildings, in certain cases also in an attempt to revive the monasteries' function. For example, the Great Meteoron monastic community restored the monastery of the Coming of Christ, which today operates as its monastery dependency [metochi], and the Holy Trinity monastic community restored the St Nikolaos Badovas and the St Antonios skites, which also operate as its dependencies (Tetsios 2003, 341−342; Ioasaph 2002, 4−6; n. 10−11). And second, the construction of new buildings (pers. comm. Meteora Ephorate). The scale of the unauthorised works on the part of the monastic communities caused the following reaction on the part of the Ministry of Culture officials:

One can notice an act/situation of barbarism for the country, which tends to take the form of a severe illness… Aren't the monks citizens of this state? Aren't they subject to the state legislation and regulations? (pers. comm. Ministry of Culture, cited in Ereuna 2002)

8.2. Examples

Developing tourism at Meteora: the shooting of James Bond's film (1980)

An international film company attempted to shoot scenes of James Bond's film For Your Eyes Only (United Artists 1981) at Meteora and particularly in the Holy Trinity monastery. The tourist agencies and the local government were in favour of the project because it promoted the site to the tourists. The monastic communities, acting as one body, mainly at the initiative of the Abbot of the Great Meteoron Monastery and with support from the local Bishopric (Meteora Bishopric 1980), refused permission, considering this project a sacrilege to the holy character of the site. The monastic communities raised Greek and Byzantine flags on the Holy Trinity monastery, and temporarily closed the monasteries to all visitors. They also launched a campaign to stop the shooting of the film, motivating, and achieving support from, the official Church authorities and numerous ecclesiastical and monastic cycles within and outside Greece (Meteora Monasteries 1980a; Meteora Monasteries

1980b; Meteora Monasteries 1980c; Paradosi 1994, 402 and 424). Thus, ‘Meteora became a new symbol of resistance, national and pan-Orthodox’ (Paradosi 1994, 403). The film company, with permission from the Ministry of Culture and support from the local community, shot a few general views of the area and the Holy Trinity monastery, and then completed the film in a studio with fake structures that were supposed to substitute the actual monastic buildings (Paradosi 1994, 421 and 423).

Developing tourism at Meteora: the KENAKAP study for the development of Meteora and the broader region (1994)

In 1994, the ‘Centre for the Development of Kalampaka and Pyli’ (KENAKAP)1 commissioned a study on the development of tourism at Meteora and the broader region (Xydias and Totsikas

中文译文 · 阅读单元 35

1980年代中期至今是迈泰奥拉的大众旅游时期。大众旅游在政府机构持续支持、修道共同体接受甚至鼓励的条件下发展；当地社区也越来越深地卷入旅游，地方人口和经济结构随之改变。原本以农业和畜牧业为主的地方经济越来越依赖旅游，周边乡村人口也开始向 Kalampaka 城迁移。

从80年代中期到90年代中期，国家对遗产保护的关注同时增强，主要体现在两方面：一是投入大规模修复资金，其中相当部分来自欧盟，经文化部及环境、空间规划和公共工程部门拨付；二是推动迈泰奥拉申报世界遗产，并于1988年列入《世界遗产名录》。值得注意的是，国家在申报和完成提名过程中几乎没有让修道共同体参与，而共同体也没有积极参与或反对。不过，申报文本却十分强调修道共同体与遗址持续至今的联系，指出该地区自10世纪末以来一直被修道院使用、并持续有修士和修女居住，还附上迈泰奥拉修女撰写的著作。国家遗产保护与旅游开发仍然彼此连接：无论希腊政府和欧盟拨款，还是世界遗产身份，都以修道院向公众开放为重要条件。

修道共同体继续进行维修和扩建，而且规模越来越大。80年代末以后，以受教育程度较高的 St Stephen 修女共同体为代表，一些修道院开始更多采用科学研究和当代保护规范。但由于旅游收入带来财务独立，它们实施工程并不一定依赖文化部的批准或资助。90年代中期以后，迈泰奥拉成为希腊著名旅游目的地，修道共同体收入进一步增长，对国家的经济依赖更低，因而往往可以在未经文化部许可的情况下实施自己希望进行的项目。工程不只为了基本修道需求或改善生活便利，也带有各共同体之间竞相恢复往昔“力量与荣耀”的意味。项目既包括修复、替换旧建筑并恢复部分历史功能，例如 Great Meteoron 修复 Coming of Christ 修道院附属地，Holy Trinity 修复 St Nikolaos Badovas、St Antonios 隐修处；也包括新建建筑。文化部官员对这些大规模无许可建设极为不满，甚至把这种状态形容为一种对国家而言近乎“野蛮”的严重病症，并反问修士难道不也是国家公民、不受国家法律规章约束吗。

【8.2 案例】1980年，国际电影公司希望在迈泰奥拉、尤其 Holy Trinity 拍摄詹姆斯·邦德电影《For Your Eyes Only》。旅游机构和地方政府赞成，因为拍摄有助于宣传遗址；各修道共同体却在 Great Meteoron 院长推动、地方主教区支持下集体拒绝，认为这是对神圣性质的亵渎。它们在 Holy Trinity 升起希腊和拜占庭旗帜，一度关闭所有修道院，并发动国内外教会与修道网络声援，迈泰奥拉因此被描述为“民族和泛东正教抵抗的新象征”。最终，电影公司在文化部许可和当地社区支持下只拍摄少量地区与修道院远景，其余场景用摄影棚搭建的仿制建筑完成。

1994年，Kalampaka and Pyli Development Centre（KENAKAP）委托研究迈泰奥拉及周边地区旅游发展，试图把修道功能与旅游运行协调起来。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 36

and Braoudakis 1994). The study attempted to reconcile the tourism operation with the monastic function of the site, proposing stricter controls over the tourist use of the site through a variety of measures: enclosure of the monastic complex with gates, restriction of the number of visitors entering the complex, introduction of a ticketing system for the entire complex, development of parking areas outside the complex and an internal bus-transfer system, and restricted opening hours of the complex. The study also proposed changes in the management status of the site, giving the monastic communities the primary role but suggesting at the same time an increased role for the local government (Xydias and Totsikas and Braoudakis 1994, xxiii-xxvi; 5/1, 10/33 and 4/1-5; pers. comm. Vassilis Xydias; pers. comm. Great Meteoron Monastery; pers. comm. St Stephen Monastery). The study led to a major conflict between the local government and the monastic communities. The

local government saw this plan as an ideal opportunity to gain more control over the tourism industry, at the expense of the monastic communities (Ta Meteora 1995a). The monastic communities, acting as one body ('the Assembly of the Holy Monasteries of Meteora', consisting of the Abbots and Abbesses of all Meteora Monasteries), at the initiative of the Abbot of the Great Meteoron Monastery, opposed the study on the grounds that it was threatening to impose tourism upon the monastic and holy character of the site. The monastic communities feared that the study would lead to an uncontrollable tourism exploitation of the site. They also saw the study as a potential weapon in the hands of groups with limited knowledge regarding the operation of the site and often without respect for the holy character of the site, i.e. the local government and private companies, to intervene in their territory and challenge their power. As a result, the monastic communities firmly opposed any changes to the existing management status of the site (Meteora Monasteries 1995, 11−26; Meteora Monasteries 1994c; Meteora Monasteries 1994b, 137−141; pers. comm. Great Meteoron Monastery; pers. comm. St Stephen Monastery). The conflict between the two sides affected the other groups as well. The local Bishopric clearly took the side of the monastic communities (Meteora Bishopric 1994; Meteora Monasteries 1995, 4−5). The local community was unable to come to a single agreement about the study, proving disorganised and lacking the appropriate knowledge and experience to understand even the basic points of the study. Thus the local community was divided between the two sides (i.e. the monastic communities and the local government), caught within local ideological and political conflicts and personal contacts and subject to the influence of the monastic communities and the Bishopric (on the side of the local government: Ta Meteora 1995b; Kourelis and Kouroupas 1995; on the side of the monastic communities: Detziortzio 1994, 210−216). The Ministry of Tourism and the Ministry of Culture chose not to intervene in the conflict (pers. comm. Ministry of Tourism; pers. comm. Ministry of Culture; Ereuna 1995), while the local Ephorate took the side of the monastic communities (Meteora Ephorate 1995; pers. comm. Meteora Ephorate). The monastic communities, led by the Abbot of the Great Meteoron Monastery, launched a campaign to oppose the conclusions of the study, and received support from the official Church authorities and numerous ecclesiastical and monastic cycles as well as political cycles and prominent personalities within and outside Greece (Meteora Monasteries 1995, 14−15; Paradosi 1994, 337 and 376−399; Kalokairinos 1995). As a result of the campaign, the KENAKAP study was rejected as a whole, and any further discussion about the existing complexities and future perspectives of the operation of the site ceased. On a final note, it seems that the study was from the start restricted by the terms set by the local government, with an increased emphasis on its potential role in the management of the site. The study made some important points, particularly with regard to the reconciliation of the tourism operation with the monastic function of the site through the stricter control of tourism. The various groups of the site, however, saw the study as an opportunity to develop their own positions

allocates financial resources of the European Union to the planning and implementation of projects for the development of the local community.

in the tourism operation of the site, also based on personal contacts and ideologies, without carefully considering the points of the study itself (also Marinos 1995). The easiest but not necessarily the best solution for the monastic communities was to reject the study as a whole and cease any further discussion.

Regulating the use of the site: the law on the holiness of the site (1995)

中文译文 · 阅读单元 36

KENAKAP 研究建议对旅游使用实施更严格控制，包括：在修道院群入口设置大门、限制进入人数、对整个修道院群实行统一票务、把停车场放在保护区外并用内部接驳车转运、缩短和控制开放时间。它还建议调整管理结构：修道共同体仍居主要位置，但地方政府应取得更大的角色。

这份研究迅速引发地方政府与修道共同体之间的严重冲突。地方政府把它视为提高自己对旅游业控制、削弱修道共同体支配力的机会。六个修道院院长组成的“迈泰奥拉圣修道院大会”则在 Great Meteoron 院长领导下反对研究，表面理由是该方案会把旅游强加给修道和神圣性质，并可能造成失控的旅游开发；更深层的担忧，是地方政府和私人公司等对遗址运行知识有限、甚至不尊重其神圣性质的外部力量，会借研究介入修道院领地并挑战其权力。因此，各院坚决反对改变既有管理格局。

冲突也把其他群体卷入。地方主教区明确站在修道共同体一边。当地社区因缺少组织、专业知识和理解研究内容的经验，无法形成统一意见，而是在地方政治、意识形态、人际网络及教会影响下分裂成两派。旅游部和文化部选择不介入，地方文物机构则站在修道共同体一侧。Great Meteoron 院长随后发动反对研究的广泛运动，得到正式教会机构、国内外教会与修道圈、政治圈以及知名人士支持。最终，KENAKAP

研究被整体否决，关于遗址既有复杂问题和未来运行方式的进一步讨论也随之停止。

作者最后指出，这项研究本身从一开始也受地方政府所设条件限制，过度强调地方政府未来的管理角色，但它仍提出了一些重要问题，尤其是通过更严格控制旅游来协调旅游与修道功能。遗憾的是，不同群体更多把研究看作扩大自己在旅游管理中地位的机会，按既有人际关系和意识形态采取立场，而不是认真评估方案内容。对修道共同体而言，整体拒绝研究并终止讨论是最容易的做法，却未必是最好的解决方案。

【1995年“神圣性”法律】反对 KENAKAP 研究的运动，以及修道共同体与政治网络的联系，最终促使政府通过法律，正式“承认迈泰奥拉地区为神圣场所”并“保障其独特宗教性质”。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 37

As a result of the monastic communities' campaign to reject the conclusions of the KENAKAP study, and also their approaching to political cycles, the government passed a law that 'recognised the area of Meteora as a holy site' and 'safeguarded its distinct religious character' (Greek Government 1995, article 1; see also figure 8). On this basis, first, the law did not allow any use of the land or exploitation or exercise of any commercial activity that 'would upset in any way the holy character of the area or obstruct the exercise of monastic life or the worship of God' (Greek Government 1995, article 1). In this way, the law heavily favoured the monastic communities, in relation to the local community (Tzimas 1994, 335−336). Second, the law recognised the Assembly as the primary management body of the site. The Assembly, along with the Ministry of Culture of course, would also be responsible for any construction activity within the individual monasteries. The issue of the operation of the Assembly, however, caused a disagreement between the Bishop and particularly the Great Meteoron monastic community: the Bishop felt that the Assembly should gather only on specific occasions, in cases of a serious issue or threat for the site, and strictly at his initiative and under his control (Meteora Bishopric 2000; pers. comm. Serapheim), while the Great Meteoron monastic community favoured a more permanent role for the Assembly, which would to some extent be independent from the local Bishop and would help develop a more effective, unified management of the site by the monastic communities (Great Meteoron Monastery 2000; pers. comm. Great Meteoron Monastery). The other monastic communities were divided between the Bishopric and the Great Meteoron monastic community, on the basis of spiritual and personal links among them rather than on the basis of a detailed calculation and analysis of the situation for the benefit of the site. As a result of the differences between the monastic communities and the Bishop and also the differences among the monastic communities, the Assembly remains inactive to the present. This means that there is no unified management of the site by the monastic communities, with considerable implications for the operation of the site: First, there is no forward or long-term planning for common operational and management issues of the individual monasteries and the site as a whole. Second, the monastic communities' attitude towards the other groups involved in the operation of the site, especially the local community, is not unified. Practically this means that anyone desiring to perform an activity at the site simply needs the unofficial or even silent consent of an Abbot or even a monk of the site. Third, there is no cooperation between the monastic communities with regard to construction activity at the monasteries. Finally, the failure of the monastic communities to manage the site in a unified way tends to leave a gap in the operation and management of the site, which other groups attempt, at least theoretically, to take advantage of in the future, with possible implications for the monastic function of the site (pers. comm. Great Meteoron Monastery).

Regulating the construction activity at the site: the re-definition of the buffer zone of protection (2002)

In 2002, the Ministry of Culture decided to extend the buffer zone for the heritage site and set stricter conditions on the non-monastic construction activity within it. The new regulations

would make it difficult for the owners of the pieces of land within the buffer zone, mostly members of the local community, to exploit and also sell their land. The local community was clearly against this proposal, favouring a much more restricted buffer zone (Kalampaka Municipality 2002), but eventually had to accept the proposal under the pressure from the Ministry of Culture and the monastic communities (Meteora Ephorate 2002; Apostolakis 2001b, 540−554).

Developing tourism at Meteora: the widening of the road network (2005)

The Ministry of Tourism allocated funds (from the European Union) for the widening of the road network within the site in an attempt to respond to the increasing traffic levels and the increasing size of tourist buses (see ICOMOS Greece 2005). The monastic communities agreed to the project. The Ministry of Culture initially disagreed with the project on the basis of its considerable impact on the sensitive landscape of Meteora.

However, it later accepted the partial widening of the road network, under the pressure from the Ministry of Tourism, the tourist agencies and the monastic communities. The project was eventually completed at full scale (figure 28).

Erecting new structures in the Meteora monasteries: the Roussanou enclosed balcony (early 1990s)

Roussanou is the monastery with the smallest available ground surface at Meteora. The Roussanou monastic community had already made the maximum use of the available surface: eg. it constructed

rooms with ceilings of different height adjusted to the rock surface, and used even the smallest areas of the monastery as storerooms. Despite these attempts, the monastic community still required more space to cover its everyday needs. As a result, the monastic community decided to expand the space of their monastery by constructing an enclosed balcony. The Ministry of Culture did not give its authorisation for this on the grounds that the proposed style and material of the balcony (iron framework with glass windows) did not conform to the existing architectural character of the monastery (figure 29). Despite the disagreement, the monastic community completed the project.

Replacing existing structures in the Meteora monasteries: the Roussanou access bridge (mid-1990s)

The Ministry of Culture decided to replace the access bridge to the Roussanou monastery, made of iron, with a new one, made of wood, which would be sympathetic to the landscape. The Roussanou monastic community was cautious that the material of the new bridge would be potentially dangerous for the members of the community as well as the visitors when it rains. The Ministry of Culture officials assured and eventually convinced the monastic community that this would not be the case, and replaced the bridge with the consent of the monastic community (figures 30 and 31). The monastic community now complains that the new bridge eventually caused the problems that it initially feared (pers. comm. Roussanou Monastery). This example shows the different ways by which the Ministry of Culture officials and the monastic communities approach the fabric of the monasteries: The former place emphasis on style, while the latter are primarily concerned about function.

Erecting new structures in the Meteora monasteries: the Roussanou extension (mid-1990s to mid-2000s)

中文译文 · 阅读单元 37

1995年的法律首先禁止任何会扰乱地区神圣性质、妨碍修道生活或敬拜上帝的土地利用、开发或商业活动，因此在与当地社区利益发生冲突时明显有利于修道共同体。其次，法律把“圣修道院大会”确认为遗址的主要管理机构，并规定它与文化部共同负责各修道院内部建设。不过，大会如何运作又引起主教与 Great Meteoron 共同体的分歧：主教认为大会只应在严重问题或威胁出现时，由他主动召集并置于其严格控制下；Great Meteoron 则希望大会成为较常设、相对独立于地方主教、能够形成统一管理的机构。其他共同体更多按属灵关系和人际联系站队，而非以遗址整体利益为基础分析。结果，大会至今基本不运作。

大会失效带来多重后果：没有对各修道院和整体共同事务的前瞻性、长期规划；各院面对地方社区等外部群体时立场不统一，任何人若想在遗址开展活动，有时只需获得某位院长甚至某位修士的非正式或默许同意；各共同体在建筑工程上也缺少合作。更重要的是，统一管理的缺位在遗址运行中留下权力空隙，使其他群体有机会设想未来介入，这又可能影响修道功能。

【2002年缓冲区重划】文化部决定扩大遗产保护缓冲区，并对其中非修道性质的建设设置更严格条件。这使缓冲区内、主要由当地社区成员拥有的土地更难开发和出售。当地社区明确反对并希望缩小缓冲区，但最终在文化部和修道共同体压力下接受。

【2005年道路拓宽】旅游部门利用欧盟资金计划拓宽遗址内道路，以应对交通量增加和旅游大巴体量变大。修道共同体同意。文化部最初因担心工程对敏感景观造成严重影响而反对，但在旅游部门、旅行机构和修道共同体压力下，后来接受部分拓宽，最终项目却按完整规模实施。

【Roussanou 封闭式阳台，1990年代初】Roussanou 拥有迈泰奥拉最小的可用岩面，修女们已经通过不同高度的天花、把最小空间用作库房等方式把现有面积利用到极限，但仍缺乏满足日常生活的空间，因此决定加建封闭阳台。文化部认为铁框架和玻璃窗的形式与修道院建筑性格不协调，拒绝许可；共同体仍自行完成。

【Roussanou 进院桥，1990年代中期】文化部决定把铁制进院桥改为木桥，希望更符合景观。修女担心木质材料在雨天会给共同体和游客造成安全风险，文化部官员保证不会发生并说服她们接受。后来修女认为恰恰出现了原

先担心的问题。作者据此指出，两者对建筑材料的优先考虑不同：文化部首先重视形式和风格，共同体首先关心功能。

【Roussanou 扩建，1990年代中期至2000年代中期】随后，持续的空间短缺和游客占据主教堂造成的礼仪困难，使共同体决定在原修道院外建立新建筑。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 38

The Roussanou monastic community decided to erect new buildings because of its continuing need for more space for its everyday monastic needs. The construction of the enclosed balcony (see above) provided a temporary relief to the problem of space in the monastery. Actually, the problem of space increased with the gradual increase of the size of the monastic community (pers. comm. Maximi; Meteora Bishopric 2002; Ereuna 2002). The need to erect new buildings was, in addition to the need for more space, a result of the need for a new church, since the katholicon was always occupied by the visitors during the opening hours of the monastery (pers. comm. Maximi). Hence, the monastic community decided that a permanent solution had to be found. The monastic community decided to expand the available space of their monastery by constructing a five storey and a two storey building on a piece of land that they owned next to the rock of the original monastery. The five storey building could easily stand and operate as a separate monastery on its own, comprising a church, fourteen cells, a large reception hall, a library, workshops for the making of icons, a small medical centre, guestrooms and a separate entrance from the road. The other two storey building would serve as a guesthouse and possibly as a future permanent residence of the local Bishop after his retirement. The five storey building would be connected with the original monastery through a tower-lift. The monastic community initially asked for permission to build a much smaller building (and not the five storey one that it actually planned to build). The Ministry of Culture gave authorisation for this on the grounds that the proposed building complied with the architectural character

of the original monastery. The monastic community started the construction of the supposedly proposed and authorised building, but, after the completion of its lower levels, decided to add more levels and also erect the other two storey building, for which the community did not have a permit. Furthermore, the monastic community, presenting their project to the Ministry of Culture and the local Ephorate, argued that the five storey building, the two storey building and the lift were separate steps that were taken over the course of time in a continual desperate attempt to adjust to the irregular surfaces of the rock. However, it seems clear, judging from the careful arrangement of the new buildings in such a limited and irregular surface and also from the connection among the buildings, that the five storey building, the tower-lift and the two storey building were steps connected in a single and unified plan.

The local Ephorate opposed any further construction activity apart from the officially proposed and authorised one, and two local residents filed a petition against the construction of the new buildings (Meteora Bishopric 2002). However, the monastic community, presumably making use of its contacts with members of the local government authorities and also receiving support from the local Bishop (see Meteora Bishopric 2002) and from a part of the local community, proceeded. Even the local judge, deciding on the residents' petition, found the monastic community innocent. The central Ministry of Culture only seriously considered attempting to stop the project when the five storey building was nearing completion and the tower-lift was half complete (see Ereuna 2002). Nevertheless, the project was completed. The failure to stop the project seems to be the result of a number of reasons. First, the Ministry of Culture was reluctant to come into conflict with the monastic community, which had considerable power especially at a local level. Second, it seems that the Ministry of Culture officials considered, possibly under the influence of the Ministry of Tourism and the tourist agencies, that in the period prior to the 2004 Olympic Games in Greece it would not have been appropriate for the international tourism image of the country to have such a major project incomplete in one of the country's most popular tourist destinations (pers. comm. Meteora Ephorate; pers. comm. Ministry of Culture). Third, the whole project was nearing completion, and it was de facto too late to seek alternative solutions. It is surprising, however, that the Ministry of Culture retrospectively authorised the tower-lift (but not the five storey building and the two storey building). The end result, despite the conflict between the monastic community and the Ministry of Culture, was the erection of the buildings that the community wanted. Thus, the monastery is now in three parts: the original monastery on the top of the rock, the five storey building next to the rock, with a tower-lift connecting it with the original monastery, and a two storey building close to the five storey one (figures 32 and 33). The construction of the new buildings causes a series of problems: The disproportionate size and prominent position of the new buildings significantly affect the character of the Roussanou monastery. The

monastery may no longer be considered a meteoron, i.e. ‘floating/suspended in the air’. In addition to this, the huge new space created and the great variety of needs covered by the construction of the new buildings poses the danger that the new buildings might potentially replace to a considerable extent the original monastery in terms of function. Thus, it appears that the construction of the five storey building and the two storey building was not based on a welldefined plan regarding their specific function: the monastic community rather intended to simply create a new, huge space that would cover any of its current and potential needs for space, and would then define the precise function of each specific part of the new buildings. The needs of the monastic community that led to its decision to erect new structures (i.e. the need for more space and the need for a new church) are reasonable in the first place. However, the Ministry of Culture, on the one hand, seems to have never actually realised the scale of these needs, approaching the proposed construction activity of the monastic community with an immense emphasis on the preservation of the original fabric and space. The Roussanou monastic community, on the other, never seriously discussed their needs with the Ministry of Culture officials in order to seek advice on the best way to cover them. It seems that the monastic community, instead, made use of these reasonable needs as an excuse for a disproportionate construction on the site.

Replacing existing structures in the Meteora monasteries: the Varlaam bell tower (mid-1990s)

The Varlaam monastic community decided to replace its bell tower, which was made of iron and was thus not compliant with the architectural character of the monastery, with a new one made of stone. The monastic community, however, chose stone which was easier to cut and cheaper but

中文译文 · 阅读单元 38

Roussanou 共同体的人数不断增加，封闭阳台只能暂时缓解空间问题；此外，修道院开放时间内主教堂长期被游客占用，修女需要另一座可以正常礼拜的教堂。因此，她们决定在原修道院岩体旁、属于共同体的土地上建一座五层建筑和一座两层建筑。五层建筑实际上具备独立修道院的完整功能：教堂、14间修女单间、大接待厅、图书馆、圣像制作工坊、小型医务室、客房，并有从道路进入的独立入口；两层建筑用作客舍，并可能在地方主教退休后作为其永久住所。五层建筑通过塔式电梯与岩顶旧修道院相连。

共同体最初向文化部申请的只是比实际计划小得多的建筑，文化部因其形式与原院风格相符而批准。工程在完成下部几层后，共同体继续增建层数，又另建两层建筑，均没有许可。向文化部和地方文物机构解释时，共同体声称五层楼、两层楼和电梯塔是在不同时间、为了适应不规则岩面而逐步形成的独立措施；但作者根据有限场地上各建筑精确的布局和彼此连接关系判断，它们显然从一开始就是一个统一计划。

地方文物机构反对除原许可方案以外的继续施工，两名居民也提起诉讼。但共同体凭借与地方政府人员的联系，以及地方主教和部分居民的支持继续施工；地方法院甚至判定共同体无罪。直到五层建筑接近完工、电梯塔也已建成一半，文化部中央层面才认真考虑叫停。最终项目仍然全部完成。作者认为，失败原因包括：文化部不愿与在地方拥有相当权力的修道共同体正面冲突；2004年雅典奥运会前夕，在希腊最著名旅游景点之一留下大型烂尾工程会损害国家国际旅游形象，旅游部门和旅行机构的压力也可能影响文化部；此外，工程已经接近完成，实际上已难以寻找替代方案。令人意外的是，文化部后来还追认了电梯塔，却没有追认五层和两层建筑。

最终 Roussanou 被分成三部分：岩顶旧修道院、岩旁五层新楼（通过电梯塔相连）以及附近两层楼。新建筑因体量过大、位置突出，显著改变了 Roussanou 的性格，使它甚至难再称为“悬浮空中”的 meteoron。新增空间功能极为齐全，也可能在日常运作上逐渐取代旧院。作者指出，这说明项目没有从一开始为各空间明确分配具体功能，而更像先建造一个巨大容量，以便容纳当前和未来的一切空间需求，之后再决定各部分用途。

修女需要更多空间和新的礼拜教堂，本身是合理需求；问题在于双方都没有真正合作。文化部过度强调保存原有材料和空间，始终没有真正理解需求规模；共同体也没有认真把需求交给专业人员讨论、寻找更合适的方案，反而把合理需求变成不成比例扩建的理由。

【Varlaam 钟楼，1990年代中期】Varlaam 共同体决定把与建筑风格不协调的铁制钟楼改为石制，但选择了一种更易切割、价格更低、同样并不符合修道院建筑性格的石材。文化部最初反对，后来在共同体压力下让步，新钟楼最终建成。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 39

was still not compliant with the architectural character of the monastery. The Ministry of Culture initially

disagreed, but eventually gave into the pressure of the monastic community, and the new bell tower was constructed (pers. comm. Meteora Ephorate) (figure 34). Even the monastic community has now realised that the stone is not compliant with the architectural character of the monastery, but it does not appear to be eager to proceed with its replacement, at least in the near future, due to other continuing construction works in the monastery (pers. comm. Venediktos).

中文译文 · 阅读单元 39

此后连 Varlaam 修道共同体自己也承认所用石材与修道院原有建筑性格并不协调，但由于院内还有其他持续进行的建设工程，至少在可预见时期，它们并没有表现出愿意再次更换钟楼的意向。

Chapter 9. The conservation and management of Meteora (1960 to present): analysis

第9章：迈泰奥拉的保护与管理（1960年至今）：分析

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 40

The conservation and management of Meteora (1960 to present): analysis

9.1. Overview

The recent history of Meteora may be divided, in terms of the conservation and management of the site, into three broad phases, on the basis of the changing relationship between monasticism, heritage protection and tourism operation over time.

Phase A: the 1960s

This is the period of few visitors in the site, before the establishment of an organised tourist system. In this phase Meteora functioned primarily as a monastic site. The local community was involved in the ritual life of the site, comprising the congregation of the monasteries, which means that at that time visiting the site was incorporated within its monastic function. The monastic communities and the local community, with the support of the official Church, attempted to protect the fabric of the site, something that indicates that protection was also situated within the monastic function of the site.

Phase B: the 1970s and the early 1980s

This is the period of an increase in the number of visitors in the site and the development of state-sponsored organised tourism. In this phase the visitors started being attracted to the site for reasons other than its monastic function. The government agencies supported the development of tourism for non-religious purposes, and the monastic communities were primarily concerned about the financial gains derived from tourism and did not actively encourage the visitors to participate in the ritual life of the site. The local community continued to be involved in the religious life of the monasteries as the congregation of the monasteries (which had become much greater than in phase A), but also started becoming increasingly involved in tourism. Also, at that time the State became increasingly concerned about the protection of the heritage significance of the site, linking protection to the development of tourism at the site rather than to its monastic function.

Therefore, in this phase the site remained primarily a monastic one, used mainly by the monastic communities and their congregation. The heritage protection and the tourism exploitation of the site, however, started developing separately from its monastic function, with the acquiescence and even the encouragement of the monastic communities. The monastic function and the heritage protection of the site started to be increasingly linked to its tourism exploitation.

Phase C: from the mid-1980s, especially the mid-1990s, to present

This is the period of the development of mass tourism industry on the site. Mass tourism has had huge implications for the site and also the broader region. The monastic communities became even more actively concerned about tourism, and interested in the financial benefits derived from it. Elements of the local community became clearly interested in the tourism industry, ceasing to constitute the congregation of the monasteries. Also, at that time the State established the heritage significance of the site at an international level, by promoting the site for World Heritage inscription, and linked the inscription to the promotion of tourism at the area. The World Heritage inscription process was carried out without the involvement of the monastic

communities. Therefore, in this phase the site remained a monastic one, but the heritage protection and the tourism exploitation of the site were developed and established clearly separately from the monastic function, with the acquiescence and even the encouragement of the monastic communities. The tourism exploitation of the site was increasingly emphasised at the expense of the monastic function and the heritage protection of the site. The operation of the site has become formalised today as follows. The monasteries are mainly occupied by the visitors from ca 9 in the morning to ca 5 in the afternoon (possibly with a small break). Outside these hours the monasteries are exclusively used by the monastic communities. In the Holy services on Sundays and on major feasts there is participation of the congregation, consisting mostly of members of the local community. Thus, the congregation has been incorporated within the life of the monastic communities, while the life of the monastic communities (including the congregation) seems to have adjusted to the presence of the visitors.

Conclusion

As this analysis shows, the most important factor that has affected the life of Meteora throughout its recent history is the growth of the tourism industry: it is on the basis of the increasing pressure from tourism that the recent history of Meteora was divided into three phases. Tourism did not emerge as a result of monastic activity, but was the result of broader, global changes supported by the Greek state; the monastic communities, however, willingly accepted and encouraged tourism, in accordance with their philanthropic-missionary approach to monasticism. The monastic communities' response to tourism has been complex, and may be summarised in the following remarks. First, they claimed their aim was to put emphasis on their monastic life, and thus attempted to integrate tourism within their monastic life and use tourism as a means to promote the Orthodox faith to the visitors. The result has been exactly opposite: the monastic communities actually saw tourism as a means to achieve financial benefits, and did not attempt to incorporate it into their monastic life. As a consequence, the visitors were excluded from the worship of God. What happened was that monastic life was made to conform to the requirements of the growth of tourism, especially in phases B and C of the recent history of the site. Second, they attempted to combine the monastic function, the heritage protection and the tourism development of the site. However, the result was a clear separation between monastic function on the one hand and heritage protection and tourism operation on the other, especially in phases B and C. Third, they accepted and encouraged the growth of tourism at the site. The result

was that this increasing emphasis on tourism developed clearly at the expense of the monastic function and the heritage protection of the site, especially in phases B and C. Therefore, as demonstrated in this section, the main problems in the operation and management of Meteora that developed over the course of the recent history of the site and have become formalised today are the following: the separation between monasticism, heritage protection and tourism operation; an increased emphasis on tourism; and the adjustment of monasticism to the pressure of tourism.

9.2. Analysis

中文译文 · 阅读单元 40

【第9章：迈泰奥拉的保护与管理（1960年至今）：分析——9.1 概述】作者把近几十年的保护与管理史分为三个阶段，划分依据是修道生活、遗产保护与旅游运行三者关系的变化。

A阶段是1960年代。当时访客很少，组织化旅游体系尚未建立，迈泰奥拉主要作为修道场所运行。当地社区以修道院会众身份参与礼仪生活，因此“参观”本身仍被纳入修道功能。修道共同体和当地社区在正式教会支持下修缮建筑，说明遗产维护也主要处在修道生活的框架内。

B阶段是1970年代和1980年代初。访客增多，国家支持的组织化旅游逐渐形成。访客开始因修道生活以外的理由前往迈泰奥拉；政府鼓励非宗教旅游，修道共同体则更关注旅游收入，并未主动让游客参与礼仪。当地社区仍作为人数不断扩大的会众参与宗教生活，同时越来越进入旅游业。国家也更重视遗产价值，但把遗产保护越来越多地同旅游发展、而不是修道功能连接起来。因此，这一阶段迈泰奥拉仍主要是修道场所，但遗产保护和旅游开发已开始脱离修道功能独立发展，而且得到修道共同体默许乃至鼓励；修道、保护和旅游三者越来越围绕旅游利益发生联系。

C阶段从1980年代中期、尤其1990年代中期延续至今，是大众旅游全面发展的时期。大众旅游对遗址和周边地区影响巨大。修道共同体更主动参与旅游并关注其经济收益；当地社区中的许多人则主要转向旅游业，不再像过去那样构成修道院稳定的会众。国家通过世界遗产申报把遗址的遗产价值提升到国际层面，同时又把世界遗产身份与区域旅游推广连接起来，而申报过程并没有让修道共同体参与。于是，迈泰奥拉虽仍是修道场所，但遗产保护和

旅游运行已经清楚地同修道功能分离，并且旅游利用开始以牺牲修道功能和遗产保护为代价占据更强势的位置。

今天，这种状态被日常时间安排固定下来：大约上午9点到下午5点之间，修道院主要被游客占据；开放时间之外才由修道共同体独占。周日和重大宗教节日的礼拜仍有以当地居民为主的会众参加。也就是说，会众仍被纳入修道共同体生活，而修道共同体及其会众的生活本身却越来越需要适应游客的存在。

作者认为，近代迈泰奥拉最重要的变化动力是旅游业增长，因此上述三个阶段本质上是按旅游压力递增划分的。旅游并非修道活动自然产生，而是希腊国家支持的更广泛全球变化；修道共同体却在“慈善—传教式”修道观影响下主动接受并鼓励它。第一，共同体声称要把旅游纳入修道生活、把旅游作为向访客传播东正教信仰的工具，但实际结果相反：旅游主要被当作经济收益来源，访客反而被排除在敬拜活动之外，修道生活则为了旅游运行而调整。第二，它们试图把修道功能、遗产保护和旅游发展结合起来，结果在B、C阶段却是三者明显分离。第三，它们接受并鼓励旅游增长，最终使旅游不断以牺牲修道功能和遗产保护为代价扩张。由此形成今天三个核心问题：修道、遗产保护和旅游运行彼此分离；旅游被过度强调；修道生活越来越服从旅游压力。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 41

In accordance with their philanthropic-missionary approach to monasticism, the Meteora monastic communities have accepted the growth of the tourism industry as a most effective means to promote the Orthodox faith on a large scale and at an international level. They have accepted their central position in the tourism industry, as the ones who control the access to the monasteries. They also recognise the significant benefits they derive from their position in the tourism industry: they keep all the entrance revenue for themselves, without sharing it with other groups involved in the operation of the site (for example, the Ministry of Culture), and also develop contacts with powerful people at local and state level (for example, politicians and major public officials) (see Ministry of Culture 1982b). Moreover, the monastic communities recognise the current requirements of the tourism industry, such as: mass tourism, ‘package tourism’, the tourism character of Meteora as a transitory destination based on a brief visit to the site, and the attempt to increase the visitor figures of the site. The monastic communities have adjusted their everyday monastic life to these requirements, in a way that does not hinder, but allows and even encourages the smooth operation of the tourism industry (Xydias and Totsikas and Braoudakis 1994, 4/3-5; see Meteora Monasteries 1994a, 37-41; Meteora Monasteries 1995, 23). There are numerous examples to illustrate this point. First, the opening hours of the monasteries are mostly adjusted to the needs of the visitors. Every day there are some monasteries open to visitors, while during the peak tourist season more monasteries remain open, and for longer periods of time. Second, the timing of the holy services is also adjusted to the requirements of tourism. The vespers, for example, is performed after the closure of the monasteries for the visitors. Third, the communal monastic activities [diakonimata] often serve the needs of the visitors. In larger monastic communities, such as the St Stephen monastic community for example, one of the key communal monastic activities is the running of the visitor shops and the arrangement of bureaucratic issues related to tourism. Fourth, there are even cases in which the monastic communities might perform activities outside their normal monastic schedule simply for the sake of the visitors. A characteristic example is the striking of the simantron [wooden gong inviting the monks to the holy services] in the Roussanou monastery at the request of the tour guides and the visitors. This kind of ‘performance’ sometimes places the Roussanou nuns in a difficult position, especially if the ‘performance’ is followed by the applause of the visitors (pers. comm. Maximi). Fifth, there are cases in which even the increase of the size of the monastic communities might relate to the increasing pressure of tourism and the satisfying of the needs of the visitors. In accordance with their philanthropic-missionary approach to monasticism, the Meteora monastic communities have also accepted the increasing need for the maintenance and development of their monastery buildings, as a means to maintain their monasteries in a good condition. They clearly link the maintenance of their buildings to the tourism development of the site. They favour an increase in the visitor figures of their monasteries in the short term, without considering the potentially low carrying capacity of the site and the implications of tourism for the protection of the fabric and the landscape of the site. This was illustrated by their attitude towards the widening of the road network of the site.

中文译文 · 阅读单元 41

【9.2 分析】在“慈善—传教式”修道观下，迈泰奥拉各共同体把旅游业增长视为大规模、国际化传播东正教信仰的有效手段，也接受自己作为修道院入口控制者在旅游产业中的中心地位。它们清楚这种位置带来的实际收益：门票收入全部归修道院，无需与文化部等其他管理群体分享，同时旅游又帮助它们与地方和国家层面的政治人物、重要官员建立联系。

修道共同体也适应现代旅游业的基本要求，包括大众旅游、团队包价旅游、把迈泰奥拉作为短暂停留的过境式目的地，以及持续追求更多游客。日常修道生活因此被调整到不会妨碍、甚至会主动便利旅游运行的程度。具体而言：第一，修道院开放时间主要按游客需求安排，每天总有若干院开放，旺季开放院数更多、时间更长；第二，礼拜时间也围绕旅游调整，例如晚祷通常安排在游客离院之后；第三，共同劳作（diakonimata）越来越服务游客，在 St Stephen 等较大共同体中，经营游客商店、处理旅游相关行政事务已经成为重要共同职责；第四，有时修士或修女会为了游客而做出原本不属于当日修道作息的“表演”，例如 Roussanou 的修女应导游和游客要求敲响召集礼拜的木制 simantron，甚至在敲击后面对游客掌声而感到尴尬；第五，有些共同体人数增加本身也可能与应付游客需求和旅游压力有关。

同样，在这种修道观影响下，共同体接受不断增加的建筑维护和扩建需求，并把保持修道院“良好状态”与旅游发展直接联系起来。它们倾向于追求短期游客数量增长，而较少考虑遗址可能十分有限的承载力，以及旅游对建筑材料和景观保护的长期影响。对道路拓宽工程的支持就是典型例子。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 42

The government bodies seem to face an internal conflict. The Ministry of Culture, on the one hand, is concerned with the protection of the fabric and the landscape of the site, while the Ministry of Tourism and the Hellenic Tourism Organisation, on the other, are more concerned with the development of tourism at the area. The priority is clearly on the development of tourism, as illustrated in the widening of the road network and also in the failure of the Ministry of Culture to stop the completion of the Roussanou unauthorised buildings partly under the pressure from the Ministry of Tourism and the tourist agencies. Furthermore, this priority on the development of tourism is often linked to a focus on the short-term increase of the visitor figures of the site, without any respect to the low carrying capacity of the site, as illustrated in the widening of the road network. The Ministry of Culture has no real control over the Meteora monastic communities with regards to heritage protection. As it was noted above, the Meteora monastic communities have their own perception of the maintenance and development of their monastery buildings (strictly within the continuation of their monastic presence in the site and the covering of their everyday monastic needs, as was illustrated in the case of the Roussanou access bridge), and do not need to depend on the Ministry of Culture officials, given their financial benefits and their contacts mostly through their role in the tourism industry. As a result, they have erected several unauthorised buildings in their monasteries, with considerable implications for the original fabric and space of their monasteries, even having the financial ‘luxury’ to afford to implement any projects and experiments of theirs on the space of their monasteries, as was illustrated in the case of the Roussanou new buildings. The number as well as the scale of the unauthorised buildings of the monastic communities, especially at the Roussanou monastery, seems to have raised questions about the removal of the site from the World Heritage List (pers. comm. Ministry of Culture) – a development that would unavoidably strike a blow to the international prestige of the Greek state in terms of its ability to protect sites of the significance and fame like Meteora (though this issue was not raised in the progress evaluation report: UNESCO 2006). The Meteora monastic communities cooperate with the Ministry of Culture mainly in the case that they attempt to maintain their independence or increase their power by stopping encroachments or threats from others, especially the local community, as illustrated in the re-definition of the buffer zone of the site. The local community has a strong concern about the development of tourism at the area. However, there are certain severe obstacles (Kalyvas 2002, 81−84, 210−212 and 225−226; Alexiadis 2004; Anastasiou 2004; Charalambeas 2005, 232−252). First, the local community is caught within personal dislikes and local conflicts, and thus proves not able to come to a single view on tourism issues, as illustrated in its reactions towards the KENAKAP study. Second, the local community is caught within an attempt to increase the visitor figures of the site in the short term rather than trying to benefit from the current high visitor figures. Thus, it appears to be joining any project that tends to promise an increase in the tourist figures of the site, without any careful consideration of the implications and even the essence of the project. This was partly evident in the reaction of part of the local community towards the KENAKAP study. Third, the local community is clearly affected and influenced by the Meteora monastic communities. Consequently, the attempt of the local community to gain power in the tourism industry (at the expense of the monastic communities) failed, as evident in the rejection of the conclusions of the KENAKAP study and the subsequent passing of the law on the holiness of the site, and in the re-definition of the buffer zone of the site. The local Bishopric is also influenced by the Meteora monastic communities. The monastic communities, given their power through the role in the tourism industry, have in practice a very high degree of independence from the local Bishopric in terms of operation and management. This position in turn seems to have led to an attempt by the local Bishopric to extend its officially

国家机构本身也存在内部矛盾：文化部主要负责保护建筑材料与景观，而旅游部和希腊旅游组织更关注扩大旅游。实际政策优先级明显偏向旅游，例如道路拓宽最终推进、文化部未能制止 Roussanou 无许可扩建，都部分受到旅游部门和旅行机构压力影响。并且，这种“发展旅游”的目标往往进一步缩减为短期增加游客数量，而缺少对遗址承载力的尊重。

在遗产保护方面，文化部事实上难以真正控制修道共同体。共同体按照自身对“维护和发展”的理解行动，优先考虑持续修道存在和日常功能需求，例如 Roussanou 进院桥案例所显示的那样；它们又凭借旅游带来的财力与政治社会联系，不必依赖文化部资助和批准。因此，多座修道院出现无许可建筑，对原有材料与空间产生严重影响，Roussanou 更显示共同体甚至有足够经济能力把院内空间当作实施各种工程和实验的对象。无许可工程数量和规模一度严重到令文化部人员担心迈泰奥拉可能被移出世界遗产名录；即使这一问题没有正式写入 UNESCO 的进展评估，它仍可能损害希腊国家在国际上保护如此重要遗址的声誉。

修道共同体通常只在需要维护自身独立性、扩大权力或阻止其他群体——尤其地方社区——介入时，才积极与文化部合作，缓冲区重新划定就是例子。当地社区同样高度关心旅游，却面临几个严重问题：内部受个人冲突和地方派系影响，无法形成统一立场；过于追求短期“增加游客”，而不是思考如何从现有高游客量中获得更可持续收益，因此容易支持任何看似能增加游客的项目；同时又明显受到修道共同体影响。结果，地方政府试图借 KENAKAP 研究扩大旅游管理权失败，随后“神圣性”法律通过、缓冲区扩大，又进一步体现修道共同体在权力关系中的优势。

地方主教区同样受到修道共同体力量牵制。由于旅游让各院获得经济和社会政治资本，它们在实际运营中对主教区拥有很高独立性。主教区因而试图把原本主要属灵层面的控制扩展到其他修道事务，例如反对“圣修道院大会”定期独立召开。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 43

strictly spiritual control into other areas of monastic activity, as reflected in the Bishopric’s disagreement on the regular gathering of the Assembly. Furthermore, the Meteora monastic communities’ differing responses to tourism and differing ways to exercise the power derived from it, depending on their differing degree of commitment to the philanthropic-missionary approach to monasticism, are reflected in the management of the site as follows: Whenever there is an operational and management issue of the site that demands a single, unified view on the part of the monastic communities, it is mostly those communities more committed to the philanthropic-missionary approach that take the lead. Thus, it was those communities who led the way and managed to unify the other communities in all the major issues of the recent history of the site, such as: the campaign against the shooting of James Bond’s film, the campaign against the KENAKAP study, and the passing of the law on the holiness of the site. Therefore, in practice, the responsibility for the management of the monastic site ends up being in the hands of a few monastic communities rather than being equally shared by all the monastic communities of the site. The gathering of responsibility in specific monastic communities has the following implications. First, the decisions taken reflect the views and principles of the few, and might not be fully shared by the other monastic communities. Second, the specific monastic communities unavoidably come to conflict with the other groups involved in the operation of the site, while the other monastic communities are deprived of this active role and have the ‘privilege’ of maintaining good relationship with the other groups. Third, the other groups of people demanding a role in the operation of the site attempt to form personal relationships with, and get attached to, the specific monastic communities. Therefore, the Meteora monastic communities’ attitude of acceptance towards tourism (in accordance with their philanthropic-missionary approach to monasticism) defines their relationship with the outside world, and particularly with the government bodies. The government bodies avoid conflicts and have to maintain good relationships with the monastic communities, and make compromises to ensure this. The monastic communities, in return, firmly avoid stopping access to their monasteries (though they theoretically have the right to do so being the owners of the monasteries), and comply with the requirements of the tourism industry. Thus, through tourism, the government bodies allow increased power to the monastic communities but at the same time keep them under control. It is even possible to argue that the gathering of controlling power, at a local level, by mainly the monastic communities, rather than the equal allocation of power to various groups of the site (with conflicting views), makes it easier for the government bodies to keep control over the operation of tourism at the region. Each of the Meteora monastic communities’ specific (active or passive) response to tourism (mostly in accordance with

their specific degree of commitment to the philanthropic-missionary approach) further defines their relationship with the outside world and particularly with the government bodies. The government bodies, though often accusing specific monastic communities on gaining more benefits from the tourism industry and not concentrating on their monastic life, are actually in favour of active responses to tourism on the part of the monastic communities. The government bodies want a suppressed monastic life for the sake of the smooth running of the tourism industry, with the role of the monks being reduced to the maintaining of the monasteries (pers. comm. Ministry of Tourism). It is even possible to argue that the gathering of controlling power by specific monastic communities and Abbots, rather than the equal allocation of power between the monastic communities (with conflicting views), makes it even easier for the government bodies to keep control over the operation of tourism at the region.

中文译文 · 阅读单元 43

不同修道共同体对旅游的态度并不相同，而这种差异又与它们对“慈善—传教式”修道观的投入程度有关。当遗址遇到需要统一立场的重大管理议题时，往往是最积极拥抱这种修道观的几个共同体主导行动。反对詹姆斯·邦德电影拍摄、反对 KENAKAP 研究，以及推动“神圣性”法律，都是由这些共同体牵头，再把其他修道院统一起来。因此，实际管理责任常集中在少数共同体手中，而非六院平均共享。

这种权力集中带来三方面后果：第一，决定更容易反映少数共同体的观点和原则，未必完全得到其他院认同；第二，主导共同体不可避免地与其他参与遗址运行的群体发生冲突，而较被动的共同体反而可以保持良好关系；第三，其他想参与遗址运行的群体会努力与这些掌权共同体建立私人联系、依附于其网络。

作者进一步指出，修道共同体接受旅游的态度实际上重新定义了它们与外部世界、尤其政府机构的关系。政府机构希望避免与共同体冲突，因此需要保持合作并作出妥协；共同体作为修道院所有者，理论上有权停止公众进入，但实际又稳定保持开放、配合旅游业的要求。于是旅游产生了一种双向控制：国家通过旅游给予修道共同体更多地方权力，同时又利用共同体对旅游收益和游客流的依赖把它们纳入可管理框架。甚至可以说，把地方控制权集中在少数修道共同体，而不是平均分配给多个彼此冲突的群体，反而让国家更容易控制区域旅游。

各共同体对旅游的“积极”或“消极”响应也进一步影响与政府关系。虽然政府官员有时批评某些修道院从旅游中获利过多、忽视修道生活，但国家旅游机构实际上更欢迎积极配合旅游的共同体。政府需要一种不会妨碍旅游顺畅运行的、被压缩的修道生活，把修士角色更多降为维护修道院和配合开放。类似地，管理权集中在少数院长手中，也可能比多个共同体平分权力更方便政府协调和控制旅游。

Chapter 10. The use and arrangement of space at Meteora (1960 to present)

第10章：迈泰奥拉空间的使用与布局（1960年至今）

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 44

The use and arrangement of space at Meteora (1960 to present)

10.1. Overview

The changing wider circumstances of the operation of the site over time, namely the growth of the tourism and heritage industries, had implications on the use and arrangement of space. The evolution of the spatial arrangement in the recent history of Meteora may be summarised as follows:

Phase A: the 1960s

In this phase, the site operated primarily as a monastic one. This was clearly reflected in the use of space: The external and internal space of the monasteries was used primarily by the monastic communities and also the local community, who participated in the ritual life of the site as the congregation of the monasteries. The concerns of the monastic communities as they were re-established in their monasteries were, in order of importance: the worship of God; their permanent residence in their monasteries; and the care for their predecessors. These concerns were manifested in the space of the monasteries as follows (Tetsios 2003, 345−347; pers. comm. Maximi).

• The katholicon. Reviving the function of the katholicon guaranteed the continuity of the conduct of the Holy Liturgy in the monastery. • The cells, which covered a monastic community's basic need for accommodation. The permanent residence of a monastic community in the monastery was inextricably linked to the conduct of the Holy Liturgy. As soon as the local community (i.e. the congregation of the monastery) saw a monastic community having settled in a site, it offered its support in various ways, for example by providing food or construction materials (pers. comm. Maximi). • The refectory, which provided the monastic community's food. The refectory is the second most important building in a monastery after the katholicon, closely linked to it in terms of symbolism and use (see above). Once a monastic community had its own

refectory, it became independent, in the sense that it could survive on its own, without the aforementioned support of the local community (pers. comm. Maximi). • An inside yard to connect the katholicon, the refectory and the cells. The yard is the quintessential element for the life of the monastic community and is also inextricably linked to the katholicon serving as its reception hall (see above). • A storeroom for the protection of the past 'treasures' of the monastic community that are no longer in daily use [skeuofilakeio] (Tetsios 2003, 346−347; Tzimas 2000, 405 and 399; pers. comm. Ioasaph; pers. comm. Nikodimi). These 'treasures' are considered holy items and are also signs of the monastic community's temporal continuity (see above).

Therefore, in the first phase of the recent history of the site, the monastic communities focused mainly on the central part of their monasteries, i.e. that consisting of the katholicon, the refectory, the yard and the cells.

Phase B: the 1970s and the early 1980s

In this phase, the site remained primarily a monastic one, used mainly by the monastic communities and the congregation of the monasteries, which increased in size. The site also started developing as a tourist attraction (see above). As a consequence, the external and internal space of the monasteries, though still used mainly by the monastic communities and the congregation, started to be divided, in terms of use, between the monastic community and the congregation on the one hand and the visitors on the other. The needs of the congregation were, in order of importance: to participate in the worship; to communicate with the members of the monastic community; and also have a meal with them. The monastic communities responded to the needs of the congregation in the following ways (pers. comm. Tetsios; pers. comm. Maximi).

• A larger church, which accommodated the congregation's need to participate in the worship. • A larger reception hall [archontariki], which accommodated the congregation's need to communicate with the monastic community after the holy services, especially on Sundays and major feasts. • A larger refectory, as a response to the congregation's need to have a meal with the monastic community after the holy services. • A larger yard to connect the church, the reception hall and the refectory.

Therefore, in order to satisfy the needs of the congregation, the monastic communities made alterations to the central part of the monasteries, that consisting of the katholicon, the refectory and the yard (see phase A).

Phase C: from the mid-1980s, especially the mid-1990s, to present

This is the period of mass tourism. In this phase, the site remained a monastic one but at the same time has clearly developed into a major tourist attraction. This increasing emphasis on the tourist use of the site was clearly reflected in the use of space. The external space of the monasteries was used by the visitors, whilst the monastic communities were restricted to their monasteries. The internal space of the monasteries was divided, in terms of use, between the monastic communities on the one hand and the visitors on the other (see above). The monastic communities attempted to satisfy the needs of the visitors in the following ways (Tzimas 2000, 396−406).

• A variety of museums/exhibition halls with items from the past life of the site (Tzimas 2000; Tetsios 2003, 346−347; Nikodimi 2001, 276−284). These museums should be differentiated from the storerooms of the 1960s-early 1970s (see phase A): the storerooms of the 1960s-early 1970s were mainly the expression of the monastic communities' need to protect the monastic 'treasures' (as an obligation of theirs towards the Tradition and their predecessors), while the museums under discussion were mainly the expression of the monastic communities' desire to exhibit a whole variety of items that they considered relevant to the visitors. Thus, refectories, hospitals, and houses for the elderly and other secondary buildings, no longer in use, were transformed into such museums. • Space that allowed the visitors to move around the buildings of monasteries, and also admire the surrounding landscape. This space included: staircases and bridges for the easier access from the road to the monasteries, entrances and structures for the selling of tickets, larger inside yards, separating doors with signs preventing the visitors from entering the private areas of the monasteries, and signs asking the visitors to 'respect the holiness of the place'. • Shops selling items about the site or monasteries in

general and even some souvenirs from Greece in general. • Structures that covered basic needs of the visitors, such as toilet facilities, drinking water facilities and telephone boxes.

Therefore, in order to satisfy needs of the visitors, the monastic communities changed mostly secondary and peripheral areas and buildings of the monasteries (and not the central part of the monasteries, as in phases A and B).

10.2. Examples

The evolution of the spatial arrangement of the Meteora monasteries during the recent history can be examined in the following examples:

The St Stephen monastery

中文译文 · 阅读单元 44

【第10章：迈泰奥拉空间的使用与布局（1960年至今）——10.1 概述】旅游与遗产产业增长不仅改变管理关系，也直接改变修道空间。作者仍按三个阶段概括空间演变。

A阶段为1960年代。遗址主要作为修道场所运行，修道院内外空间主要由修道共同体以及作为会众参与礼仪的当地居民使用。各共同体重返修道院后的优先事项依次是：敬拜上帝、在院内建立永久居所、照护前辈留下的遗产。空间上首先恢复主教堂，以保证圣礼连续进行；其次修复或建造修士单间，满足住宿，而共同体一旦重新常住，当地会众往往主动提供食物和建材帮助；随后恢复食堂，使共同体在物质生活上更加独立，同时保持食堂与主教堂之间象征和使用上的紧密联系；还需要庭院把主教堂、食堂、单间联系起来；最后设置存放过去修道“珍宝”的库房（skeuofilakeio），这些物品被视为圣物和共同体时间连续性的证明。因而这一阶段共同体主要集中使用由主教堂、食堂、庭院和修士住处构成的核心区。

B阶段为1970年代至80年代初。迈泰奥拉仍主要由共同体和不断扩大的会众使用，但也开始成为旅游景点。内部和外部空间于是逐渐在共同体/会众与普通游客之间区分。会众最重要的需求是参与礼拜、与修士或修女交流、并在礼拜后一起用餐。共同体为此扩大教堂、接待厅（archontariki）、食堂和庭院。这意味着，为满足会众需要，变化主要发生在修道院核心部分。

C阶段从80年代中期、尤其90年代中期至今，是大众旅游时期。遗址仍保留修道功能，却已经明显成为大型旅游景点。修道院外部空间主要被游客使用，修道共同体越来越被限制在院内；院内空间又进一步分成共同体与游客两个领域。为满足访客需求，各院设置多种博物馆或展厅。与60年代作为“保存圣物”而建立的库房不同，这些新展厅更主要为了向游客陈列被认为有吸引力的内容，因此旧食堂、医院、养老房等失去原功能的附属建筑被改造成展示空间。各院还修建楼梯、桥梁和更便于从道路进入的通道；设置售票入口、更大的庭院、阻止游客进入私人区域的门和“尊重此地神圣性”的标识；开设出售修道院相关商品甚至一般希腊纪念品的商店；并增加厕所、饮水点和电话设施。与前两个阶段不同，这一时期为游客而改造的主要是修道院外围和附属建筑。

【10.2 案例】作者接下来通过 St Stephen、Roussanou 和 Holy Trinity 三院说明这种空间变化。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 45

The St Stephen monastery has, relatively speaking for the standards of the site, a large available rock surface and is structured on a horizontal axis (Tzimas 2000, 398−401; Tetsios 2003, 343−347). The evolution of space may be seen in terms of the following phases: Phase A: On reoccupying the monastery after the World War II and the Civil War, the monastic community transformed the refectory and the kitchen into halls for the exhibition of the monastic ‘treasures’, and constructed a new, much smaller, refectory and kitchen on the part of the monastery to the left of the entrance, together with the cells (figure 35). Thus, in this period, the life of the monastic community was mainly centred on the part of the monastery to the left of the entrance. Phase B: The monastic community moved the refectory, the kitchen and the reception hall, and also constructed administrative offices and a library, to the part of the monastery to the right of the entrance (figure 36). This evolution of the spatial arrangement was the result of the monastic community’s attempt to be closer to the congregation. Thus, at that time the life of the monastic community and of the congregation was mainly centred on the part of the monastery around the yard and the katholicon. Phase C: The monastic community moved the refectory, the kitchen, the administrative offices, the library and the cells to a part even further to the right of the entrance. The monastic community also constructed a cemetery church on the very left corner (from the

entrance) of the monastery (figure 37). It should be stressed at this point that the monastery has two katholica, an

earlier one dedicated to St Stephen on the left corner of the monastery and a later one dedicated to St Charalambos in the centre of the monastery. Initially the visitors had access only to the katholicon in the centre of the monastery, while the monastic community used the other one. Over the course of time, however, the monastic community gave into the increasing pressure of the visitors to have access to the other katholicon as well (pers. comm. St Stephen Monastery). This change of the spatial arrangement related to the monastic community's attempt to stay as far as possible from the visitors. Thus, it is mainly the visitors who use the part of the monastery around the yard, while the monastic community uses the peripheral buildings of the monastery: mainly the part of the monastery to the right of the entrance and also the part of the monastery to the left of the entrance.

The Roussanou monastery

The Roussanou monastery has the most limited available surface at Meteora and is structured on a vertical axis (Tzimas 2000, 401−403; Tetsios 2003, 343−347). Phase A: On return to the monastery after the wars, the monastic community retained the existing arrangement of space. The monastic cells, the refectory and the kitchen remained to the right of the entrance of the monastery, on the upper, main storey of the monastery (i.e. the storey of the katholicon). This space was shared by the monastic community and the large congregation.

Phase B: The monastic community moved the cells, the refectory, the kitchen and a small library, and also constructed an enclosed balcony (see above), in the lower storey of the monastery (i.e. below the storey of the katholicon). Thus, the upper, main storey of the monastery was used by the visitors, while the lower storey was used by the monastic community. This evolution of the spatial arrangement demonstrated the need for the monastic community to stay as far as possible from the visitors, even in such severely limited space. Phase C: Recently the monastic community erected a separate five storey building next to the Roussanou rock for their exclusive use (see above). The visitors have access to the original monastery, while the monastic community occupies the new building outside the original monastery (see above, figure 32). The evolution of the spatial arrangement showed the monastic community's attempt to stay even further from the increased pressure of mass tourism.

The Holy Trinity monastery

The Holy Trinity monastery has, relatively speaking for the standards of the site, an average available rock surface at Meteora and is structured on a horizontal axis (Tetsios 2003, 376−377; Tzimas 2000, 403−404). Phase A: On reoccupying the monastery after the wars, the monastic community constructed cells and various secondary monastic buildings in the lower storey of the monastery (figure 38). At that time, the life of the monastic community was mainly centred on the katholicon. Phase B: The monastic community transformed the original refectory opposite the katholicon into a larger church, so that it would accommodate the increased in size congregation, and the cells into a reception hall, and also formed an inside corridor (used as a yard) connecting the katholicon, the new church, the reception hall and the refectory (pers. comm. Lazaros Deriziotis; pers. comm. Tetsios) (figure 39). It is worth noting that the reception hall of the Holy Trinity monastery was altered twice in order to adjust to the continually increasing size of the congregation over the course of time (pers. comm. Tetsios). At that time, the space of the monastery was unified, and shared by the monastic community and the congregation. Phase C: Today the visitors have access to the entire lower storey of the monastery, while the monastic community is mostly restricted on the upper storey of the monastery, consisting of cells and a small library (figure 40). As these examples of monasteries show, the use of the internal space of the monasteries over time, with a specific emphasis on the katholicon (i.e. the core of the monastery), may be summarised as follows. In Phase A, the monastic community was mostly using the space around the original katholicon. In Phase B, the monastic community and the large congregation mainly used the space around either the original katholicon (as in the St Stephen and the Roussanou monasteries) or a new, larger church (as in the Holy Trinity monastery). In Phase C, the visitors have access to the original katholicon, while the monastic community uses another church (as in the Roussanou and the St Stephen monasteries).

Conclusion

The analysis of the evolution of the use of space in the recent history of the site leads to the following conclusions. On reoccupying the site (phase A), the monastic communities maintained, in most of the cases, the existing arrangement of space of their monasteries. Later, however, in order to respond to the needs of the large congregation and especially the needs of the visitors, they changed the existing arrangement of space:

they changed the central part of their monasteries (in phase B) and the periphery of their monasteries (in phase C).

中文译文 · 阅读单元 45

St Stephen 的岩顶面积在迈泰奥拉相对较大，整体沿水平轴发展。A阶段，在二战和内战后重新入住时，共同体把原食堂和厨房改成展示修道“珍宝”的厅室，又在入口左侧、靠近修士单间的位置新建较小食堂和厨房，因此共同体日常生活主要集中在入口左侧。B阶段，为了更接近不断扩大的会众，共同体把食堂、厨房、接待厅移到入口右侧，并增加行政办公室和图书馆；共同体与会众的生活于是主要围绕庭院和主教堂展开。C阶段，共同体再次把食堂、厨房、办公室、图书馆和单间移到入口更右、更外围的位置，同时在入口最左角建墓地教堂。St Stephen 有两座主教堂：左侧较早的 St Stephen 教堂和中央较晚的 St Charalambos 教堂。起初游客只能进入中央教堂，修道共同体使用较早教堂；后来共同体在不断增长的游客压力下也开放 St Stephen 教堂。总体趋势是共同体持续把自己的空间推向外围、尽量远离游客，而庭院核心区主要交给游客。

Roussanou 的可用岩面最有限，主要沿垂直轴发展。A阶段，共同体战后返回时基本保留既有布局：修女单间、食堂和厨房仍在入口右侧、与主教堂同一主要楼层，空间由共同体与庞大会众共享。B阶段，共同体把单间、食堂、厨房和小图书馆移到较低楼层，并建封闭阳台；上层主楼层逐渐给游客使用，下层则成为共同体空间。这显示即使空间极其有限，共同体仍努力与游客拉开距离。C阶段，修女在原岩体旁另建五层建筑专供自己使用；游客主要进入原修道院，而共同体迁入新楼，空间分离达到更彻底程度。

Holy Trinity 的岩顶面积中等，沿水平轴发展。A阶段，战后共同体在下层建修士单间和附属建筑，生活仍主要围绕主教堂。B阶段，为容纳不断扩大的会众，把主教堂对面的原食堂改造成较大的教堂，又把单间改为接待厅，并形成一条内部走廊作为“庭院”，连接主教堂、新教堂、接待厅和食堂。接待厅甚至为适应会众持续增长而改造两次；此时院内空间整体仍较统一，由共同体和会众共享。C阶段，游客今天可进入几乎整个下层，而共同体主要被限制在上层的单间和小图书馆。

综合三个例子：A阶段共同体主要使用原主教堂周围空间；B阶段共同体与大型会众共同围绕原主教堂，或因会众需求新建更大教堂；C阶段游客获得原主教堂的进入权，共同体则转用另一座教堂。战后刚重返遗址时，各院大体保留原有空间结构；随着会众扩大和旅游发展，为回应外部需要，B阶段首先改造核心空间，C阶段再进一步改造外围空间。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 46

In every new arrangement of space, the monastic communities did not take into consideration the existing arrangements. There are cases in which the construction of new buildings, within the new arrangement of space, unavoidably replaced, in terms of function, earlier buildings. As a result, today the Meteora monasteries demonstrate a variety of continually changing spatial arrangements, with buildings of interwoven and conflicting functions. The changes in the spatial arrangement of the monasteries reflect the failure of the monastic communities to face the wider changes affecting the operation of their site (the re-establishment of the monastic communities on the site, the formation of the large congregation and its participation in the ritual life, and the development of tourism) in terms of proactive and long-term planning. Every time there is a wider change in the operation of the site, the monastic communities tend to substantially change the earlier arrangement of space. The changes in the spatial arrangement of the monasteries also reflect the failure of the monastic communities to cooperate with each other and come to a unified planning of the use of space for all the monasteries. Thus, though the wider changes affecting the operation of the site are common for all the monasteries (though appearing at each of them in slightly differing periods, which has to do with the specific circumstances in each monastery), the monastic communities do not share their experiences concerning the changing use of space, and tend to repeat the same mistakes. It seems, however, that the monastic communities do not realise in the first place the importance of a proactive, long-term and unified planning of the use of space. They tend to feel that their financial power, mostly derived from tourism, allows them the ‘luxury’ to afford any further changes in terms of spatial arrangement.

10.3. Analysis

The Meteora monastic communities, as a result of their acceptance of tourism in the context of their adoption of the philanthropic-missionary approach to monasticism, unavoidably become suppressed in their space under

the pressure of tourism. This suppression takes the following forms.

1) The monastic communities become increasingly deprived of the use of the external space of the monasteries. As a result of the presence of visitors, the monks and nuns are deprived of the use of the external space, and are obliged to stay within their individual monasteries (figure 41). 2) The monastic communities become restricted within the internal space of the monasteries. As a result of the presence of visitors, the once unified internal space of the monasteries is now divided between the monks-nuns and the visitors (figures 42, 43, 44 and 45). It should be stressed that, as a consequence of this division, in most of the monasteries the visitors do not even see the monks and nuns but only the maintenance staff (i.e. private staff hired by the monks to serve the visitors). That is why the majority of the non-Orthodox visitors get the impression that the monasteries are no longer in use (pers. comm. Meteora visitors). Visitors have access to entire monasteries. The katholicon, though retaining its strongest symbolic and liturgical significance, ceases to serve as the constant point of reference for the everyday life of the monks and nuns. The refectory has, in most of the cases, been transformed into a museum for the exhibition of monastic 'treasures' for the visitors (as in the St Stephen, the Great Meteoron and the Varlaam monasteries), and thus its sacred and symbolic character in connection to the katholicon is lost. The yard is occupied by visitors, which makes the conduct of the communal activities [diakonimata] impossible. The secondary monastic buildings on the periphery within the monastery (such as kitchen, hospital, home for the elderly, guesthouse and various types of storerooms) are also transformed into museums for visitors (as in the Great Meteoron

and the Varlaam monasteries). The reception hall retains its character but serves the needs of the congregation and important visitors to the monasteries. Consequently, the monastic communities feel the need to create a new monastic space with all the necessary buildings (figure 45) such as: a new subsidiary church that might replace, in terms of function, the katholicon during the opening hours of the monastery, a new refectory, a new kitchen and new cells, new secondary monastic buildings, a new entrance (for example, through a cable car, as in the Great Meteoron, the Varlaam and the Holy Trinity monasteries: figures 46 and 47), and space for the conduct of communal monastic activities [diakonimata]. Therefore, what the monastic communities require and create is not simply some additional, supplementary space for their existing monasteries but in some cases a completely new monastic space within their existing monasteries. The traditional usage of space is no longer possible. The pressure of tourism has removed the essential nature of monastic life in terms of physical layout, and thus the spatial concepts in which Orthodox monasteries are best understood (see above) no longer apply. The arrangement of space is defined by the needs of the visitors rather than the needs of the monastic community, and thus the monasteries have become extroverted rather than introverted units, something that is not in accordance with the Orthodox monastic Tradition (see above). The katholicon, i.e. the

quintessential building of a monastery (linked to the worship of God), has become the primary visitor attraction in a monastery. This means that the linkage between the katholicon (religious content) and the yard (human content) is lost, and the approach of Papaiaoannou (see above) no longer applies to the Meteora monasteries today. The yard is exclusively used by the visitors and not the monastic community, which means that the linkage between the life of the monastic community and the visitors is lost. This complete separation between the life of the monastic community and the visitors, and the subsequent division of the two spaces, is an aspect of the Catholic (and not the Orthodox) monastic tradition (see above). Finally, the new space created by the monastic communities is an immediate and rather superficial response to the increasing pressure of tourism rather than a conscious attempt to follow the established rules of the Orthodox monastic Tradition. This was illustrated by the decision of the St Stephen monastic community to give into the desire of the visitors to have access to the katholicon of St Stephen in addition to the katholicon of St Charalambos (see above). 3) The monastic communities become restricted within the internal space, which expands towards the external space of the monasteries. This expansion of the internal space is achieved through the addition of new buildings which are essentially whole new monasteries, as in the case of the Roussanou new buildings. In this case the division of space is more clear-cut than in the previous one (case 2 above): the visitors have access to the original monastery, while the monks and nuns mainly use the new buildings (see above, figure 32).

中文译文 · 阅读单元 46

每一次新的空间安排都很少真正把先前安排作为整体加以整合。有些新建筑在功能上不可避免地取代旧建筑，因而今天迈泰奥拉各院呈现出不断变化、功能彼此交错甚至冲突的复杂空间。作者认为，这反映共同体缺少前瞻性和长期规划：无论是共同体重新建立、会众扩大，还是旅游发展，只要外部运行条件发生重大变化，各院就倾向于大幅重做空间安排，而不是在已有结构上形成长期适应策略。各院之间也缺乏统一规划；虽然面对的总体变化相同，只是发生时间略有差异，但共同体并不充分分享空间调整经验，因而经常重复相似错误。旅游带来的财力

又让它们产生一种“我们负担得起再次改造”的心态，更难认识长期、统一规划的重要性。

【10.3 分析】修道共同体因接受旅游而在物理空间上越来越受到压缩，这种压缩表现为几种形式。第一，它们逐渐失去修道院外部空间。游客占据岩顶和道路等外部区域后，修士和修女只能更多停留在各自院内。

第二，它们在修道院内部也被限制。过去相对统一的院内空间被分割成“共同体空间”和“游客空间”。很多修道院里，游客甚至看不到修士或修女，只接触到为接待游客而雇用的工作人员，因此许多非东正教外国游客误以为修道院已经不再实际使用。游客几乎可以进入整个传统修道核心：主教堂虽然仍有最高礼仪象征意义，却不再是修士日常生活恒定的中心；旧食堂常被改成展示修道“珍宝”的博物馆，因而失去与主教堂之间的神圣和象征联系；庭院被游客占据，使共同劳作难以进行；厨房、医院、养老房、客舍和库房等外围附属建筑也大量改为博物馆；接待厅虽然保留原功能，却主要服务会众和重要来宾。

于是修道共同体不得不在现有院内重新创造一套“新修道空间”，包括开放时间内替代主教堂使用的附属教堂、新食堂、新厨房、新单间、新附属建筑、新入口（Great Meteoron、Varlaam、Holy Trinity 甚至使用缆车等方式），以及共同劳作空间。这并非增加几个辅助房间，而是在旧修道院内部另造一套近乎完整的新修道院。传统空间使用方式因旅游压力而难以维持，修道院布局从围绕共同体需求转而围绕游客需求，空间从传统的内向性变为外向性，与东正教修道传统发生偏离。

主教堂作为敬拜上帝的核心建筑变成最主要的旅游景点，主教堂所代表的宗教内容与庭院所代表的人类生活之间的传统联系因此断裂。庭院只由游客使用，共同体不再在那里生活，修士与来访者之间原有的直接联系也随之消失。这种把修道共同体与访客完全分隔、形成两套空间的状态，反而更接近作者此前所说的天主教修道空间，而不是东正教传统。新空间往往只是面对旅游压力的直接、表面应对，而非根据东正教传统进行的有意识规划。第三种形式则是内部空间向原修道院外扩张：如 Roussanou
新楼实际上构成一座新的完整修道院，旧院交给游客，新楼主要供修女生活。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 47

4) The monastic communities move out of their monasteries to the external space of the monasteries. The monastic communities form dependencies [metochia] within the site that operate as hermitages, as in the cases of the Great Meteoron, the Holy Trinity, the Varlaam and the St Stephen monasteries (eg. the skiti of St Nikolaos Badovas, which operates as a hermitage of the Holy Trinity Monastery: see above, figure 14). The monks and nuns stay in their hermitages during the opening hours of their monasteries. There are cases, however, where the monks and nuns prefer to stay in their hermitages even outside the opening hours of their monasteries (pers. comm. Varlaam Monastery), which may reveal their increasing tendency to stay away from their monasteries because of the increasing pressure of tourism. 5) The monks and nuns move out of their monasteries to a different site. From the 1970s until now a large number of monks and nuns, approximately eighty, have abandoned the site for different monastic sites (pers. comm. Tetsios). Apart from the aforementioned, rather unavoidable, changes in the spatial arrangement, as a result of the monastic communities' restriction within their monasteries because of tourism, the monastic communities cause deliberate changes to the spatial arrangement as a result of their specific response to tourism. Thus, the differing responses of the Meteora monastic communities to tourism, in accordance with their differing commitment to the philanthropic-missionary approach to monasticism, lead to different spatial arrangements. Specifically, the monastic communities that actively embrace tourism, such as the Great Meteoron and St Stephen, tend to

deliberately arrange the space mostly according to the needs of the visitors rather than their own needs. These communities show an increasing concern over the following: how to accommodate the largest possible numbers of visitors and how to encourage them to extend their visit to their monasteries for as long as possible; how to meet the needs of the visitors; and what messages to convey and promote to the visitors (Anastasiou 2004). First, these communities place an increased emphasis on the formation of the internal yard and corridors for the visitors to move within the monastery (as in the Great Meteoron, the St Stephen and the Varlaam monasteries). Second, they focus on the formation of museums/exhibition halls for the visitors. There is a great variety of museums/exhibition halls: museums for the exhibition of monastic 'treasures' such as icons, wall paintings and manuscripts (as in the Great Meteoron, the St Stephen and the Varlaam monasteries); storerooms with tools used in agriculture and barrels for the storing of wine, no longer in use (as in the Great Meteoron and the Varlaam monasteries); kitchens with cooking utensils, no longer in use (as in the Great Meteoron monastery);

ossuary, no longer in use; the vrizoni towers, no longer in use (as in the Great Meteoron and the Varlaam monasteries); halls with exhibition of photos about the past life and the landscape of the site (as the photos of Kostas Balafas in the Great Meteoron monastery); halls with historical and folklore treasures (in the Great Meteoron monastery). Third, these monastic communities focus on the development of visitor shops. For example, the Great Meteoron, the St Stephen and the Varlaam monasteries have two or three shops each, sometimes selling even tourist souvenirs (as in the Great Meteoron monastery). Fourth, these

communities are concerned about the promotion of the Orthodox faith to the visitors through labels with small extracts from the Holy Scriptures in Greek and English (as in the Great Meteoron monastery). Fifth, these communities tend to show a special concern about the promotion of the national Greek history and identity to the visitors, with an emphasis on the participation of the monastic communities and the Church as a whole in the struggles of the nation. For example, the hall with historical and folklore treasures in the Great Meteoron monastery exhibits, among others, a model of the Parthenon, national flags and posters from recent wars of Greece. The monastic communities that have a more passive approach to tourism, such as the Holy Trinity and Roussanou, tend to arrange the space mainly according to their own needs without a special care for the visitors. It is worth stressing, for example, that the Holy Trinity monastery, unlike all the other Meteora monasteries, has no shops for the visitors, something that constitutes a deliberate choice of the Abbot (pers. comm. Tetsios). The use of space is also linked to the everyday tourism operation of the monasteries. The monasteries of those communities with an active approach to tourism (as the Great Meteoron and St Stephen) attract the largest numbers of visitors, while the monasteries of those communities with a passive attitude towards tourism (as the Holy Trinity and Roussanou) attract a much smaller number of visitors.

Conclusion

This section demonstrated how the main problems in the operation and management of the site, as a result of the monastic communities' acceptance of tourism in the context of their philanthropic approach to monasticism (i.e. separation between monasticism and tourism operation;

increased emphasis on tourism; and adjustment of monastic life to the pressure of tourism: see above), are manifested through changes in the use and arrangement of the monastic space. The monastic communities become increasingly restricted within their space. The space is clearly divided between the monastic communities on the one hand, and the visitors on the other. The monastic communities find it difficult to conduct their worship of God in the existing space, and thus create new spaces. This is not a matter of seeking some additional, supplementary space that would provide them some help with practical issues in their monastic life, but an existential need of theirs. The visitors are excluded from the worship of God. They are also significantly hindered from communicating with the members of the monastic communities. The fact that in most of the monasteries they do not even see the monks and nuns (but only private staff hired to cover their practical needs) creates the impression to the majority of the foreign visitors that the monasteries are no longer in use. This demonstrates that the more the monastic communities attempt to open their monasteries towards the visitors and embrace them, in the context of the philanthropic-missionary approach to monasticism (instead of keeping their monasteries closed and introverted, focusing on the worship of God, in accordance with the Orthodox monastic Tradition: see above), the more they actually exclude them from participating in, sharing and even recognising the function of the site as a place of worship of God. Only the congregation of the monasteries, mostly part of the local community, participates in the worship of God, something that is yet not in accordance with the Orthodox monastic Tradition (see above; see also Moisis 1997, 32).

中文译文 · 阅读单元 47

第四种形式，是修士和修女直接离开主要修道院，在遗址外部空间建立附属隐修处（metochia）。Great Meteoron、Holy Trinity、Varlaam、St Stephen 都有类似做法，例如 Holy Trinity 的 St Nikolaos Badovas 隐修处。修士、修女可在修道院开放给游客的时间里留在这些隐修处；有些人甚至在闭馆后也更愿意继续待在那里，这可能显示他们因旅游压力日益倾向于远离自己的主修道院。第五种形式更彻底：从1970年代至作者研究时，大约已有80名修士和修女离开迈泰奥拉，转往其他修道地点。

除这些因旅游压缩造成的较被动变化外，不同共同体还会按自己对旅游的具体态度主动调整空间。积极拥抱旅游、并更认同“慈善—传教式”修道观的 Great Meteoron 和 St Stephen，更倾向按游客需要而非自身修道需要布置院内：它们关注如何容纳尽可能多的游客、如何延长停留、如何满足游客需要、向游客传递什么信息。为此扩大庭院和游览走廊；建立多种博物馆与展厅，展出圣像、壁画、手稿、农业工具、旧酒桶、旧厨房器具、骨库、旧起吊塔、历史照片和民俗历史收藏；开设两三间游客商店，甚至出售一般旅游纪念品；通过希腊语和英语标牌

引用《圣经》传播东正教信仰；还强调希腊民族历史和身份，尤其展示修道共同体与教会参与民族斗争的叙事，例如 Great Meteoron 展出帕特农模型、国旗和近代战争海报。

相对被动对待旅游的 Holy Trinity 和 Roussanou，则更按自身需要安排空间，不特别迎合游客。Holy Trinity 是迈泰奥拉唯一刻意不设游客商店的修道院。空间策略与游客量也相互强化：积极面向旅游的 Great Meteoron、St Stephen 吸引最多游客，而相对被动的 Holy Trinity、Roussanou 游客明显较少。

本章结论指出，前面识别出的三个管理问题——修道与旅游分离、过度强调旅游、修道生活适应旅游压力——都被具体写进了空间。共同体越来越被压缩，院内明确分成修士/修女与游客两个世界，共同体甚至难以在传统空间里正常敬拜，于是不得不创造新空间。这不是一般的便利性扩建，而是关系到修道生活能否继续的存在性需求。与此同时，游客被排除在真实的敬拜活动之外，也越来越难与修士、修女交流；很多游客只看到雇员，以为修道院已不再使用。作者由此提出一个悖论：共同体越试图依据“慈善—传教式”理念向游客开放、拥抱游客，而不是依照传统保持一定封闭和内向、把敬拜上帝置于中心，就越把游客排除在真正的修道生活之外，使其甚至无法认识这里首先是敬拜场所。今天真正参与礼拜的主要仍是当地会众，而这种结构本身也并不完全符合作者所理解的东正教修道传统。

Chapter 11. Conclusion

第11章：结论

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 48

Conclusion

The most important factor that has affected the life of Meteora throughout its recent history is the growth of the tourism industry. The Meteora monastic communities, in the context of their philanthropic-missionary approach to monasticicm, have willingly accepted the development of tourism and their role in it. This acceptance has brought considerable power to the monastic communities in the site’s operation and management in economic, social, and political terms – and a most significant position of theirs in the tourism and heritage industry. At the same time, however, this acceptance has caused serious problems in the operation and management of the site: the separation between monasticism, heritage protection and tourism operation; an increased emphasis on tourism; and the adjustment of monasticism to the pressure of tourism. These problems have been manifested through changes in the use and arrangement of space: the monastic communities have become increasingly restricted within their space; the space has been clearly divided between the monastic communities on the one hand and the visitors on the other; and the monastic communities have found it difficult to conduct their worship of God in the existing space, and thus have created new spaces. These problems became evident over the course of the recent history of the site, in phase B and especially in phase C. However, the roots of these problems can be traced back to the first appearance of the philanthropic-missionary approach in the monastic life of Meteora with the re-establishment of the monastic communities on the site in the 1960s. To be more specific, Kouros, a member of the local community at that time, highlighted the clear separation between the monastic function of the site, the heritage protection and the tourism development, and stated that, unlike heritage protection and tourist exploitation, the monastic (in the sense of ascetic) function of the site will be very difficult to maintain in the future, and can be maintained only within the context of heritage protection and especially tourism development. His exact words are as follows:

Meteora as a fabulous, flourishing monastic centre and a significant religious centre undoubtedly does not exist any longer. But it does exist, and will always exist, as an invaluable holy trust/keeper of Orthodox Christianity… The Meteora monasteries are already significant religious museums thanks to their history and thanks to the many treasures that are still kept there… Even if it is not an ascetic centre with the old meaning any

longer, Meteora is at least a trust of holy treasures, religious artworks, written sources and scientific knowledge…

Meteora, as a location and as a historic content is undoubtedly something unique… Within the archaeological cycle of the country, referring to older times and all other types of Greek civilizations, the uniqueness of Meteora in terms of location and in terms of the type of history renders the site a very interesting change for those willing to know Greece… [hence] the tourism potential and the tourism exploitation of the Meteora area [by the

government authorities]... Thus if not all the monasteries, at least the five of the monasteries that exist and are active, are protected very effectively, are growing and getting organised, thus presenting ideal conditions for their future maintenance. (Kouros 1965, 43−47)

The analysis of the operation and management of the site over the course of the recent history of the site clearly suggests that Kouros was right. The objectives of the Meteora monastic communities in the context of their philanthropic-missionary approach seem to have been successfully applied in the case of Meteora. Today Meteora has become a popular tourist destination promoting the Orthodox faith to hundreds of thousands of visitors. It is a well-maintained heritage site reflecting strength and glory. At the same time it is an important monastic site with monastic communities that are flourishing and increasing in size and have a significant contribution to the wider society (Meteora Monasteries 1994a, 37−43; Meteora Monasteries 1995, 10; Anastasiou 1994a, 204−206; Anastasiou 1990, 391−392). An assessment of the operation and management of the site based on the principles of the Orthodox Tradition, however, leads to completely different conclusions. The vast majority of the visitors are unable to participate in the ritual life of the monasteries, and most of the time are not even aware of it. There is an increasing and confusing construction activity, not always in accordance with the principles of the Orthodox monastic Tradition, with often irreversible effects on the fabric and the space of the site. Meteora is not a flourishing monastic site either. Monastic life is suppressed, under the influence of the tourism industry, and the monastic communities are increasingly restricted within their monasteries, in oppressing need of new space within and even outside their site. The monastic communities are in some cases increasing in size, yet mostly in an attempt to deal with the increasing pressure of tourism. The monastic communities seem unable to manage their site, given the inactivity of the Assembly. Therefore, the objectives of 'philanthropic-missionary' approach do not conform to the principles of the Orthodox Tradition, and have been applied at Meteora at the expense of the site and its monastic communities. Tourism, accepted by the monastic communities as a means to promote the Orthodox monastic life to the outside world, has ended up affecting the reason that 'brought' it and made it develop at the site, i.e. monastic life. From this analysis, it appears that the Meteora monastic communities, with the help of the heritage authorities and the other communities protecting and using the site, should move away from the 'philanthropic-missionary' approach to monasticism and concentrate more on the principles of the Orthodox Tradition, redefining their everyday monastic life and their attitude towards the visitors and the outside world: the focus will be diverted from developing tourism to worshipping God, and tourism operation and heritage protection will be incorporated within monastic life. This suggestion about an increased emphasis on the Orthodox Tradition does not mean fossilisation in the face of a changing world, but an attempt to sustain the ongoing change in terms of seeking a new balance between monasticism, heritage protection and tourism operation, and thus maintain relevant to the contemporary society.

PART III

Towards a New Approach to Conservation: A Living Heritage Approach

中文译文 · 阅读单元 48

【第11章：结论】作者再次强调，近代迈泰奥拉最重要的变化因素是旅游业增长。修道共同体在“慈善—传教式”修道观下主动接受旅游及自身在其中的角色，因此获得显著的经济、社会和政治权力，也在旅游和遗产产业中取得重要位置。但这种接受同时制造了严重问题：修道生活、遗产保护和旅游运行彼此分离；旅游被过度强调；修道生活被迫适应旅游压力。空间层面的结果是共同体越来越被限制，修道空间被明确分成“共同体”和“访客”两个领域，传统空间难以满足敬拜需求，于是不断出现新建筑和新空间。这些问题在B阶段、尤其C阶段最明显，但根源可追溯到1960年代共同体重建时“慈善—传教式”修道观的进入。

作者引用当时当地人 Kouros 的判断：作为繁荣的传统苦修中心，迈泰奥拉已经不复存在；但作为东正教神圣遗产、宗教艺术、文献和知识的保存地，它仍会存在。即使不再是旧意义上的苦修中心，它可以作为“宗教博物馆”和希腊独特历史景观被有效保护和旅游利用。后来的发展在某种意义上证明了这一判断。

如果按照“慈善—传教式”目标来评价，迈泰奥拉似乎非常成功：今天它是著名旅游目的地，向数十万游客传播东正教；它也是维护良好、呈现力量和荣耀的遗产地；修道共同体人数有所增长，也通过慈善和公共活动对社会产生影响。然而，如果按照东正教传统本身的原则评估，结论却完全不同。绝大多数游客不能参与礼仪，甚至意识不到礼仪生活；大量建设活动复杂而混乱，并不总符合修道传统，对材料和空间造成不可逆影响；修道生活没有真正繁荣，反而被旅游产业压缩，共同体越来越退缩到边缘，迫切需要在原院内外寻找新空间。有些共同体人

数增加，也主要是为了应付旅游压力；而“圣修道院大会”长期不运作，又说明共同体整体上没有形成有效统一管理。

因此，作者认为“慈善—传教式”目标并不真正符合东正教传统，它在迈泰奥拉的实施实际上以遗址和共同体自身为代价。旅游原本被共同体当作向外界传播修道生活的工具，最终却反过来改变、压缩了产生旅游吸引力的修道生活本身。作者建议，修道共同体应在遗产机构和其他相关群体帮助下，逐渐摆脱“慈善—传教式”框架，更集中于东正教传统原则：把中心从“发展旅游”重新移向“敬拜上帝”，再把旅游运行和遗产保护纳入修道生活，而不是让修道生活从属于二者。这种回到传统并不意味着把遗址冻结在过去，而是要在持续变化的世界中重新寻找修道、遗产保护和旅游之间的动态平衡，使迈泰奥拉继续与当代社会发生关系。

Chapter 12. Towards a new approach to the definition of living heritage sites

第12章：走向活态遗产地的新定义

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 49

Towards a new approach to the definition of living heritage sites

Continuity (criteria)

It was shown that continuity is the key concept for the definition of a living heritage site; yet, there are cases in which continuity may not be linked to an actual site or may be undermined by the association of other communities to a site (Part 1). In an attempt to link continuity with the site and prioritise it over the other communities' associations with and uses of the site, the following set of criteria should be offered, which are inextricably linked to each other (figure 48): a) Primarily, the continuity of the heritage site's original function – the purpose for which the heritage site was originally intended. Function is seen as the root of a living heritage site. In the Orthodox Church, as demonstrated in the case of Meteora, heritage is rooted in the Tradition and is a purely functional one: it acquires its existence and meaning exclusively within the conduct of the worship of God (the Holy Liturgy), as followed and continually developed over time by the monastic communities of the site. In a similar context, in Buddhism, continuity is considered to be rooted in the context of religion itself and then applied in the context of heritage. The Buddha, Dhamma [the teachings of Buddha] and Sangha [the order of monks of Buddha], known as the Triple Gems, constitute the core of Buddhist religion, and are still living. Buddhist heritage supported the Buddhist religion throughout its history, and is still living (Wijesuriya 2005, 30−33). In this context, a cetiya/stupa – a permanent structure of Buddhist monasteries built to enshrine relics – should 'be seen only in its full functional state and convey the symbolic meaning it represents' (Rahula 1956, 284). In a similar example, in Hinduism continuity is also seen as rooted in religion and particularly in the continuity of the conduct of religious rituals still performed on the sites in accordance with the 'Agamas' (i.e. a codified set of rules governing the practice of religion and ritual as well as the operation and the construction of Hindu Temples) (Archaeological Survey of India 2003, 262 and 8). In another example, the Kasubi tombs in Uganda (a World Heritage Site) have retained over time their function as burial places for the Buganda Kings (Kigongo 2005, 34−36; Ndoro 2004, 84; Munjeri 2004b, 77−78). b) The continuity of the community's connection with the heritage site. There is a specific community group that created the living heritage site and sustains the original function of the site, retains its original connection with the site over time and still considers the site an integral part of its contemporary life in terms of its identity, pride, self-esteem, structure and well-being,

has a strong sense of ownership/custodianship for the site and sees the caring for the site as its own inherent obligation (see Poulios 2011; Wijesuriya 2005, 30 and 37; Chapagain 2013; Sharma 2013). This community, referred to as 'core community', is seen as an inseparable part of the living heritage site, and is thus clearly differentiated from the other community groups involved in the life of the site, often referred to as the 'broader community' (or 'peripheral communities'). At Meteora, it is the monastic communities that sustain the function, define and create space, and take care of the site. The monastic communities cannot define themselves detached from the site, considering it their only home on earth and their only path that would lead them – through the unification with Christ – to their true, eternal home Paradise). In New Zealand, the indigenous heritage of tangata whenua relates to whanau, hapu, and iwi communities:

It shapes identity and enhances well-being, and it has particular cultural meanings and values for the present, and associations with those who have gone before. Indigenous cultural heritage brings with it responsibilities of guardianship and the practical application and passing on of associated knowledge, traditional skills, and practices. (ICOMOS New Zealand 2010, article 3)

c) The continuity of the care of the heritage site by the community, as expressed through community's management (and ownership) mechanisms and maintenance practices. These mechanisms

and practices are traditional (or established over time), i.e. based on skills, materials and techniques that existed before the formation of the modern scientific-based principles and practices of conservation. Traditional management mechanisms consist of a series of community norms to promote the safeguarding of a site including sacred and pragmatic controls, customary laws, traditions, taboos, myths and rites (Edroma 2001, 55−56; see also Joffroy 2005, 2−4; Ndoro 2004, 81). Traditional management mechanisms at the site of Meteora constitute the typicon, the Holy Assembly, and the Abbot of each monastery. The typicon, as noted above, is not a static document but is learnt in practice with the conduct of worship on an everyday basis, and is thus evolving in accordance with the changing needs of the monastic community over time. In another example, traditional management mechanisms at the site of Kasubi, Uganda (a World Heritage Site) are: the royal tombs are shielded behind bark-cloth curtains and access is limited to the spiritual guardian (Nalinga) and the prime minister of the Buganda Kingdom (Katikkiro), people are not allowed to turn their back inside the main tomb (Azaala-Mpanga) and shoes are removed as a sign of respect (Munjeri 2004b, 77; Kigongo 2005, 31 and 34−36). These management mechanisms are often documented, i.e. they are based on, and guided by, texts. An example of such a text, in Orthodox monastic sites such as Meteora, is the typicon. Other examples of such texts are Mayamatha for Buddhist temples and Agamas and Vedas for Hindu temples (see Wijesuriya 2000, 102; Wijesuriya 2005, 34−37; Archaeological Survey of India 2003, 262−263; Champakalakshmi 2001, 18−20). There are cases, however, in which these mechanisms are not based on written sources but have passed down through generations, as in the case of a large part of the Orthodox Tradition including the rituals for the conduct of the Holy Liturgy. With regards to the traditional maintenance practices, though the material is generally preserved, these practices may have completely different and even contradictory implications for the material of the sites. Examples of such practices, which show a wide range of implications for the material, are the following:

中文译文 · 阅读单元 49

【第12章：走向一种新的活态遗产地定义——连续性及其标准】前文已经说明，“连续性（continuity）”是界定活态遗产地的核心概念。但连续性有时未必固定在某个具体遗址上，也可能因其他群体与遗址建立新的关系而被削弱。为了把连续性明确地锚定在遗址本身，并使它在与其他群体的联系和使用发生竞争时具有优先地位，作者提出四项彼此不可分割的标准。

第一，是遗产地“原初功能”的连续性，即该遗址最初被创造出来的目的是否仍然持续。作者把功能视为活态遗产的根。以东正教为例，迈泰奥拉的遗产扎根于“传统”，其意义首先来自礼拜上帝和圣礼实践，并由修道共同体在时间中持续遵循、发展。佛教的情况类似：佛、法、僧“三宝”仍然是活着的宗教核心，佛教遗产之所以“活着”，在于它持续服务宗教；　堵坡等建筑只有在完整功能状态下才能传递其象征意义。印度教遗产也以持续依照 Agamas 等规范举行仪式为核心。乌干达 Kasubi 王陵则持续作为 Buganda 国王的安葬地。由此，功能连续性不是附加属性，而是界定活态遗产是否仍“活着”的第一基础。

第二，是“共同体与遗址联系”的连续性。活态遗产通常存在一个创造遗址、维持其原初功能、在时间中持续保有原初联系、并仍把它视为当代生活不可分割部分的特定共同体。遗址与这个共同体的身份、尊严、自我认同、社会结构和福祉紧密相连，共同体因而具有强烈的所有权/守护权意识，并把照护遗址视为自身固有义务。作者把它称为“核心共同体（core community）”，并将其与同样会参与遗址生活、但联系性质不同的“更广泛共同体（broader community）”区分开来。迈泰奥拉的核心共同体就是修道共同体：它们维持修道功能、定义并持续创造空间、照护遗址；修士无法把自己同修道院分离，修道院是其尘世唯一的家，也是通往永恒家园的道路。新西兰 tangata whenua 的原住民遗产同样塑造 whanau、hapu、iwi 等共同体的身份和福祉，并伴随守护责任以及知识、技能和实践的代际传承。

第三，是“共同体照护遗产”的连续性，它体现在共同体自己的管理/所有权机制和维护实践中。这些机制与实践

通常是传统的，或至少在现代科学保护原则形成之前就已经长期建立。传统管理机制可以包括神圣和实用层面的禁忌、习惯法、传统、神话、仪式等。迈泰奥拉的 typicon、圣修道院大会和各院院长就是这种机制。typicon 也并非固定不变的文件，而是在每日敬拜实践中被学习，并随共同体需要持续演化。乌干达 Kasubi 王陵则通过树皮布帘、进入主墓的身份限制、不得背向墓葬、脱鞋等规则维持神圣秩序。这些机制有时有书面文本作依据，如东正教 typicon、佛教寺院规范、印度教 Agamas 与 Vedas；有时则主要依靠口传和代际实践，如东正教礼仪的许多组成部分。

在维护实践方面，核心共同体虽然一般也关心物质遗存，却可能采用与现代保护理念完全不同、甚至相冲突的方式。作者接下来列出多种形式，说明“照护”并不等于把原材料原封不动保存。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 50

–– Partial replacement of existing material with same material. This practice takes place irregularly, when and where repairs are needed. This process is mostly applied in structures made of fragile, normally organic, materials, often in hostile climates. The continual renewal of the individual architectural parts of the Meteora monasteries, incorporated in harmony within the architectural type of the monasteries, is an example of such a practice. Other examples: Wooden Shinto, Buddhist and even contemporary buildings in Japan (Larsen 1988; Larsen and Ito 1990; Inaba 2005, 51−52; Pressouyre 1996, 12); Kasubi tombs in Uganda (Kigongo 2005, 34−36; Ndoro 2004, 84; Munjeri 2004b, 77−78); the Great Mosques of Timbuktu in Mali (Ould Sidi and Joffroy 2005, 23−25); mud houses in Northern Ghana and Southern Burkina Faso decorated by groups of Nankani women (Kwami and Taxil 2005, 75−79); and Buddhist and Hindu temples (Wijesuriya 2005, 34; Archaeological Survey of India 2003, 262−263). –– Partial renewal of existing material with different material. This practice is applied mostly in cases where the replacement material is stronger and longer-lasting, less expensive and/ or easier to find than the existing one. This practice often serves broader social, economic or religious purposes as well (see Joffroy 2005, 3−4). Examples: The tribes of Bambara, Senufo and Bozo in Mali replace the mud roofs of their houses with ones made of corrugated iron (pers. comm. Renata Anna Walicka-Zeh); in the sacred forest of Bamezoume in Benin local people replace wooden parts of statues with others made of metal car (and other) parts. –– Total physical renewal. This practice serves primarily symbolic, ritual reasons (rather than practical reasons related to the decay of the existing material, as in the case of partial replacement of existing material with same material: see above). Examples: ‘Shikinen

Zotai’ is a Shinto ritual in Japan that requires renewing of the shrine buildings of the entire precinct every twenty years, dating back to the seventh century (Inaba 2005, 51-54; Inaba 1995, 331−332; Ito 1995, 44); the main façade of the Temple of Arou is roughcast with clay, during the annual feast of Bulo in the Dogon country in Mali (Cisse 2005, 90−94); in Nagaland, India, houses with central post are reconstructed in their entire precinct every twelve years, as part of a local tribal tradition (pers. comm. Ranesh Ray); the repainting of rock art images as a way of renewing the spiritual power of the images the repainting of rock art images as a way of renewing the spiritual power of the images (see Walderhaug Saetersdal 2000, 163−180), as with Wandjina rock images in the Kimberley area in Australia (Mowaljarlai et al. 1988; Mowaljarlai and Peck 1987; Bowdler 1988, 517−523). –– Immersion of physical material. This practice is in most of the cases part of a ritual ceremony. Examples: immersion of (ritual) objects as part of rituals of Zuni Ahayuda, New Mexico (Edmund Ladd, 1992, quoted in Sease 1998, 106); immersion of clay, plaster and wax (ritual) objects as part of Hindu rituals in India: during Durga Dussehra-Durga Puja Festival, Ganesh Chaturthi Festival in Maharash, Samachakeva Festival in Bihar State, and Rath Jatra Festival (Berkson 1995, 215−219; pers. comm. Ranesh Ray). –– Replacement of the entire structure with a new one. Examples: In Buddhism and Hinduism the belief is that a statue, if broken, loses its sacredness and is thus to be replaced not partially but as a whole. This practice is illustrated in the case of the Buddhist statue of Ta Reach at Angkor Wat in Cambodia as part of the folk religion known as ‘Nakta’ (Shimotsuma, Stovel and Warrack 2003, 16) and in the case of the Temple of the Tooth Relic in Sri Lanka (see Part 1; Wijesuriya 2000).

Behind these differing approaches towards the fabric there appears to be a common underlying philosophy. These practices demonstrate that the physical, material structure may be given a low priority. Emphasis is not considered to lie in the material and in elements of materiality of sites and objects, such as: the age of a structure, the type of material, and the structure itself. Emphasis is on the non-physical elements of sites and objects: the sites’ and objects’ wider cultural significance and conceptual integrity. Thus, sites and objects are ‘often described culturally, in terms of “process” rather than “product” ’ (Clavir 2002, 245; see also Ward 1992, 33−37; Mowaljarlai et al. 1988). Changes in the fabric are an inseparable part of this process, and are thus an

essential requirement for the survival and continuation of a living heritage site. It should be stressed that the application of practices in which the physical, material structure may be given a low priority does not mean that the core community does not care about the material. The core community cares about the material, but this caring is placed in a broad context and scope, that of the continuity of community's connection with heritage. Jones made the following remark:

the materiality of artifacts and monuments is implicated in, indeed lives at the heart of, their biographies: things are born, they grow, breathe, live and die; they are conceived as having a soul and a personality, and as being nourished and harmed by other substances such as air, soil and water. (2006, 122)

d) The continual process of evolving tangible and intangible heritage expressions of a site / of the evolving space of a site (tangible and intangible heritage expressions are seen as interlinked, comprising a unified space). The space is evolving yet within the traditional parameters as defined by continuity and in accordance with the original function of the sites. In this sense, the evolution of the space is embraced as a part of the continuity, and is seen as an essential requirement for the maintenance of a living heritage site over time to the present. As it was shown, the art of the Orthodox Church in all its expressions (such as architecture, sculpture, painting, poetry, and

music) is continually evolving, always within the Orthodox Tradition centred on the worship of God. In this context, the space of the Meteora monasteries (including: the forms of monastic space, the external space of the monastery, the internal space of the monastery and the route within the monastery) is continually evolving, always within the Orthodox Tradition centred on the worship of God. Other examples: In Hinduism, the temples maintain over time a close relationship with their surrounding urban settlement in terms of spatial arrangement, with the temple forming the centre around which the surrounding settlement is developed – thus called 'temple town' (Archaeological Survey of India 2003, 21−27 and 262−264). In Sri Lanka, several temples were built over the course of time for the housing of the Tooth Relic of Buddha, with the latest/current one being the so-called Temple of the Tooth Relic in the World Heritage city of Kandy (Wijesuriya 2000). In Benin, temples constructed for the conduct of voodoo rituals have shifted several times depending on circumstances such as the appointment of a new priest for the conduct of the rituals (Munjeri 2001, 17−18; Munjeri 2004a, 15−16). In Kokologo in Burkina Faso, the Kings traditionally have a new palace built after the former King dies (pers. com. Sophie Hsu Ming).

中文译文 · 阅读单元 50

第一类，是用同样材料局部替换现有材料。这种做法往往在需要维修时不定期进行，特别适用于脆弱的有机材料或严酷气候中的建筑。迈泰奥拉修道院不断更新局部建筑构件、同时保持总体建筑类型，就是例子；日本木构神社和佛寺、乌干达 Kasubi 王陵、马里廷巴克图大清真寺、加纳北部和布基纳法索南部由 Nankani 女性装饰的泥屋，以及一些佛教、印度教寺庙也有类似实践。

第二类，是用不同材料局部更新，通常因为新材料更耐久、更便宜或更容易取得，有时也服务更广泛的社会、经济或宗教目的。例如马里的 Bambara、Senufo、Bozo 群体会把泥屋屋顶换成波纹铁皮；贝宁 Bamezoume 圣林里，居民会用汽车等金属零件替换雕像的木质部分。

第三类，是"整体物质更新"，主要服务象征或仪式需要，而不是因为现有材料已损坏。日本神道的 Shikinen Zotai 传统自7世纪以来要求每20年重建神社全部建筑；马里多贡地区 Arou 神庙在年度 Bulo 节重新以黏土抹面；印度 Nagaland 某些部落传统每12年重建以中央柱为核心的整套住宅；澳大利亚 Kimberley 的 Wandjina 岩画也会通过重绘来更新图像的精神力量。

第四类，是把物质对象浸入水中，通常属于仪式过程，例如新墨西哥 Zuni Ahayuda 的仪式物件，以及印度多个印度教节庆中用黏土、石膏、蜡制作的神像或仪式对象在仪式结束后被投入水中。

第五类，是把整件结构或物件替换为新的。佛教和印度教中，神像一旦破损可能被认为失去神圣性，因此不是局部修补，而是整体更换。吴哥窟 Ta Reach 佛像以及斯里兰卡佛牙寺都说明这种逻辑。

这些看似差异很大的材料实践背后，有一个共同理念：物理材料本身的优先级可能并不高。重点不在一座结构"有多老"、使用何种原材料，甚至不在某一件物体本身，而在遗址和物件更广泛的文化意义与概念完整性。因此，遗产往往以"过程"而非"产品"的方式被理解，材料变化是过程的一部分，也是活态遗产得以持续生存的必要条件。这并不等于核心共同体不在乎材料，而是把材料照护放进"共同体与遗产联系的连续性"这一更大框架

。物件也可被理解为有自己的生命史：它们出生、生长、呼吸、生活、死亡，并与空气、土壤、水等其他物质发生关系。

第四项连续性标准，是“有形与无形遗产表达/遗址空间持续演化的过程”。有形与无形不应被分割，而应被理解为统一空间。空间可以变化，但变化发生在连续性所规定的传统参数内，并服务遗址原初功能。东正教艺术的建筑、雕塑、绘画、诗歌、音乐一直在演变，却始终围绕敬拜上帝；迈泰奥拉修道空间的形式、外部空间、内部空间和行进路线也同样在传统框架内演化。印度教“寺庙城市”中，寺庙与周边城市布局共同发展；斯里兰卡佛牙遗物在历史上先后由不同寺庙容纳；贝宁伏都教寺庙会因祭司更替而迁移；布基纳法索 Kokologo 的国王去世后，传统上新王还会建造新的王宫。变化本身因此可以是连续性的组成部分。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 51

The way continuity has evolved over time to present

Continuity, as discussed above (consisting of all four elements), continually evolves over time to the present, in response to the changing political, economic, historic and social circumstances at a local, national and international level. At Meteora, continuity (i.e. the Orthodox Tradition as followed by the monastic communities of the site) was affected by a series of major factors. First, in the 1940s and the 1950s, continuity at Meteora was affected by the outbreak of World War II and the Civil War as follows:

a) Concerning the continuity of the heritage site’s original function: severe restriction and even cease of the monastic function of the majority of the monasteries, and in some cases the operation of guesthouses inside the monasteries. b) Concerning the continuity of the community’s connection with the heritage site: abandonment of the monasteries, and consequently break of the temporal continuity of the monastic communities. As a consequence, the new monastic communities, i.e. those reestablished on the site in the 1960s, did not have the experience of the site, and were not aware of the specific needs of monastic life on the site. c) Concerning the continuity of community’s care for the heritage site: neglect for the conservation and management of the monasteries. d) Concerning the process of evolving tangible and intangible heritage expressions / of the evolving space of the site: collapsing of monasteries, and thefts occurring in the monasteries.

Second, after the 1960s, upon the re-establishment of the monastic communities on the site, continuity at Meteora was affected by two other factors: the philanthropic-missionary approach to monasticism (i.e. a different approach to monasticism that was not strictly within the Orthodox Tradition, and was brought from abroad through the ‘ecclesiastical organisations’); and the growth of the tourism and heritage industries. These two factors became interlinked to each other: the Meteora monastic communities accepted the growth of the tourism and heritage industries in the context of their philanthropic-missionary approach to monasticism. The two factors affected continuity as follows (it should be noted that the impact varied among the monasteries, depending on the different attitude of each monastic community towards heritage and tourism industries based on their differing degree of commitment to the philanthropic-missionary approach):

a) Concerning the continuity of the site’s original function. Meteora is no longer used exclusively as a monastic site, but has increasingly become a heritage site and a tourist attraction as well. As a result, the following problems in the operation and management of the site appeared: separation between monasticism and tourism, increased emphasis on tourism, and increasing adjustment of monastic life to the pressure of tourism. b) Concerning the continuity of the community’s connection with the site. The introduction of the philanthropic-missionary approach to the site, on the one hand, affected the way the monastic communities see monasticism, Meteora and their relationship with the outside world: Meteora is no longer considered simply a place for the worship of God, but also a place for the conduct of philanthropic-missionary activity for the benefit of the wider society. In this sense, the conduct of philanthropic-missionary activity is considered the most significant contribution as well as responsibility of the monastic community towards the wider society and, therefore, the entire operation and management of the site has to be incorporated within it. The growth of tourism and heritage industries, on the other hand, affected the way the outside world sees Meteora and its relationship with the monastic communities: Meteora is no longer seen simply as a monastic site, but mainly as a tourist attraction and a place of heritage significance. The combined influence of these two factors affected the site in various ways: The monastic communities see their site’s position in the tourism industry as a means to accumulate increased power and promote the Orthodox faith to the visitors. Also, the monastic communities, due to the presence of the visitors, feel increasingly restricted within their site, find it difficult to conduct the worship of God, are hindered from communicating with the visitors, and some members of them are eventually

made to leave the site; while in other cases the monastic communities feel the need to increase in size mostly in an attempt to deal with the increasing pressure of tourism. c) On the continuity of community's care of the heritage site (as expressed through community's management mechanisms and maintenance practices). This is illustrated in the inactivity of the Assembly, due to the conflicting views of the Meteora monastic communities on the character and operation of the site. d) On the process of evolving tangible and intangible heritage expressions / of the evolving space of the site. At Meteora, the monastic communities become increasingly restricted within their space, find it difficult to conduct their worship of God in the existing space and subsequently feel the need to create new spaces through the construction of further buildings. As a consequence, the external and the internal space of the monasteries (as defined by the Tradition of the Orthodox Church) change, while existing buildings are unavoidably replaced in terms of function, and hence the monasteries demonstrate a variety of continually changing spatial arrangements with buildings of interwoven and conflicting functions. An example of an intangible heritage expression that has been affected by the monastic communities' acceptance of the tourism industry is the practice of the striking of the simantron in the Roussanou monastery at the request of the visitors.

In other Byzantine heritage sites in Greece that are still in use (also inscribed on the World Heritage List), continuity has evolved over time in different ways. For example, Mystras was a major Byzantine city that gradually fell in decline and eventually in the fifteenth century ceased to exist as a result of the Ottoman conquest. In 1921, Mystras was declared a national heritage site, and the few local people still residing in the site were gradually removed, their residences were demolished and the site was fenced off. Pantanassa Monastery, located on the site, ceased to function in 1770 until the second half of the nineteenth century, when members of the local community formed a small monastic community. This monastic community has remained to present, rendering Pantanassa 'a living monastery within a necropolis' (Poulios 2010c) (figures 49 and 50). The regulations for the operation of the site as a heritage site and also as a tourist destination

中文译文 · 阅读单元 51

【连续性如何演化到当下】上述四项连续性并不是静止状态，而会随着地方、国家和国际层面的政治、经济、历史和社会条件持续变化。迈泰奥拉提供了清楚例子。

第一，1940年代至50年代，二战和内战冲击了连续性的四个方面：在原初功能上，多数修道院的修道功能受到严重限制甚至中止，有些院内还开设旅馆；在共同体联系上，修道院被弃置，修道共同体的时间连续性断裂，1960年代重建的新共同体因此缺少对遗址的亲身经验，不熟悉当地修道生活的具体需要；在共同体照护上，保护和管理长期被忽视；在有形/无形表达和空间演化上，则出现建筑倒塌和盗窃。

第二，1960年代修道共同体重建以后，连续性又受到两个相互作用的因素影响：一是由外部"教会组织"带入、并不严格属于传统东正教修道原则的"慈善—传教式"修道观；二是遗产产业和旅游业增长。两者互相强化，因为共同体正是在这种修道观框架内接受旅游和遗产产业。

对原初功能而言，迈泰奥拉不再只作为修道场所使用，也越来越成为遗产地和旅游景点，进而出现修道与旅游分离、旅游被过度强调、修道生活适应旅游压力等管理问题。对共同体联系而言，"慈善—传教式"理念改变了修士理解迈泰奥拉和外部世界的方式：迈泰奥拉不再仅是敬拜上帝的场所，也被视为向更大社会开展慈善与传教活动的基地，整个运营管理都被纳入这种目标；与此同时，旅游和遗产产业又改变外界看待迈泰奥拉的方式，使它从修道场所转向主要被理解为旅游吸引物和遗产地。两种力量共同作用后，共同体把旅游地位当作积累权力、传播信仰的手段，但也因游客存在越来越被压缩，难以敬拜和与访客交流，有人最终离开；某些修道院人数增加，也主要是为了应付旅游压力。

对共同体照护而言，最典型的变化是圣修道院大会长期不活跃，反映不同共同体对遗址性质和运行方式的分歧。对有形/无形表达和空间而言，共同体被不断压缩，难以在原空间敬拜，只能通过新建建筑创造新空间；传统内外空间关系改变，旧建筑在功能上被替代，形成彼此交错、相互冲突的空间组合。Roussanou 为游客要求敲 simantron，则说明无形实践同样会在旅游压力下改变。

作者随后把迈泰奥拉与其他仍在使用的拜占庭遗产比较。Mystras
作为城市在奥斯曼征服后衰落，现代被国家作为遗产地管理，居民被迁出、建筑被拆，只有 Pantanassa 修道院后来恢复了小规模修道生活，形成"死城中的活修道院"；其生活必须服从国家对遗产地和旅游地的规定。Mount Athos 则从10世纪以来保持修道活动和相对独立的法律—行政地位，各修道共同体通过自己的正式大会管理地区

，并严格限制游客，例如维持禁止女性进入的 avaton
和每日人数限制；这种强大共同体权力也给国家保护原有材料带来挑战。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 52

are defined by the State / the Ministry of Culture, and the monastic community adjusts its life accordingly (Poulios 2010c; Poulios forthcoming). In another example, the monastic complex of Mount Athos has been in use and has retained its ritual activities as well as its official, legal administrative and management status as a relatively independent region from the outside world from the tenth century throughout Byzantine and Ottoman period up to present day. Mount Athos is an exceptional case in terms of its official, legal administrative and management status: it is legally recognised, on the basis of its traditional law, as a semi-independent region within the state of Greece, with the monastic communities having the administrative and management control through their own official body (the Assembly of the Holy Monasteries of Mount Athos). The site is open to visitors with considerable restrictions: the avaton (i.e. the exclusion of women from entering a monastic site) still continues, and still the number of visitors allowed into the site per day is limited to a specific number. The power of the monastic communities at local, state and even international level pose significant challenges to the protection of the original fabric of the site by the State / the Ministry of Culture (Chatzigogas 2005). The way continuity has evolved over time has been also examined in the cases of the Hindu Temples of Tanjore, Srirangam and Tirupati in India (Poulios 2010b; Poulios 2011; Poulios 2008). Specifically, the Tanjore Temple, on the one hand, where the religious tradition has been suppressed over time, operates today under the responsibility of the Government of India (through the Archaeological Survey of India), with reference to the modern scientific-based principles and practices and with an emphasis on the preservation of its original space and fabric. The Srirangam Temple and the Tirupati Temple, on the other hand, where the religious tradition has been maintained and even enhanced over time, are managed mostly by the local community and by the

Temple Board accordingly. The power of the communities creates several complexities to the management of the sites by the heritage authorities, with implications for the original condition of the space and fabric of the sites (figure 51). In the case of the Temple of the Tooth Relic in Kandy in Sri Lanka (a World Heritage Site), continuity has been maintained and even enhanced over the course of time under the constant support from the royal families and the governors of the country. The monastic community of the site retains its most significant, legally established, power in the operation and management of the site, beyond the control of the heritage authorities. The site remains a most significant religious and pilgrimage centre, and, clearly at a secondary level, a heritage site of national and international significance. The spatial arrangement and the fabric of the site are continually changing in accordance with the original function of the site (see Part 1).

中文译文 · 阅读单元 52

类似比较还可见于印度和斯里兰卡。印度 Tanjore 神庙的宗教传统在历史中受到压缩，今天主要由印度政府的考古机构按照现代科学保护原则管理，强调保存原有材料和空间。Srirangam 与 Tirupati 则相反，宗教传统不仅延续而且增强，地方共同体和寺庙管理委员会拥有更强控制力，因此国家遗产机构在管理中面对更多复杂性，原有空间和材料也更容易因持续宗教使用而变化。

斯里兰卡康提佛牙寺的连续性同样在王室与历届政府支持下长期保持并增强，寺院共同体在法律上持续掌握遗址运行和管理的关键权力，超出一般遗产机构的直接控制。它首先仍是重要宗教和朝圣中心，其次才是国家和国际遗产地；空间布局和材料也会依照原初宗教功能不断变化。作者借这些对照强调：连续性的具体历史不同，会直接塑造今天遗产机构、核心共同体与其他使用者之间的权力结构。

Chapter 13. Why living heritage sites cannot be embraced within current approaches to conservation?

第13章：为什么现有保护方法无法容纳活态遗产地?

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 53

Why living heritage sites cannot be embraced within the current approaches to conservation?

Discontinuity vs. continuity (criteria)

The current theoretical framework and practice of heritage conservation in the context of a material-based and a values-based approach, despite its developments over time particularly on the basis of the Nara Document on Authenticity (see Part 1), is still based on discontinuity created between the monuments of the past and the people of the present and heavily focuses on the preservation of the authenticity of the fabric (see Part 1), and therefore seems unable to embrace the concept of a living heritage site. This discontinuity created by heritage conservation between the past and the present contradicts the continuity of a living heritage site, as expressed in the four criteria. Specifically: a) The continuity of the heritage site's original function – the purpose for which the site was originally intended. The current theoretical framework and practice of heritage conservation is mostly based on sites whose continuity of function has been broken. b) The continuity of community's connection with the site. In the context of discontinuity, conservation professionals, following a values-based approach, tend to see the core community of a living heritage site simply as a stakeholder group to be identified, taken into consideration and managed, and see the core community's connection with a site simply as a (group's) value to be classified and assessed. The concepts of value and stakeholder group, as classified in strict categories and rigorously assessed by conservation professionals, seem to run counter to the unified organic character of a living heritage site as the outcome of the inseparable connection between the core community and the site. The concept of the subjectivity and equity of values and of stakeholder groups (due to the lack of sufficient criteria and ways to set priorities and choose between them) is not applicable in the case of a living heritage site: in a living heritage site, the core community, because of its special association with the site, is clearly differentiated from the broader community. The concept of the increased power of one leading managing authority, mostly conservation professionals, over all the stakeholder groups seems to run counter to the primary importance and role of the core community in the operation and management of a living heritage site. Therefore, it could be argued that conservation professionals attempt to deprive, in a way, the core community of its special association with a site; they,

instead, tend to establish and justify their own association with a site and their right to keep all stakeholder groups, including the core community, under their control. In this respect, conservation professionals see the concept of a living heritage site within their own association with a site (rather than within the core community's association with the site). c) The continuity of the care of heritage sites by the community as expressed through community's management (and ownership) mechanisms and maintenance practices. The current theoretical framework and practice of heritage conservation, in the context of a material-based and a values-based approach, are based on the notion that authenticity of sites is non-renewable and heavily focuses on the material and on elements of materiality, and on the principle that the power in the designing and implementation of the conservation process is in the hands of the conservation professionals. In this context, heritage conservation can embrace traditional mechanisms and practices only to the (limited) extent that these mechanisms and practices prove to have positive results in the preservation of the fabric of a site, and mostly in connection with modern scientific-based systems and practices and under the control of conservation professionals. The World Heritage concept in particular can take on board only those traditional mechanisms and practices that prove to have positive results in the preservation of the fabric of the sites, in terms of authenticity and integrity: '…which should specify how the outstanding universal value of a property should be preserved' (UNESCO 2005). This emphasis on the preservation of the fabric of the sites implies that many practices would be rather unacceptable to the World Heritage concept. From the variety of practices discussed earlier, only examples of partial replacement of existing material with same material (which may be considered the simplest of the approaches in terms of materiality) can be embraced in the World Heritage context. In this line, some of the sites of this category have been inscribed on the World Heritage List, such as Meteora, the Kasubi tombs in Uganda, the Great Mosques of Timbuktu in Mali, the Hindu Temple at Tanjore in India, and the Buddhist Temple of the Tooth Relic as part of the city of Kandy in Sri Lanka. However, practices that do not consider the significance of the age of a structure (such as repainting of rock images) or that make the defining of the age of a structure very difficult in the first place (such as total physical renewal practices) are unlikely to be embraced within the World Heritage concept. Similarly, practices that do not consider the importance of the type of the original material are unlikely to be taken on board either (examples of such practices: those that define the material on the basis of the function of a structure, as in Hinduism, or those that require renewal of the material by a different material that would serve the function of the structure more effectively, as the partial replacement/renewal of existing material with same or different material). Additionally, practices that do not even consider the significance of an object as a whole (as with the practices of immersion or replacement of objects) are unacceptable to the World Heritage concept. Examples: The repainting of rock images in Australia (a case of total physical renewal) has often faced such accusations as that of 'desecration [of] some of the most significant relics of traditional Aboriginal culture in Australia… [and] irreparable damage [of] part of the cultural heritage of all mankind' (quoted in Bowdler 1988, 520; see also Ward 1992, 32−35). Repainting can be

acceptable to the heritage authorities rather not in sites on the World Heritage List, and still in specific cases such as the Gibb River project and under very strict regulations (such as: not upon existing layers of significant cultural value or in a way that would not destroy the existing paintings, and only after the existing layers have been fully recorded) and still under severe conflicts (Mulvaney and Kamminga 1999, 361; Ward 1992, 32−35; pers. comm. Peter Sutton). In a similar context, in the site of Domboshava, part of Matobo Hills, in Zimbabwe (inscribed on the World Heritage List in 2003), repainting as part of rain-making rituals was banned and the local communities conducting the ritual were removed from the site by the heritage authorities in the 1980s. This ban later led to a serious conflict between the two sides and an act of severe damage to the rock paintings

中文译文 · 阅读单元 53

【第13章：为什么现有保护方法无法真正容纳活态遗产？——“断裂”与“连续”】作者认为，无论材料导向还是价值导向，现代遗产保护虽经历《奈良真实性文件》等重要发展，其基本框架仍建立在“过去的纪念物”与“现在的人”之间的断裂上，并高度重视物质材料真实性。这种断裂与活态遗产的四项连续性标准发生根本冲突。

第一，关于原初功能连续性：现代保护体系最典型的对象，是那些原有功能已经中断的遗址，因此并不以持续功能为理论起点。

第二，关于共同体与遗址联系的连续性：价值导向方法往往把核心共同体仅仅当作众多“利益相关者”之一，把其与遗址的关系转化为一种可分类、可评估的“价值”。但活态遗产是核心共同体与遗址之间不可分割的有机整体，把共同体和价值严格分类、假定彼此主观且平等，反而无法说明核心共同体为何不同于普通游客、居民或其他利益群体。更进一步，价值导向方法仍让遗产专业人员成为最高管理权威，这与核心共同体在活态遗产运行和管理中的首要位置相冲突。作者因此批评说，专业人员表面上把核心共同体纳入管理，实际上可能削弱其特殊联系，同时通过专业权威建立和证明自己对遗址的关系和控制权，最后还是从专业人员自己的联系、而不是核心共同体的联系来定义“活态遗产”。

第三，关于共同体照护的连续性：材料导向和价值导向方法都倾向把真实性视为不可再生资源，把物质实体放在中心，并把保护方案的设计和实施权交给专业人员。因此，传统管理机制和维护实践只有在有利于保存物质实体、能与现代科学方法结合、并处于专业控制之下时，才容易被正式保护体系接受。世界遗产制度尤其要求管理机制说明如何保存“突出普遍价值”的真实性和完整性，于是前文列出的许多活态实践会被排斥。

同材局部更换这类最接近现代材料保护的实践较容易被接受，迈泰奥拉、Kasubi 王陵、廷巴克图大清真寺、Tanjore 神庙、康提佛牙寺等也已进入世界遗产体系。但不强调材料年代的重绘、周期性整体重建，不强调原材料类型的替换，或者仪式性浸没、整件更换等做法，就很难被世界遗产框架容纳。澳大利亚原住民重绘岩画曾被批评为“亵渎”并造成“不可修复损害”，即使后来某些项目得到允许，也往往附带非常严格的记录与操作条件。津巴布韦 Matobo Hills 的 Domboshava 曾禁止祈雨仪式并把当地共同体移出岩画区，后来冲突甚至导致岩画遭到严重破坏，最后只得允许把仪式迁到不影响岩画的区域。日本伊势神宫由于完整保留周期性重建传统，反而长期没有被指定为国家遗产，更谈不上世界遗产；被列为国家纪念物的往往是那些重建传统已经减弱的神社。乌干达 Kasubi 王陵申遗后，遗产机构也阻止当地居民用铁材替换墙体，并重新培训茅草覆盖技术，把后者重新定义为“传统”。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 54

caused by the local communities. The result was that rain-making rituals have been accepted by the heritage authorities of the site, but have been relocated to another part of the site which does not interfere with the rock paintings (Pwiti and Mvenge 1996, 818-21; Taruvinga and Ndoro 2003, 5−9). Rain-making rituals were also banned from the site of Siloswane, also part of Madobo Hills, in Zimbabwe (Taruvinga and Ndoro 2003, 4; Ndoro 2004, 82). In another example, with regard to ‘Shikinen Zotai’ (an example of total physical renewal), Ise Shrine, which is the only shrine which continues the ritual in its pure form/in the entire precinct of the site, has not been designated as a national heritage let alone a World Heritage Site, because the ritual is seen as going beyond the assessments and classification of value and authenticity based on tangible form (Inaba 2005, 54). Only shrines in which the original ritual has not survived or has survived in a faded form have been designated as national heritage monuments, as is the case of ‘Onbashira Matsuri’ of Suwa Shrine (Inaba 2005, 52−53). The case of Kasubi tombs in Uganda could be seen in a similar context: The heritage authorities of the site, those associated with the World Heritage inscription of the site, did not allow local communities to use iron in the making of the

house walls (an example of partial renewal of existing material with different material); they instead re-established, and trained the local communities in, the practice of thatching (a practice of partial replacement of existing material with same material), which they considered to be the ‘traditional’ practice of maintenance of the site (pers. comm. Webber Ndoro; pers. comm. Andrew Reid; Munjeri 2004b, 76−77; Kigongo 2005, 36−37). Therefore, the aforementioned cases tend to imply that practices of caring for sites have to be reduced in their own right or suppressed by heritage authorities in order to be recognised as relevant to official conservation systems, and still at a national heritage rather than a World Heritage level. Given this failure of the World Heritage concept to take on board the majority of the practices of caring for living heritage sites, there are even cases that the declared recognition of a new World Heritage status may become a tool in the hands of national heritage authorities in their attempt to suppress or deny such practices. As it was noted with regard to the practice of repainting,

the phrase which seems to have acted like a bell on the Pavlonial dogs of the heritocracy is ‘cultural heritage of all mankind’ …Defining something as belonging to that transcendant category is a means of excluding anyone who might have a particular interest in it. (Bowdler 1988, 521)

d) The continual process of evolving tangible and intangible heritage expressions / the evolving space of the sites. The current theoretical framework and practice of heritage conservation is mostly based on sites whose process of spatial definition and arrangement has ceased. Generally speaking, evolution/ change of heritage expressions is unlikely to be accepted within conservation. Mehrotra notes:

Most conservation debates discuss change in terms of the loss of something, as opposed to new possibilities, mostly because people (especially the propagators and patrons of conservation effort) will easily react to any sort of new condition as worse than some “magic” moment in the past. (2004, 26)

The failure of the current theoretical framework and practice of heritage conservation, in the context of a material-based and a values-based approach, to embrace living heritage sites is also demonstrated in the site of Meteora. The application of a material-based approach on the part of the Greek state (influenced by a Classicist approach towards the Byzantine past and attempting to embrace living Byzantine heritage in an already established system of heritage protection based on ‘dead’ Classical heritage, and not involving the religious and monastic communities in

the conservation process) proved inefficient to embrace the strength of the Orthodox Tradition at Meteora as well as the power of the Meteora monastic communities. The result was a demonstration of extreme power by the monastic communities, as evident in the number and the scale of the unauthorised construction works. A values-based approach could not have been applied either: the monastic communities’ connection with the site (who consider their monastery the centre of their life, their only home on earth, and the place of their God and their Abbot) could not have been regarded as a stakeholder group’s value to be taken into account equally to the other stakeholder groups’ values (eg. the tourists’ or the local community’s association with the site) under the control of the conservation professionals. Therefore, given the failure of the current theoretical framework and practice of heritage conservation, also in the context of a values-based approach, to embrace continuity (all four criteria), a new conservation approach is required for the conservation and management of living heritage sites.

Depending on the way continuity has evolved over time

中文译文 · 阅读单元 54

这些案例显示，为了进入官方保护体系，活态遗产自身的照护实践常常必须被削弱、重构，甚至受到压制，而且即使被承认，也更容易停留在国家层级而非严格的世界遗产层级。作者甚至指出，“全人类文化遗产”这一看似包容的措辞有时会成为国家遗产机构压制特定共同体传统实践的工具：一旦某物被定义为属于抽象的“全人类”，那些与其拥有具体、特殊关系的人反而可能被排除。

第四，关于有形/无形表达和空间持续演化：现代保护理论最习惯处理的是空间定义和安排已经停止变化的遗址。保护讨论常把“变化”等同于“失去某种东西”，而不是把变化理解为新的可能性，因为专业人员和保护倡议者往往把过去某个“魔法时刻”想象成理想状态，任何新状况都容易被视为更差。因此，活态遗产持续生成空间和表达的过程，很难进入现有保护框架。

迈泰奥拉本身也证明了这一问题。希腊国家长期采用材料导向方法，而且受古典主义遗产观影响，试图用一套最初为“已经死亡”的古典遗产建立的保护制度来管理仍然活着的拜占庭遗产，又没有真正让宗教和修道共同体参

与。结果，国家制度无法容纳东正教传统的力量和修道共同体的实际权力，共同体反而通过大量无许可建设展示出极强反作用力。

价值导向方法也难以解决，因为修士把修道院视为生命中心、尘世唯一的家、上帝和院长所在之地，这种联系无法简单降格为与游客、地方居民等其他利益相关者“平等的一种价值”，再由保护专家统一裁决。既然材料导向和价值导向框架都无法真正接纳四项连续性，就需要一种新的保护方法。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 55

The way continuity (all four criteria) has evolved over time in the context of the changing broader conditions, and especially the enhancement of the continuity and the increase of the power of the communities, tends to lead to even greater complexities to the conservation and management of living heritage sites by the heritage authorities, with considerable implications for the original spatial arrangement and the fabric of the sites. Living heritage sites are unlikely to conform to the existing conservation principles and practices, particularly in the World Heritage context. With reference to the living Byzantine heritage sites cited above: At Mystras, on the one hand, where the continuity of the site has been suppressed and the power in site management has passed from the local community and the monastic community to the State / the Ministry of Culture, the State faces no significant problems in the conservation and management of the site, with an emphasis on the preservation of the fabric of those monuments that belong to the original (the Byzantine) phase of the site. At Meteora (and also at Mount Athos), on the other hand, where the religious tradition has been maintained and even enhanced over time and the monastic communities have retained their power in site management, there are considerable implications for the original condition of the space and fabric of the site, particularly in the strict World Heritage context, as illustrated in the number and the scale of the unauthorised construction activity. With reference to other living sites cited above: the Tanjore Temple, on the one hand, where the religious tradition has been suppressed over time and the power of site management has passed to the Government of India / the Archaeological Survey of India with reference to the modern scientific-based principles and with an emphasis on the preservation of the original space and fabric, has been designated at a national and an international (World Heritage) level. In the case of the Srirangam Temple and the Tirupati Temple, on the other hand, where the religious tradition has been maintained and even enhanced over time and the monastic communities have retained their power in site management, the changes in the space and fabric have not been embraced within the national and especially the World Heritage system: the Srirangam Temple is designated only at a state level, while the Tirupati Temple is a non-designated site. Similarly, in the case of the Temple of the Tooth Relic in the city of Kandy in Sri Lanka, where continuity has been maintained and even enhanced and the monastic fraternities have retained their power over time, the changes in the space and the fabric often move clearly beyond the existing principles and practices of conservation, particularly in the strict World Heritage context, as illustrated in the restoration of the site after the bomb attack. Thus, it seems that the continuity of a living heritage site, including its traditional management mechanisms and maintenance practices, tends to be suppressed in order to be embraced by the strict World Heritage concept.

中文译文 · 阅读单元 55

【连续性不同的历史演化如何增加管理复杂性】连续性在历史中越被保持和增强，核心共同体权力越强，现代遗产机构的管理通常越复杂，而且更可能对遗址原有空间和材料产生变化；这与严格的世界遗产保护原则尤其容易发生冲突。

在前述拜占庭案例中，Mystras 的连续性已被压缩，管理权主要从地方和修道共同体转移到国家文化部，因此国家基本可以按照保存拜占庭原始阶段材料的目标进行管理，不会遭遇强烈共同体阻力。迈泰奥拉和 Mount Athos 则相反，宗教传统长期保持甚至增强，修道共同体仍掌握很大管理权，因此出现大量无许可建设以及空间、材料持续改变等问题。

在印度，Tanjore 神庙的宗教连续性被压缩，管理权转向国家考古机构后，遗址更容易按现代科学原则保护原有空间和材料，也获得国家与世界遗产认定；Srirangam、Tirupati 的宗教传统和共同体管理权更强，空间和材料变化就更难被国家、尤其世界遗产体系接受，前者只获得邦级认定，后者甚至未被正式指定。斯里兰卡康提佛牙寺也类似：连续性和僧团权力长期增强，空间和材料的改变常明显超出现行、特别是严格世界遗产框架的惯例，爆炸袭击后的修复就很典型。

作者由此得出一个带有悖论的结论：一个遗址越保持真正的“活态连续性”，它的传统管理与维护方式越可能必

须被压缩，才能适应严格的世界遗产制度。

Chapter 14. A living heritage approach: the main principles

第14章：活态遗产方法——主要原则

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 56

A living heritage approach: the main principles

Continuity (criteria)

A living heritage approach emphasises the recognition of criteria of continuity as primary drivers for the definition, conservation and management of heritage (on the development of a living heritage approach see Poulios 2010a, and Poulios 2011; on the application of Strategic Innovation theory to a living heritage approach see Poulios 2014; on the application of Place Building Theory to a living heritage approach see Kimball et al. 2013; on the application of elements of a living heritage approach to the development of Renewable Energy plants in connection to the protection of historic environments and to the sustainable development of local communities see Poulios 2012a). Specifically: a) The continuity of the heritage site's original function. A living heritage approach aims at maintaining-sustaining the original function of a living heritage site and, where appropriate, also reviving it in case this has been broken. At Meteora, conservation, in the context of a living heritage approach, would primarily aim at maintaining the continuity of the monastic function of the site, and also at reviving it after periods of monastic absence as those of WWII and the Civil War. The preservation of the fabric would not collide with the safeguarding of the monastic function, but would be embraced within it. This is clearly reflected in the words of a current monk and a current nun at Meteora:

The monks of Meteora did not aim in the first place to create heritage on the hostile rocks. By offering to God the best they could, they rendered heritage the natural outcome of their ''first/foremost love'' for God. (Tetsios 2003, 338)

And:

We [the monks and nuns] did not come here [to Meteora] to create heritage. We came here to glorify our God, and save ourselves through the glorification of God. Heritage is simply the outcome of the glorification of God. Even if the entire site is destroyed, we should and will still remain here glorifying our God. (pers. comm. Nikodimi)

b) The continuity of the community's connection with the heritage site. A living heritage approach does not treat all groups (and all values) equally, but forms a hierarchy among them on the basis of their differing associations with the site – in this sense, a living heritage approach may not be considered a 'democratic' approach. A living heritage approach prioritises the core community's connection over the other communities' associations with the site, acknowledging that heritage forms an integral part of the life of the specific community, in that it strengthens core-community's identity, pride, self-esteem, structure, and well-being. On this basis, the core community is given the primary role in the conservation process. The core community does not simply participate in the process but is actively empowered: it has the ability to set the agenda, take decisions, and retain control over the entire process. Conservation professionals and the broader community are given a secondary role, that of providing an enabling framework of support, guidance and assistance to the core community (figure 52). Furthermore, the core community seeks development potentials on the basis of its own connection with heritage and in accordance with its own concerns, with the support of the conservation professionals and the broader community. Yet, it is important to make clear that a living heritage approach does not allow extreme power to the core community, by setting boundaries to their power within the traditional parameters

as defined by continuity and in accordance with the original function of the site, also with the support and under the examination of the conservation professionals and the broader community: the core community is not treated as individuals who act on the basis of their personal views, desires and ambitions but as a community that originally created and continues to create the site on the basis of continuity. It is also important to stress that the role of the conservation professionals in the context of a living heritage approach is by no means debased, but is put in a different – and a rather more complicated and demanding – context: the protection of the heritage significance of the site within the traditional parameters as defined by continuity and in accordance with the original function of the sites, in collaboration with the core community and the broader community. At

Meteora, in the context of a living heritage approach, the primary role would be given to the monastic communities, who would be encouraged to continue the creation of the site, with the involvement of the conservation professionals and the broader community through the continual checking of the monastic communities on the basis of the continuity of the site. This is illustrated in the words of a current nun of the site:

The 'better' monks and nuns we become the better heritage we create. But even biologically/as human beings we bear all the positive and negative aspects of the society, the era and the area to which we belong, including family and people, education, culture, and politics. That is why we cannot always lead monastic life in the proper, ideal way, and we do not always do the right things, even on the site itself. That is why there should be some kind of control over our life through a network of laws and experts. For example, spiritual supervision is exercised by the local Bishop, and the control over our restoration and construction works is exercised by the Ministry of Culture. (pers. comm. Nikodimi)

中文译文 · 阅读单元 56

【第14章：活态遗产方法——主要原则】活态遗产方法把“连续性”视为定义、保护和管理遗产的首要驱动力。第一，关于原初功能连续性：保护首先要维持、延续一个活态遗产地最初的功能；如果功能曾经中断，在适当情况下也应努力恢复。对迈泰奥拉而言，这意味着保护的第一目标是维持修道功能，并在二战和内战造成的修道空缺之后恢复它。物质材料保存不应与修道功能冲突，而应被纳入修道功能之中。作者引用当地修士和修女的说法说明这一逻辑：迈泰奥拉修士最初不是为了“创造遗产”才来到岩石上，而是为了把最好的奉献给上帝；遗产只是他们对上帝“首要之爱”的自然结果。即使整个遗址毁坏，他们仍会留下来赞美上帝，因为这才是他们来到这里的根本原因。

第二，关于共同体与遗址联系的连续性：活态遗产方法并不把所有群体及其价值简单视为平等，而是按照它们与遗址关系的性质建立层级，因此它并不一定符合通常意义上的“民主式”平权想象。核心共同体因其原初和持续联系而优先于其他群体，因为遗产是它现实生活的一部分，直接关系到身份、自豪、自尊、社会结构和福祉。核心共同体因此应在保护过程中取得首要角色：它不只是“参与”，而应真正被赋权，可以设定议程、作出决定并保持对整体过程的控制。保护专业人员和更广泛共同体则承担支持、指导和协助的角色。发展机会也应从核心共同体自身的遗产联系和现实关切出发，由专业人员和其他群体提供支持。

但这并不意味着核心共同体拥有无限权力。其权力必须受到连续性所规定的传统参数以及遗址原初功能限制，并接受保护专业人员和更广泛共同体的支持与检验。核心共同体不能被当作凭个人欲望行动的一群个人，而应作为一个最初创造、并依据连续性继续创造遗址的共同体。保护专业人员的角色也没有被贬低，反而变得更复杂：他们要在连续性和原初功能框架内，与核心共同体和其他群体协作保护遗产意义。

在迈泰奥拉，这意味着修道共同体应获得首要位置并继续创造遗址，而保护专业人员和更广泛共同体则持续依据遗址连续性检查、支持其行动。作者引用一位修女的观点：修士和修女越能成为“更好的修道人”，创造的遗产就越好；但作为普通人，他们也带着所属社会、时代、家庭、教育、文化和政治的优点与缺点，所以并不总能做对。因此，需要法律和专家形成一定控制网络，例如地方主教监督属灵生活，文化部监督修复和建设工程。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 57

To this end, the manifestation of extreme power on the part of the Roussanou monastic community through the monastery extension, not strictly within the traditional parameters as defined by the Orthodox Tradition on the site, would not be acceptable by a living heritage approach. The widening of the road network of the site that encourages the further development of tourism at the site, at the initiative of the Ministry of Tourism, with the support of the monastic communities and with the consent of the Ministry of Culture, does not seem to be acceptable either. The odd case of the setting of fire to one of the Meteora monasteries by members of the village of Kastraki (because the monks were – claimed to be – seducing girls from their village), may demonstrate, apart from the possible aspect of revenge and certainly in an extreme way, the following: the meaning of Meteora is inextricably linked to the Orthodox Tradition as practiced by the monastic communities (and not to the desires of the monks as individuals), and the broader community has the role of checking the monastic communities on this (this means that, if the monastic communities do not operate within the Orthodox Tradition, there would be no actual reason for the monasteries to exist in the first place). c) The continuity of the care of the heritage site by the community, as expressed through community's management (and ownership) mechanisms and maintenance practices. In the context of a living heritage approach, conservation process is

primarily based on the recognition and acceptance of the traditional care of heritage (by the community); modern scientific-based conservation principles and practices (of the conservation professionals) assist, implement and are placed within the traditional care of heritage. An appropriate equilibrium is sought between heritage use (by the community and in accordance with the community's connection with heritage) and heritage protection (by conservation professionals), with emphasis often on use rather than protection. Although the fabric is generally preserved (as in the context of a material-based approach: see ICOMOS 1964; see Part 1), at the same time there is an increasing recognition of a whole series of practices towards heritage, with little respect to the material, physical structure (see above).

Thus, in certain occasions heritage may be treated as a 'renewable' resource. On the basis of the core community's care of heritage, coupled with the reduced dependency on external funding and resources, a living heritage approach may be seen as an approach of increased sustainability. At Meteora, a living heritage approach would favour the continuation of the renewal of the individual architectural parts incorporated in harmony within the architectural type of a monastery by the monastic community, with the support of the conservation professionals. d) The continual process of evolving tangible and intangible heritage expressions / of the evolving space of the site. A living heritage approach sees and safeguards tangible and intangible heritage expressions as an inseparable whole, and embraces the evolution of heritage expressions, rendering them revenant to the contemporary society. Therefore, in the context of a living heritage approach, the core community continues the process of the creation of the space of a living heritage site on the basis of the original function of a site, with the constant support of the conservation professionals and the broader community. At Meteora, a living heritage approach would call for the continual process of evolving space on the basis of the Orthodox Tradition by the monastic communities with the support of the conservation professionals.

The way continuity has evolved over time to present

A living heritage approach studies and manages the way continuity (all criteria) has evolved over time to present, in an attempt to guarantee the relevance of heritage to the contemporary society. To this end, a living heritage approach would take the following steps: a) identify the factors (the broader changing conditions at local, national and international level) that affect continuity, b) examine the impact of these factors on continuity (all four criteria) also in relation to the boundaries set by the traditional parameters of continuity and in accordance with the original function of the site, c) examine the consequences of this impact on the conservation and management of the site, and d) suggest ways to manage this evolution of continuity in the present/future, as well as its impact on the conservation and management of the site in the present/future. A living heritage approach would apply to Meteora in the following terms: a) the factors that affect the continuity of the Orthodox Tradition at the site: the breaking out of WWII and the Civil War, the birth of the philanthropic-missionary approach to monasticism by the 'ecclesiastical organisations', and the development of heritage and tourism industries, b) the impact of these factors on continuity: the separation between monasticism, heritage protection and tourism development; an increased emphasis on tourism; and the adjustment of monasticism to the pressure of tourism. These are not strictly within the principles of the Orthodox Tradition at the site. c) consequences on the conservation and management of the site: for example, the absence of a unified management mechanism, unauthorised construction activity on the site, and continually changing spatial arrangements with buildings of interwoven and conflicting functions. d) the proposed solution: an increased emphasis on the principles of the Orthodox Tradition, marking a shift from developing tourism to worshipping God, and incorporating tourism development and heritage protection within monasticism; also, the operation of the Holy Assembly so that unified management of the site is achieved. It is important to note, however, that a living heritage approach would not aim at maintaining the continuity of the site at all cost and under any conditions. If the broader changing conditions at a local, national and international level affect continuity beyond the boundaries as set by the traditional parameters of continuity and outside the original function of the site, then a living heritage site will eventually become a site with a changing/evolving community (i.e. a community using a site in a different context to the original one, in response to the changing conditions, requirements and values of the society: see Part 1). In such cases, a living heritage approach as a unified approach may no longer apply to the specific site; yet, certain of its tools (eg. the four

criteria of continuity) may still be useful for the understanding of the (new) community's association with the site and the impact of this association on the conservation and management of the site (see Poulios 2012a, 134−139).

Conclusion

按照上述原则，Roussanou 共同体通过大规模扩建展示出的极端权力，因为并未严格处在东正教传统为迈泰奥拉设定的参数内，就不能被活态遗产方法接受；旅游部门推动、修道共同体支持、文化部最终同意的道路拓宽，由于进一步鼓励旅游而可能损害连续性，也同样不适合。作者还提到一个极端历史案例：Kastraki 村民曾因指控修士勾引村中女孩而纵火焚烧某座修道院。撇开报复性质不谈，这个案例至少显示，迈泰奥拉的意义与“修道共同体按照东正教传统生活”密不可分，而不是与个别修士的个人欲望相连；更广泛共同体也有责任监督共同体是否仍在传统框架内。若修道共同体本身完全不按东正教传统运作，修道院作为这种活态遗产存在的理由也会受到根本挑战。

第三，关于共同体照护遗产的连续性：活态遗产方法首先承认并接受共同体的传统照护方式，现代科学保护原则和技术应当帮助、落实并被置于这种传统照护框架中，而不是反过来取代它。需要在共同体对遗产的使用与专业保护之间寻找适当平衡，很多时候使用应优先于保护。虽然物质材料通常仍会被保存，但方法同时承认一整套不把物质结构放在最高位置的传统实践，因此在某些情况下可以把遗产材料理解为“可更新资源”。由于保护以核心共同体自己的照护能力为基础，对外部资金和资源的依赖也可能更低，从而具有更高可持续性。对迈泰奥拉而言，这意味着允许修道共同体继续按照建筑类型和修道传统，和谐地更新个别建筑构件，同时由专业人员提供支持。

第四，关于有形与无形遗产表达/空间持续演化：活态遗产方法把有形和无形视为不可分割的整体，并接受遗产表达继续演变，以保持其与当代社会的相关性。核心共同体应依据遗址原初功能继续创造活态遗产空间，保护专业人员和更广泛共同体持续提供支持。迈泰奥拉的空间因而不应被冻结，而应由修道共同体在东正教传统框架内继续发展。

【连续性如何演化到当下】活态遗产方法不仅确认连续性，还要研究和管理四项连续性在历史中如何变化，以保证遗产持续与当代社会相关。作者提出四步：识别影响连续性的地方、国家和国际因素；分析这些因素如何影响四项连续性，并判断是否越出传统参数和原初功能；评估这种影响对保护管理造成的后果；再提出在当下和未来管理连续性演变及其后果的方法。

对迈泰奥拉而言，关键影响因素包括二战和内战、“教会组织”带来的慈善一传教式修道观，以及遗产和旅游产业发展。它们造成修道、保护和旅游相互分离，旅游被过度强调，修道生活适应旅游压力，这些都不严格符合东正教传统；进一步的管理后果包括缺少统一管理机制、无许可建设、空间布局持续改变且建筑功能相互冲突。因此，作者建议重新加强东正教传统，把中心从旅游发展移回敬拜上帝，并把旅游和遗产保护重新纳入修道生活，同时让圣修道院大会真正运作，以形成统一管理。

不过，活态遗产方法并不是无论任何条件都要“维持连续性”。如果地方、国家或国际变化已经使连续性超出传统参数、离开原初功能，那么该遗址可能已经转变为由不同/演化中的共同体以新语境使用的遗址。这时，完整的活态遗产方法未必仍适用，但四项连续性等工具仍可帮助理解新共同体与遗址的关系，以及这种关系对管理的影响。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 58

Conservation in the context of a living heritage approach primarily aims at the maintenance and enhancement of continuity, and safeguards heritage within this connection even if in certain occasions the fabric might be harmed. Conservation also aims at embracing evolution/change over time, and thus guaranteeing the relevance of heritage to the contemporary society. A living heritage approach facilitates a clearly community-centred, interactive and bottom up approach to conservation in assessing the significance of heritage based on core community’s connection with heritage, and developing activities for the continuous care of heritage using traditional (or established) mechanisms and practices. Therefore, a living heritage approach calls for the safeguarding of heritage within the connection of the present community with heritage (continuity), by the present community and for the sake of the present community. Emphasis is on the present, since ‘the past is in the present’ (Wijesuriya 2005; Poulios 2008). The starting point as well as the focal point in the conservation process is the present: present is seen as the continuation of the past into the future, and thus past and presentfuture are unified into an ongoing present.

中文译文 · 阅读单元 58

本章结论认为，活态遗产方法中的保护首先以维持和加强连续性为目标，并在这种联系内部保护遗产；即使某些情况下物质实体受到损伤，连续性仍可能具有更高优先级。保护还要主动接纳时间中的演化和变化，从而保证遗产与当代社会持续相关。

这种方法是明确以共同体为中心、互动式、自下而上的：遗产意义首先根据核心共同体与遗产的联系来评估，持续照护则尽可能使用传统或长期建立的机制与实践。换句话说，遗产是在当下共同体与遗产的持续联系中被保护，由当下共同体保护，并首先为了当下共同体而保护。重点因此落在“现在”——“过去就在现在之中”。现在既是过去向未来的延续，也是整个保护过程的起点和中心；过去、现在与未来不再被割裂，而被统一进一个持续展开的“当下”。

Chapter 15. A living heritage approach: planning process methodology

第15章：活态遗产方法——规划流程方法

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 59

A living heritage approach: planning process methodology

The application of a living heritage approach would require the following steps on the part of the conservation professionals in collaboration with the core community (figure 53). It is important to note that a living heritage approach may be also initiated and applied by the core community in collaboration with the conservation professionals; therefore, what actually matters is not who initiates-applies the process but on following the process.

Step 1: Identification of the living heritage site and the core community

1. Identification of the living heritage site on the basis of continuity, through the following criteria: a) the continuity of the heritage site’s original function; b) the continuity of the community’s connection with the heritage site; c) the continuity of the care of the heritage site by the community, as expressed through community’s management (and ownership) mechanisms and maintenance practices; and d) the continual process of evolving tangible and intangible heritage expressions / of the evolving space of the site. Tangible and intangible expressions would be seen as a unity. 2. Identification of the community of the site: a) the core community; and b) the broader community. Also, taking into account the key management mechanisms and persons of the core community.

The aim of Step 1 is to determine whether the site in question can be considered a living heritage one, and thus confirm that a living heritage approach is applicable to the specific site.

Step 2: Establishment of collaboration with the core community

1. Exploration of the core community, in terms of its identity, structure, and operation (way of life, decision-making processes, and material resources). Also, identification of the groups comprising the broader community, and exploration of the relationship between the core community and these groups.

A living heritAge ApproAch: plAnning process methodology

1. Identification of the living heritage site and the core community on the basis of continuity

Identification of the living heritage site a) continuity of the site’s original function b) continuity of the community’s connection with the site c) continuous process of (traditional) care of the site by the community d) continual process of evolving tangible and intangible expressions / space of the site

Identification of the core community a) the core community b) the broader community

→ the site in question is a living heritage site, and a living heritage approach is applicable → hierarchy of communities

2. Establishing collaboration with the core community

→ aims and expectations of conservation process shared by conservation professionals and the core community

3. Mapping of the living heritage site

Community concerns Evolution of continuity Traditional management at present over time to present systems and maintenance practices over time to present

→ conservation process linked to the sustainable development of the core community → modern conservation-based systems linked to traditional systems

in collAborAtion with the core community

in collAborAtion with the core community

4. Assessment of the living heritage site Cultural significance: Condition of tangible and The broader management hierarchy of values intangible expressions/ context: constraints and space: hierarchy of opportunities for the way expressions continuity evolves

→ statement of significance shared by conservation professionals and the core community → hierarchy of values, and expressions

5. Conservation decisions and actions Conservation policies, Benefits of conservation Ways to involve the objectives, strategies, decisions-actions to the community and use actions, and operational community local resources procedures

→ management plan shared by conservation professionals and the core community

6. Periodic review and revision of conservation decisions and actions on the basis of continuity

→ conservation decisions-actions fit within and serve the way continuity evolves at present and into the future

2. Establishment of a formula of collaboration with the core community. It is important that the collaboration with the core community would: a) involve a third person who would act as a ‘mediator’ between the conservation professionals and the core community. This person does not have to be a member of the core community — actually, it would be better if this person were outside the core community — but should be aware of the context and the concerns of the community, and should be respected and approved by the community. And b) take a legally binding form, making use of the core community’s key management mechanisms, persons and decision-making processes. The collaboration would also involve the key groups comprising the broader community.

The aim of Step 2 is to establish a formula of collaboration with the core community, and develop shared aims and expectations of the conservation process.

Step 3: Mapping of the living heritage site (in collaboration with the core community)

1. Mapping of the core community’s present concerns: about life in general (such as human conflict, and unemployment) and about the site. Also, mapping of the interests of the groups comprising the broader community, and linking of the broader community’s interests to the core community’s concerns. 2. Mapping of the way continuity (all four criteria: see above) of the site has evolved over time to present. This would include the following: a) identifying the factors (at local, national and international level) that affect continuity, b) examining the impact of these factors on continuity in relation to the boundaries as set by the traditional parameters of continuity and in accordance with the original function of the site, c) examining the consequences of this impact on the conservation and management of the site, and d) suggesting ways to manage this evolution of continuity in the present/future, as well as the impact of this evolution on the conservation and management of the site in the present/future. 3. Mapping of the traditional (or established over time) management mechanisms and maintenance practices of the core community. Also, communicating the relevance and importance of the traditional management mechanisms and maintenance practices (of the core community) to the conservation professionals, and similarly communicating the relevance and importance of the modern scientific-based systems (of the conservation professionals) to the core community. Then, linking of the modern scientific-based systems (of the conservation professionals) to the traditional mechanisms and practices (of the core community).

The aims of Step 3 are to link the conservation process to the sustainable development of the core community, and link the modern scientific-based systems to the traditional ones.

Step 4: Assessment of the living heritage site (in collaboration with the core community)

1. Assessment of the cultural significance of the site. This would involve a hierarchy of heritage expressions and values, with an emphasis on those of the core community. 2. Assessment of the condition of the tangible and intangible expressions / the space of the site. 3. Assessment of the broader management context of the site

(including legislation, and the relationship between the core community and the conservation professionals and the broader community), and its impact on the way continuity evolves.

The aim of Step 4 is to develop a shared (with the core community) statement of significance. Also, to establish a hierarchy of values, and of expressions.

Step 5: Conservation decisions and actions (in collaboration with the core community)

中文译文 · 阅读单元 59

【第15章：活态遗产方法——规划流程方法】作者把活态遗产方法转化为一套可实施的规划步骤。通常由保护专业人员与核心共同体合作实施，也可以反过来由核心共同体发起、再邀请专业人员加入；关键不是谁发起，而是是否真正遵循这一过程。

步骤1：识别活态遗产地和核心共同体。首先依据四项连续性判断遗址是否属于活态遗产：原初功能是否持续；共同体与遗址的联系是否持续；共同体通过自身管理/所有权机制和维护实践对遗址的照护是否持续；有形和无形遗产表达以及空间是否仍在持续演化，并把有形和无形视为统一整体。然后识别遗址中的核心共同体与更广泛共同体，并确认核心共同体的关键管理机制和关键人物。本步骤的目的，是确认该遗址是否真正属于活态遗产，从而判断该方法是否适用，同时建立群体之间的基本层级。

步骤2：与核心共同体建立合作。首先要深入了解核心共同体的身份、结构和运行方式，包括生活方式、决策机制和物质资源，也要识别更广泛共同体中的各群体及其与核心共同体的关系。其次建立明确的合作公式。作者建议引入一个受共同体尊重和认可、熟悉其处境和关切的“中介者”；此人不必来自核心共同体，甚至外部人士可能更适合。合作还应采取具有法律约束力的形式，使用核心共同体既有的管理机制、关键人物和决策程序，并让更广泛共同体的重要群体参与。目的，是形成可持续的合作结构，并让专业人员与核心共同体共享保护目标和预期。

步骤3：对活态遗产地进行“映射”。第一，梳理核心共同体当前对一般生活和遗址本身的关切，例如冲突、失业等，同时梳理更广泛共同体的利益，并把这些利益与核心共同体的关切联系起来，使保护与核心共同体的可持续发展发生关系。第二，梳理四项连续性从过去到现在如何演化：识别地方、国家、国际层面的影响因素；分析这些因素对连续性的影响以及是否越出传统参数和原初功能；分析其对保护管理的后果；提出在当前和未来管理这种演化的方法。第三，梳理核心共同体传统或长期形成的管理机制和维护实践，并让专业人员理解这些传统机制的价值，也让核心共同体理解现代科学保护体系的意义，最终把现代体系连接、嵌入传统机制。本步骤的目标，是把保护过程与核心共同体可持续发展联系起来，同时把现代科学方法与传统照护体系连接起来。

步骤4：评估活态遗产地。与核心共同体共同评估文化意义，并按核心共同体价值优先建立遗产表达和价值层级；评估有形、无形表达及空间的保存/运行状况；再评估更广泛的管理环境，包括法律以及核心共同体、专业人员和其他群体之间的关系，考察这些条件如何影响连续性演化。目标是形成一份与核心共同体共享的“意义陈述”，并明确价值和遗产表达的层级。

步骤5开始进入具体保护决定与行动。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 60

1. Definition of conservation policies, objectives, strategies, actions, and operational procedures (in short-, medium-, and long-term). 2. Identification and communication of the benefits brought by the conservation decisionsactions to the core community, in other words identifying the possible ways in which the conservation decisions-actions can fit within and serve the community’s concerns (as described above). Also, identification and communication of the benefits of the conservation decisions-actions to the groups comprising the broader community, and linking of the broader community’s benefits to the core community’s ones. 3. Identification of specific ways to involve the core community, by mobilizing the community and utilizing local material resources. Also, identification of ways to involve the groups comprising the broader community, and linking of the ways to involve the broader community to those to involve the core community.

The aim of Step 5 is to develop a shared management plan.

Step 6: Periodic evaluation/review and revision of conservation decisions and actions on the basis of continuity (in collaboration with the core community)

Conservation decisions-actions would be reviewed and revised on the basis of their impact on the continuity of the site (all four criteria). The aim of Step 6 is to guarantee that conservation decisions-actions fit within and serve the way continuity evolves at present and into the future, and thus further understand and manage this evolution.

中文译文 · 阅读单元 60

步骤5：与核心共同体共同制定保护政策、目标、策略、具体行动和短期一中期一长期运行程序；明确并沟通这些决定和行动能给核心共同体带来什么利益，也就是它们怎样符合并服务共同体的现实关切；同时说明对更广泛共同体的利益，并把后者与核心共同体利益连接起来。还要设计核心共同体具体参与方式，例如动员社区、利用本地物质资源；更广泛共同体的参与方式也应与核心共同体的参与结构相联系。目标是形成一份共同认可的管理计划。

步骤6：定期评估、复审并修订保护决定和行动。所有政策与工程都要持续依据四项连续性检查其效果，确保它们符合并服务连续性在当下及未来的演变。这样，管理过程本身也成为进一步理解和管理活态遗产变化的循环。

Conclusion: The Contribution of a Living Heritage Approach to the Discipline of Conservation

结论：活态遗产方法对遗产保护学科的贡献

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 61

A living heritage approach: challenging assumptions in conservation

A living heritage approach tends to radically redefine the existing concept of heritage and the principles of heritage conservation by challenging, for the first time in the history of conservation, very strong assumptions established over time in the field, which were developed along with a material-based approach and were maintained by a values-based approach (see Part 1; see also Poulios 2014). More specifically, according to a living heritage approach, first, the power in the conservation process is longer in the hands of the conservation professionals, but passes on to the communities. Second, emphasis is no longer be on the preservation of the (tangible) material but on the maintenance of the (intangible) connection of communities with heritage, even if the material might be harmed. Third, heritage is not considered a monument of the past that has to be protected from the present community, for the sake of the future generations; heritage is now seen and protected as an inseparable part of the life of the present community. Thus, past and present-future are not separated (discontinuity), but unified into an ongoing present (continuity). Therefore, a living heritage approach attempts to mark the shift in heritage conservation from monuments to people, from the tangible fabric to intangible connections with heritage, and from discontinuity to continuity.

A living heritage approach in relation to a material-based and a values-based approach

These three approaches to conservation (table 1) reflect different strategies. From the perspective of strategy, a living heritage approach, by radically redefining the existing concept of heritage and the practice of heritage conservation, can be seen as an example of ‘Strategic Innovation’ (introducing a new ‘who’-‘what’-‘how’: see Poulios 2014). Specifically, a living heritage approach proposes a different concept of heritage and conservation, based on the community’s original connection with heritage / continuity and with an emphasis on the intangible elements rather than the tangible ones (a new ‘what’); it points at a different community group as responsible for the definition and protection of heritage, i.e. the core community (a new ‘who’); and it proposes

material-based approach values-based approach living heritage approach

fabric values living heritage / continuity

the meaning of heritage and the aim of conservation

tangible and intangible values, mostly separated from each other

tangible and intangible heritage expressions, seen as an inseparable unity

all values equal, but emphasis on the tangible ones (fabric)

not equal heritage expressions; emphasis on the intangible ones

stakeholder groups core community (that retains its original connection with heritage/ continuity)

heritage authorities (conservation professionals)

the community group responsible for heritage definition and protection

not equal groups; priority to the particular community (continuity)

all groups equal, but emphasis on those associated with the fabric

community empowerment, with the support of conservation professionals

community involvement under the supervision of conservation professionals

power in the conservation professionals- no community involvement

the way heritage is protected by the relevant community group

a bottom-up approach

a top-down approach tries to be bottom-up but often ends up being top-down

dependent on community empowerment

dependent on legal frameworks of protection

dependent on legal frameworks of protection

primary aim of conservation: maintenance and enhancement of continuity (preservation of heritage within the maintenance of continuity)

primary aim of conservation: preservation of heritage

primary aim of conservation: preservation of heritage

heritage significance based on ‘expert’ values heritage significance based on ‘expert’ values and including stakeholder values

heritage significance based on core community values and including ‘expert’ values and broader community (stakeholder) values

treating fabric as a non- ‘renewable’ resource treating fabric as a non- ‘renewable’ resource treating fabric as a ‘renewable’ resource

only minimal interventions to heritage, with respect to the material structure

mostly minimal interventions to heritage, with respect to the material structure

even major interventions to heritage, with little respect to the material structure

(Table continued on next page)

(Table continued from previous page)

development potentials on the basis of core community’s concerns and connection with heritage, with conservation professionals’ support

development potentials on the basis of stakeholder groups’ concerns, but under conservation professionals’ control

development potentials on the basis of conservation professionals’ interests

community-driven approach: power is in the community, with the support of conservation professionals

expert-driven approach: community is involved, but power is in the conservation professionals

the philosophy of conservation expert-driven approach: power in the conservation professionals- no community involvement

continuity: preservation of heritage as part of the present community, by the present community, for the sake of the present community

discontinuity: preservation of heritage considered to belong to the past, from the present community, for the sake of the future

discontinuity: preservation of heritage considered to belong to the past, from the present community, for the sake of the future

a different way of heritage protection through community empowerment and through prioritising traditional care over modern scientific-based conservation (a new ‘how’). Despite the differences between a living heritage approach and a values-based approach, there are cases in which the management of a site would require the combination of (elements of) both approaches, depending on the specific conditions at site level and more specifically on the way continuity has evolved over the course of time to present (see above). Such a combined approach (figure 54; see Poulios 2010c) has been suggested for the management of the living Pantanassa Monastery within the necropolis of Mystras (where the monastic community has remained to present, yet adjusts its life on the basis of the regulations defined by the State, with severe restrictions on its spatial arrangement and its opening hours: see above, figures 49 and 50). However, the existence of such cases does not mean that a living heritage approach is the same with a valuesbased approach.

A different way of looking at authenticity

The current theoretical framework and practice of heritage conservation, in the context of a material-based and also a values-based based approach (based on discontinuity between the sites, considered to belong to the past, and the people of the present), and a living heritage approach (based on functional continuity) tend to see and safeguard authenticity in different and even conflicting ways (see also Poulios 2010). According to a material-based and a values-based approach, authenticity is considered to lie in the past and to be associated mostly with the (tangible) fabric of a site. According to a living heritage approach, authenticity is in the present, and is associated mostly with the communities’ (intangible) association with a site. A material-based and a valuesbased approach concentrates on the preservation of a site, as an obligation to the past generations and also in the name of the present public and the future generations. A living heritage approach

中文译文 · 阅读单元 61

【结论：活态遗产方法对遗产保护学科的贡献——挑战保护领域的既有假设】作者认为，活态遗产方法并不是在现有保护理论上增加“社区参与”这一项，而是第一次正面挑战一系列从材料导向方法形成、又被价值导向方法延续的深层假设。第一，保护过程的权力不再主要掌握在保护专家手中，而转向共同体；第二，重点不再是保存有形材料，而是维持共同体与遗产之间的无形联系，即使材料有时因此改变甚至受损；第三，遗产不再被理解为属于过去、需要从当下共同体手中隔离并为未来保存的纪念物，而是当下共同体生活不可分割的一部分。过去、现在和未来因此不再彼此断裂，而被统一进持续的现在。活态遗产方法试图推动三个转向：从纪念物转向人，从有形材料转向与遗产的无形联系，从断裂转向连续。

【与材料导向、价值导向方法的关系】三种方法代表不同保护战略。作者借“战略创新”的语言把活态遗产方法概括为新的“什么、谁、如何”。新的“什么”是遗产和保护的概念本身：以共同体与遗产的原初联系/连续性为基础，更强调无形联系而非单纯有形材料；新的“谁”是负责定义和保护遗产的群体：核心共同体获得首要角色；新的“如何”是保护方式：通过共同体赋权，并使传统照护优先于、同时结合现代科学保护。

作者的比较表可概括为：材料导向方法把遗产主要理解为“材料”，价值导向方法理解为多种“价值”，活态遗产方法则理解为“活态遗产/连续性”；前两者虽程度不同，最终仍让保护专业人员掌握主要权力，活态遗产方法则让核心共同体成为主导、专家提供支持；材料导向是自上而下，价值导向试图自下而上但常回到专家主导，活态遗产明确追求共同体驱动；前两者的首要目标是保存遗产，活态遗产首先维护和加强连续性，在连续性之内保护遗产；前两者把材料视为不可更新资源并偏好最小干预，活态遗产在某些情况下可以把材料视为可更新资源，允许较大的物质干预；发展机会也不再依据专家或一般利益相关者的目标，而首先从核心共同体的关切和遗产联系出发。

这并不意味着活态遗产方法永远排斥价值导向方法。某些遗址因连续性的历史演变方式，可能需要把两者的部分要素结合起来。作者曾为 Mystras“死城”中的 Pantanassa 活修道院提出类似组合：共同体持续存在，却必须在国家规定的空间和开放时间中生活。但这种组合可能性并不意味着两种方法本质相同。

【以不同方式理解真实性】材料导向和价值导向方法建立在过去遗址与当下人的断裂上，真实性主要被放在过去，并主要与有形材料相联系；活态遗产方法以功能连续性为基础，把真实性放在现在，更多与共同体同遗址的无形联系相连。前两种方法强调“保存”遗址，把它视为对过去世代、当下公众和未来世代的责任；活态遗产则强

调核心共同体持续“创造”遗址，把创造本身视为共同体对遗址固有的责任，并把保护放进创造过程中。

ENGLISH ORIGINAL · Reading unit 62

places emphasis on the continual process of creation of a site by the core community, as an inherent obligation of the community to the site, and places protection within creation. A materialbased and a values-based approach mostly see heritage as a ‘product’, and treat any change in the fabric as something to be avoided, while a living heritage approach sees heritage as a process, considering change of the fabric as an inseparable part of this process. Thus, a living heritage approach accepts that, even if the physical, material structure of a site may be harmed, the authenticity of a site would not actually be harmed as long as the process of creation, in accordance with its original function, would continue. For a material-based and a values-based approach the past is mostly regarded as ‘dead’, and seeking authenticity is unattainable, while for a living heritage approach the past is part of the ongoing present, or rather there is only present (the boundaries between the past, the present and the future are eliminated), and authenticity can never be lost thanks to the continual process of the creation of a site. Thus, it could be argued that, according to a materialbased and a values-based approach, conservation professionals seek, and try to preserve, an ‘aura’

of authenticity (Lowenthal 1989, 846; Holtorf and Schadla-Hall 1999, 231; Cunha 1995, 262−263), whereas, according to a living heritage approach, the actual authenticity is continually defined by a site’s core community everyday presence in, and creation of, a site. Therefore, a values-based approach tends to see and preserve a site as ‘heritage’, while a living heritage approach sees and enhances the further creation of a site as a ‘living reality’. The difference between the concepts of ‘heritage’ and ‘living reality’ may be shown in Buffy Saint-Marie’s song ‘...now that my life is known as your heritage’ (Saint-Marie 1966) and in Ndoro’s words, with reference to Great Zimbabwe in Zimbabwe ‘Your Monument Our Shrine’ (Ndoro 2001). This difference is raised, with reference to Australia, as follows:

Archaeologists and others involved in the study of Aboriginal culture, past or present, should ask themselves what is more important, the preservation of a few relics of the recent past, or the active continuation of that living culture? (Bowdler 1988, 523).

Shifting from preservation towards creation

A living heritage approach suggests that the discipline of conservation does not simply attempt to expand within its current theoretical framework and practice (as defined by a values-based approach), but is substantially changed. Conservation should move towards a completely different context of understanding and safeguarding heritage: shifting the focus from preservation towards creation. Conservation needs to ‘escape’ from the discontinuity created between the monuments, considered to belong to the past, and the people of the present and also from the attachment to the fabric, and move towards the embracement of people’s associations with sites and the continual process of creation of the sites in the context of these associations. The focus, therefore, should not be on how to limit the impact on the fabric for the sake of the preservation of the past, but on how to support, manage and guide the evolution of people’s association with sites over time and into the future. The aim is to change the entire way heritage is perceived, protected and, more importantly, further created.

中文译文 · 阅读单元 62

材料导向和价值导向方法大多把遗产视为一种“产品”，把材料变化视为应尽量避免的损失；活态遗产方法则把遗产理解为过程，把材料变化看作这一过程不可分割的一部分。因此，只要共同体仍按照遗址原初功能持续创造，物理材料即使受到改变，遗址的真实性也未必受到破坏。

在前两种方法中，过去往往被视为已经“死亡”，专业人员试图寻找并保存过去留下的真实性“光环”；在活态遗产方法中，过去是持续现在的一部分，甚至可以说真正存在的只有不断延展的现在，因此真实性通过核心共同体每天在遗址中的存在、生活和创造持续被重新定义。价值导向方法更倾向把遗址看作需要保存的“heritage”，活态遗产则把它看作持续生成的“living reality”。作者借相关文化表达指出，这正涉及一种权力差异：某些人眼中的“你的遗产”，可能正是另一些共同体仍在生活的现实、仍在使用的圣地。

【从保存转向创造】最终，活态遗产方法要求保护学科不只是扩大现有价值导向框架，而是改变理解和保障遗产的基本语境。保护需要摆脱把纪念物固定在“过去”、把现在的人与之分开的断裂逻辑，也要摆脱对材料本身的过度依附，转向接纳人们与遗址的持续联系，以及在这种联系中不断创造遗址的过程。核心问题不再是“怎样尽量减少对材料的影响、以保存过去”，而是“怎样支持、管理和引导人们与遗址的联系在时间中继续演化”。作

者希望改变的不只是具体技术，而是我们理解、保护以及最重要地一一继续创造遗产的整个方式。

References and Index / □□□□□□□

The original book includes a full References section and Index after the main text. They are not duplicated in this bilingual reading edition so that author names, titles, publication data and index locators remain exactly as printed in the source PDF.

原书正文之后附有完整参考文献与索引。本双语阅读版不重复翻译这些书目信息和索引定位，以避免人名、书名、出版数据与页码发生偏差；需要引用时请直接使用原 PDF 的 References 与 Index。